Employees as an Internal Constituency for Corporate Political Strategy*

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Abstract

Firms often face political challenges. Where can they turn for support? Research emphasizes lobbying, campaign finance, and building external constituencies, but internal constituencies—i.e., employees—have been largely overlooked. Employees are an influential constituency that is often aligned with firm priorities, but it is unclear whether employees will take personally costly actions to support their employers' strategic goals. Furthermore, because firm and employee interests often coincide, it is also unclear whether employees' support should be actively mobilized by firms, or if employees will mobilize out of their own self-interest. To evaluate employees' potential as internal constituents, I assemble original data on over 22.6 million U.S. workers at over 226,000 firms and measure changes in voting turnout across 132 state and local elections from 2016 to 2024. First, I show that workers mobilize in response to strategic challenges and opportunities. Workers at firms affected by a ballot measure turn out to vote at higher rates than unaffected workers. Second, firms' political activity is associated with further increases in worker turnout. Firms that actively campaign on ballot measures have higher worker turnout compared to workers at affected but politically inactive firms. Firms' political campaigning is associated with larger turnouts among low-propensity voters, suggesting that firms can increase political support among employees who share their policy goals.

Keywords: corporate political activity, constituency building, nonmarket strategy, politics at work

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1 Introduction

Firms compete across both market and nonmarket domains (Baron 1995a; Henisz and Zelner 2012; Mellahi et al. 2016). Accordingly, firms' ability to shape the institutional "rules of the game" (Keim and Hillman 2008) has long been recognized as a key component of successful firm strategy (Baron 1995b; Bonardi et al. 2005; Oliver and Holzinger 2008). Research into corporate political activity (CPA) describes how firms seek to influence political processes and policy outcomes for their own strategic advantage. Much of this research focuses on lobbying and campaign finance (Hillman and Hitt 1999; Hillman et al. 2004; Katic and Hillman 2023). By contrast, other CPA measures have received comparatively little attention, especially constituency building. Constituency building describes firm efforts to "identify, educate, and motivate to political action those individuals who may be affected by public policies that have an impact on the corporation" (Keim and Zeithaml 1986:829). But although constituency building is regarded as a powerful source of leverage over the political process (Lord 2000, 2003), we lack evidence on whether, when, and how specific constituent groups can be relied upon to advance firms' strategic interests. While some studies examine firms' reliance upon coalitions with external social movements (Dorobantu et al. 2017; Gama and Gatignon 2025; Odziemkowska and Zhu 2025) or public outreach to external stakeholder groups (Murphy et al. 2024; Walker 2012, 2014; Wen et al. 2025), we know little about the strategic potential of one of firms' core constituencies: their own employees.

Employees have the potential to be an especially effective political constituency for firms. Employees are seen as uniquely "sincere, credible, and influential" advocates to persuasively present firms' case to policymakers and other relevant audiences (Lord 2003:119). Furthermore, employees and firms often share overlapping material interests and policy goals, potentially making them easier to mobilize (e.g., Baron 2012:208) relative to external constituencies (Murphy et al. 2024; Odziemkowska 2022). But while Keim and Zeithaml (1986:840) called for empirical investigation to evaluate the effects of constituency-building measures on the political behavior of targeted constituents four decades ago, we still lack comprehensive evidence on whether, when, and how constituents actually support firms' strategic goals.

There are intuitive reasons why employees might seem an obvious political constituency. However, research also suggests reasons why employees' political support should not necessarily be taken for granted. First, as a general matter, citizens routinely fail to take costly political action to support policies

that would benefit them (Olson 1965; Downs 1957; Riker and Ordeshook 1968). Second, and more specifically to employees and firms, there is mixed evidence about the potential for firms to influence employees' politics, with some evidence suggesting that firms can influence employees' political attitudes and behavior (Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Hurst et al. 2025; Stuckatz 2022a,b; Stuckatz et al. 2025; Teso 2025), while other studies suggest that the workplace has limited influence on political attitudes (Chinoy and Koenen 2024; Yan 2025) and that firms' involvement in politics can lead to costly backlash (Bermiss and McDonald 2018; Burbano 2021; Frye et al. 2025; Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018; White et al. 2025; Wowak et al. 2022).

To the extent that we do observe employee support for firms' political goals, it is also unclear what drives employees to take action. One of the reasons why employees are an appealing constituency is that their material self-interests often overlap with their employer's. However, precisely because of these mutual interests, it is difficult to know whether firms can or should actively encourage workers' participation or if workers will take action on their own. Whereas external constituencies are unlikely to mobilize themselves to support firms' preferred policies without direction and organization (Murphy et al. 2024; Walker 2012, 2014; Walker and Rea 2014; Wen et al. 2025), it is hard to know whether employees' support reflects successful firm efforts at constituency-building or employees deciding on their own to take action based upon their own self-interest (Avenancio-León et al. 2026). Understanding the extent to which employees are a constituency that will mobilize on their own or one that requires active firm organization has strategic significance for firms' choice to invest in pursuing different nonmarket strategies (Bombardini and Trebbi 2011; Bonardi et al. 2005; Dorobantu et al. 2017; Fremeth et al. 2016; Hillman and Hitt 1999). The extent to which employees require active constituency building efforts can also inform whether managers should view employees as political resources (Amit and Schoemaker 1993; Barney 1991) or whether firms must invest in capabilities to effectively deploy employees' political support (Makadok 2001; Oliver and Holzinger 2008).

To establish whether, when, and why employees may serve as a strategically important internal constituency, I focus on workers' turnout in U.S. state and local elections featuring ballot questions where voters directly approve or reject proposed laws. I measure whether workers turn out to vote at higher rates in elections where ballot questions address policy issues that are strategically important for their employer. Unlike other actions which are commonly discussed in the constituency-building literature (e.g., contacting lawmakers), voting creates an identifiable administrative record of individual

behavior that I can use to measure whether workers at specific firms take action.

I identify elections that are strategically important by assembling campaign finance records to locate ballot questions in which one or more companies made financial donations to a committee campaigning on the issue. I find 238 such ballot measures held in 132 different elections across 37 states from 2016–2024. I then rely upon novel individual-level microdata, created as part of the Politics at Work initiative (Frake et al. 2026; Kagan et al. 2026), to link voting histories with employment records for over 22.6 million workers at 226,000 firms to evaluate whether workers at firms affected by these strategically important ballot questions turn out to vote at higher rates. Because different states follow different election calendars and each election has unique idiosyncratic characteristics, I estimate changes in turnout using a stacked difference-in-differences design that treats each election as a separate sub-experiment (Cengiz et al. 2019; Wing et al. 2024).

I first show that workers at firms in industries affected by a ballot question turn out to vote at higher rates. Depending on how narrowly I define industries, worker turnout rises by 0.6–1.1 percentage points (pp) relative to workers in unaffected industries. Second, to separate workers acting on their own interests from workers responding to their firm's constituency building, I compare firms that were politically active in campaigning on a ballot measure with same-industry firms that were not. Workers at politically mobilizing firms turn out 1.0–1.4 pp more than workers at firms in the same industry that were not politically active. The increase is largest among workers who rarely voted in previous elections, suggesting that firms increase voting turnout by encouraging workers who would otherwise have stayed home. Additionally, the increase associated with firms' political involvement depends upon the material stakes workers face. When firms campaign on ballot measures where workers have little material stake in the outcomes, the marginal increase in turnout is only 0.2–0.8 pp, but it rises to 1.7–2.7 pp for issues with high material stakes for workers. Because vote choice is secret, I present suggestive evidence on vote direction from voting precincts (the smallest geographical unit for which ballot measure returns are available), showing that precincts with higher shares of workers employed at politically active firms vote more in favor of firms' preferred outcomes, providing supportive evidence that employee support occurs not just along the extensive margin (i.e., turning out to vote at higher rates) but also the intensive margin (i.e., voting in the direction favored by their firm).

This paper makes three contributions. First, I extend research on corporate political activity, which has emphasized lobbying and campaign finance over constituency building (Hillman and Hitt 1999;

Katic and Hillman 2023), and has largely focused on *external* constituents rather than *internal* ones (Walker 2014; Wen et al. 2025). While practitioner-oriented scholarship has long asserted that employees are an effective constituency (Baron 2012; Lord 2003), this constitutes some of the first evidence that employees do mobilize to support firms' political priorities. In addition to establishing the phenomenon, my evidence also provides guidance on *why* employees take action. Mobilization appears driven by overlapping material interests between employees and firms, but firms can nevertheless play a role in amplifying employee support where employees are already aligned and sympathetic with firm goals. Second, by emphasizing the ability of employees to contribute to achieving firms' strategic goals, I link the nonmarket strategy and strategic human capital literatures. Whereas nonmarket strategy literature often views employees as political constraints to be managed around (Burbano 2021; Hurst and Lee 2025; McKean and King 2024; White et al. 2025), the evidence shown here suggests that employees can play a positive role in supporting firms' strategy and performance (Barney 1991; Campbell et al. 2012; Crook et al. 2011). Third, I contribute to a growing discussion about the appropriate role of companies in politics and respond to calls for management scholarship to consider the role of organizations in promoting and maintaining democratic participation and legitimacy (Barley 2007; Battilana et al. 2025; Flammer et al. 2025). Research on employers' political mobilization has documented that firms routinely attempt to direct employees' political behavior (Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018; Frye et al. 2025; Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Stuckatz et al. 2025). While most studies express concern that firms may thus subvert democracy by coercing workers to vote against their preferences, my evidence suggests a potentially more benign story where firms support workers to take action in support of mutually beneficial policies and thus play a positive role in strengthening democratic participation (Hurst et al. 2025).

2 Background

2.1 The Market for Public Policy

Strategy research emphasizes that firms' ability to shape their institutional environment is a major component of firm performance and strategic success (Baron 1995a,b, 2012; Bonardi et al. 2006; Henisz and Zelner 2012; Mellahi et al. 2016). As such, firms deploy a variety of corporate political activity (CPA) measures to attempt to influence political outcomes to their own strategic advantage (Hillman and Hitt 1999; Hillman et al. 2004). Strategy research into CPA typically adopts a "market for public

policy" theoretical framework derived from classical political economy theories (Buchanan and Tullock 1962; Downs 1957; Stigler 1971). Within the market for public policy, firms offer useful resources that are valued by policymakers in exchange for policymakers' assistance and support in pursuing firms' strategic goals (Bonardi et al. 2005; Dorobantu et al. 2017; Grossman and Helpman 1994; Hillman et al. 2004; Lenway et al. 2022; Mellahi et al. 2016). Most research into CPA focuses on the exchange of two types of resources: money (i.e., campaign finance) and information (e.g., lobbying) (Hadani and Schuler 2013; Hillman and Hitt 1999; Hall and Deardorff 2006; Katic and Hillman 2023).

Although it has received far less scholarly attention than lobbying and campaign finance, constituency-building operates by a similar logic of exchange (Katic and Hillman 2023). Policymakers wish to remain in office and so are reliant upon public support to ensure re-election (for elected representatives) or continued budgets and general job security (for bureaucrats) (Mayhew 1974; McCubbins et al. 1987). One type of support firms can offer elected representatives is the direct provision of votes by brokering, buying, or otherwise coercing workers to vote in support of politicians who then reward and/or protect the firm. Employers' coercion of workers' voting power for political ends was a standard feature of 19th-century machine politics in the United States. Despite dubious legality, the practice remains common in electoral systems around the world, especially in less consolidated democracies and transitional regimes (Mares and Zhu 2015; Mares and Young 2016; Frye et al. 2014, 2019, 2025).

Within consolidated democracies, constituency-building more typically operates through an informational mechanism rather than by directly delivering votes (Keim and Zeithaml 1986). A key concern for policymakers is understanding what policies are popular with their constituents and what issues are currently salient or may become salient in the future (Kingdon 1973). Lobbyists may help to address this by providing policymakers with a low-cost source of information (de Figueiredo and Richter 2014; Hall and Deardorff 2006). However, given obvious conflicts of interest, policymakers may not fully trust the information they receive from paid lobbyists. While policymakers can and do rely upon lobbyists to provide information, research suggests that policymakers put far more confidence and weight on "grassroots" outreach they receive from ordinary constituents (Baysinger et al. 1985; Bergan 2009; Bergan and Cole 2015; Heath et al. 1995; Henderson et al. 2023; Hertel-Fernandez et al. 2019; Kollman 1998; Lord 2003). As such, ordinary individual constituents can send a credible signal about the depth of public support for a particular policy by engaging in costly signaling actions, such as calling lawmakers' offices, writing comments to regulators, attending public meetings, persuading neighbors, organizing

rallies or protests, and voting to support firm-friendly policies (Lord 2000; Wen et al. 2025).

2.2 Employees as an Internal Constituency

Early studies primarily focused on describing constituency-building and developing the theoretical logic of the market for public policy (Keim and Zeithaml 1986). More recent empirical investigations of constituency building have largely focused on external constituencies, such as public grassroots campaigns, customer outreach, or partnerships with social movements. Walker (2012) and Walker and Rea (2014) examine how firms organize grassroots lobbying campaigns that target the public in general, while Wen et al. (2025) focus on how rideshare companies mobilize their customers (i.e., platform users). Related research highlights other methods companies can use to shape public policy through public-facing strategies and partnering with third parties (Hiatt and Park 2013; Kollman 1998), such as through firm partnerships with social activist groups and non-governmental organizations (Dorobantu and Odziemkowska 2017; Gama and Gatignon 2025; Odziemkowska and McDonnell 2024). Murphy et al. (2024) offer a rich account of these processes, analyzing how firms construct "bootlegger and Baptist" coalitions with values-driven external stakeholders to build broader political support.

In contrast to the small-but-growing number of studies focused on external constituencies, *internal* constituencies—i.e., a firm's own employees—have been largely absent from studies of CPA, despite earlier optimism about the potential for employees to function as a core firm constituency (Keim and Zeithaml 1986; Lord 2000, 2003). To the extent that employees do feature within research into CPA in any capacity, studies have focused on specialized, elite, or otherwise atypical types of employees. Specialized employees such as professional lobbyists (Jia 2018) or "government affairs" staff (Hall and Sun 2026) play a role in CPA as part of their professional responsibilities to conduct outreach to policymakers. Firms may also take advantage of employees who have informal ties with influential policymakers (Jia et al. 2022; Wei et al. 2023) or who are themselves "revolvers" who formerly served in government positions (Egerod and Hollenbach 2024; Katic and Kim 2024). Additional studies looking at specific types of employees focus on the role of employees' personal political donations to campaigns and political parties (Babenko et al. 2020; Barber IV and Blake 2026; Li 2018; Richter and Werner 2017; Stuckatz 2022a,b; Stuckatz et al. 2025; Teso 2025). However, because these studies focus on political donations, they only capture a small proportion of most firms' workforce (Kagan et al. 2026; Stuckatz 2022a; Teso 2025).

Typical rank and file employees have received comparatively little attention in the study of CPA. This is surprising for several reasons. First, the role of employees as a key stakeholder and contributor to firm performance is widely recognized within strategy research (Barney 1991, 2018; Campbell et al. 2012; Coff 1997; Harrison et al. 2010). Second, whereas research into external coalition-building often highlights the difficulties of managing ad hoc arrangements among participants with different values and objectives (Murphy et al. 2024; Odziemkowska 2022; Walker 2012, 2014; Wen et al. 2025), employees are often assumed to be a constituency that is predisposed to being sympathetic and aligned with their firms' political goals (Keim and Zeithaml 1986; Lord 2000, 2003). Third, unlike external constituents, employees can be organized cheaply and easily through standard firm communication channels (Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018); workers can even be required to participate in political events as a condition of their employment (Secunda 2010). Fourth, employees are seen as especially effective advocates for firms' policy priorities relative to other messengers (e.g., paid lobbyists) or other CPA strategies (Baysinger et al. 1985; Keim and Zeithaml 1986; Lord 2003).

Fifth, and perhaps most notably, firms' attempts at political mobilization of their employees are a phenomenon that is prevalent and growing in the real world. Early theoretical works discussing constituency building identified an anecdotal increase in constituency-building programs among large companies as companies became more politically active during the 1970s and 1980s (Keim and Zeithaml 1986). In recent decades, firms' political mobilization of employees appears to have accelerated. Anecdotal reports abound of workers being told by their bosses how they should vote, and even being forced to attend political rallies, meetings, or other events (Frye et al. 2025; Hertel-Fernandez 2018). In addition to garnering newspaper headlines, this rising trend of employee mobilization has received growing attention from scholars. While some studies demonstrate an association between firms' own political giving patterns and donation behavior among elite employees (Stuckatz 2022a,b; Teso 2025), more recent scholarship also shows that firms target ordinary employees with explicit messages and instructions about firms' preferred electoral outcomes (Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018; Stuckatz et al. 2025). While precise figures differ from survey to survey, a picture emerges that shows that U.S. firms routinely attempt to politically mobilize their workers. In the mid-2010s, Hertel-Fernandez (2018) found that nearly half of managers reported attempting to recruit workers into politics, and that 33% of managers gave their employees explicit political guidance that went beyond generic or nonpartisan encouragement to vote or get involved. While Hertel-Fernandez found that

only about one in four employees reported being on the receiving end of political messages, a more recent survey by Frye et al. (2025) found that nearly half of all U.S. employees had experienced some exposure to political messaging from a workplace superior. In current working papers, Stuckatz et al. (2025) and Avenancio-León et al. (2026) report similar findings: Stuckatz et al. find that 41% of U.S. employees are aware of their employers' corporate political activities and 28% were personally subject to mobilization attempts, while Avenancio-León et al. find that 68% of employees reported that their employer communicates to them about politics.

2.3 Do Employees Take Action?

Studies of internal constituency-building from political scientists and political economists paint worker political mobilization in a negative light, citing normative concerns about power imbalances in the workplace between managers and their employees. While they note that explicit coercion appears almost unheard of in the United States, these studies express concerns that firms can constitute "political machines" (Hertel-Fernandez 2018), "vote brokers" (Frye et al. 2025) or "electoral monopsonies" (Avenancio-León et al. 2026) that can put undue and illegitimate pressure on individual workers and even subvert the overall democratic process. But while these studies demonstrate that firms attempt to build internal constituencies, their fears about democracy writ large rest upon a largely untested assumption. Specifically, we lack clear evidence as to whether firms' internal constituency-building attempts are actually effective at mobilizing individual employees to take action.[1]

On the one hand, it might seem obvious or intuitive that employees would take action to support their firm. Classic theories in management (Campbell et al. 2012; Card et al. 2018; Coff 1997; Wang and Barney 2006) and political economy (Hiscox 2001; Jones 1971; Scheve and Slaughter 2001) link employees' material interests with the performance of their employer. Given shared material interests at stake, it is easy to see why employees will be motivated to take action to support policies that benefit their firm. Employees may also be socialized to adopt firms' perspective on policy issues; organizational scholars have long recognized the potential of the workplace to shape workers' political views (Marx 1852, 1867) and contemporary research has also established that the workplace functions as an important social arena that can contribute to political socialization of workers (Selenko et al. 2025).

[1] Although some prior studies have relied upon survey measures to ask workers if outreach had caused them to change how they voted in the past (e.g., Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Hertel-Fernandez 2018), self-reported recall of past voting behavior is notoriously inaccurate (Ansolabehere and Hersh 2012).

Despite some evidence that the workplace can affect workers' political behavior, there are also theoretical reasons to question whether workers will support the policies favored by their firm. First, as a general matter of political behavior, citizens often fail to take action to support policies that materially benefit them. In addition to theoretical reasons for citizens to free ride on the efforts of others (Olson 1965; Downs 1957; Riker and Ordeshook 1968), empirical evidence shows that political partisanship and ideology mean workers often fail to take political actions that could benefit their business (Dolan et al. 2025; Jares and Malhotra 2024). Second, evidence on the potential of the workplace to influence workers' political attitudes and behavior is mixed. Some recent evidence finds that firm culture shapes participatory civic norms (Hurst et al. 2025) and that messages from bosses may influence workers' self-reported voting behavior or intentions to donate to politicians (Avenancio-León et al. 2026; Stuckatz et al. 2025), but other evidence finds that workplace contact rarely changes preexisting political identities and behavior (Chinoy and Koenen 2024; Yan 2025), that firms' attempts to educate or influence worker politics are often highly resented (Hertel-Fernandez 2018; Frye et al. 2025), and that firms' public political stances can lead to backlash from employees (Burbano 2021; Wowak et al. 2022) and cause attrition among politically misaligned employees (Bermiss and McDonald 2018; White et al. 2025). In fact, many scholars instead argue that employees' politics may influence firms' actions, rather than the other way around (Li 2018; McKean and King 2024). In addition, related research highlights that nearly all workplaces are politically heterogeneous in terms of partisanship (Frake et al. 2026; Kagan et al. 2026), which may make firms' political messaging more challenging inasmuch as firms' preferred policies are politically divisive and/or workers in politically mixed workplaces are reluctant to discuss politics across party lines.

Given this mixed evidence, asking whether employees actually do function as a political constituency for firms is not simply an exercise in empirical gap-filling, but an area of genuine uncertainty. On the one hand, it has long been viewed as almost received wisdom that employees are a natural and ideal constituency for firms, but on the other hand, a growing body of evidence suggests that employees may not take political action to support policies preferred by their employer.

2.4 Why Do Employees Take Action?

Asking *whether* employees take political actions to benefit their employer gives rise to a second theoretical and empirical question: *why* might employees take action? Existing research largely focuses on external constituencies such as customers (Wen et al. 2025) or the general public (Walker 2012, 2014; Walker and Rea 2014) that are unlikely to take action unless the firm invests in constituency *building* efforts. For example, Wen et al. (2025) describe the efforts by ridehailing apps to mobilize their riders to support favorable regulation. While riders do share some overlapping interests with the ridehailing companies—i.e., both may prefer to disrupt incumbent local taxicab monopolies—individual ride-app users were unlikely to coalesce into an effective movement without efforts by the ridehailing companies to direct and form them into an organized constituency (Olson 1965). Relative to external constituents, internal ones (i.e., employees) are likely to have greater material stakes in firms' strategic fights. They are also likely to face fewer organizational barriers to organizing, given that they are already linked through pre-existing workplace social networks. While these are the characteristics that make employees such a natural constituency upon which firms may rely, they also make it more difficult to ascertain whether firms' constituency-building efforts actually increase workers' political activity or are epiphenomenal given that workers may have been motivated to take action on their own.

Distinguishing between active, firm-driven internal constituency-building and passive mobilization of workers is partially an empirical concern of attributing cause and effect. However, it is also a distinction with strategic significance. If employees' political activity is largely self-motivated by employees themselves, firms may be able to treat a politically aligned and engaged workforce as akin to a resource upon which they can rely (Amit and Schoemaker 1993; Barney 1991). This can inform firms' pursuit of nonmarket strategy. For instance, Bombardini and Trebbi (2011) theorize that firms may be able to leverage their employee base as a source of political power and competitive advantage, freeing up resources and managerial attention that might otherwise be invested in securing other forms of political influence. As an example, Bombardini and Trebbi argue that Walmart's large employee base in its home state of Arkansas may allow it to forgo investing in other political strategies (e.g., lobbying and campaign finance donations) to influence state politics. On the other hand, if firms must invest in constituency-building measures in order to ensure that workers are an organized and activated constituency, employees may not be a reliable resource. Instead, firms must choose to invest in constituency-building capabilities in

order to ensure that their constituents are effectively deployed to maximize political influence (Amit and Schoemaker 1993; Makadok 2001; Oliver and Holzinger 2008). Whether employees mobilize on their own or only when the firm mobilizes them therefore determines whether employee political support is an resource firms can draw upon whenever their interests coincide with their workers', or whether firms must invest in capability-building capabilities in order to take advantage of employees' political influence.

The distinction between firm-driven constituency-building and more self-directed mobilization by workers can also affect how such actions are normatively evaluated, which can in turn affect the reactions of both internal stakeholders (e.g., employees themselves) and external evaluators (e.g., customers, lawmakers, and the public). Frye et al. (2025) and Hertel-Fernandez (2018) find that employees react negatively to perceptions that firms are engaging in heavy-handed measures to try to influence workers' voting behavior. They also document public outcry in response to cases where firms' internal constituency-building methods are revealed to the public. Yet on the other hand, less-targeted political messages—such as nonpartisan encouragement to vote—are generally not viewed negatively by participants. This suggests that the distinction between active coalition-building efforts and more passive mobilization efforts could affect how such actions are viewed. To the extent that firms' actions are seen as trying to persuade constituents who are not necessarily motivated or interested in supporting the firm's strategic goals, firms' efforts could be viewed as politically controversial and met with negative backlash (Walker and Le 2023) that can harm firms' reputation with stakeholders (McDonnell and Werner 2016; Jia et al. 2021; Werner 2017). By contrast, firm efforts which are seen as aligning with actions workers may have been supportive of to begin with are likely to be viewed far more positively, perhaps akin to firms' support for broadly prosocial corporate responsibility efforts (Bode et al. 2015; Carnahan et al. 2017; Portocarrero and Burbano 2023).

3 Research Context

While political actions such as writing letters, calling lawmakers, attending public hearings, and speaking with fellow citizens can all be persuasive elements of the constituency-building playbook (Lord 2000), I focus on workers' voting behavior. Unlike more informal actions, voting turnout is recorded as a matter of public record and can, with some effort, be linked to voters' place of employment. While voting

is a useful empirical measure of individual workers' political support, it is also a noteworthy action in and of itself. First, voting is positively correlated with other types of political participation; workers who vote are also more likely to take part in other political actions to support their employers, while non-voters are less likely to take action and get involved in other ways (Verba et al. 1995). Second, voting is a key determinant of policy outcomes in democracy. Not only do votes determine which candidates and political parties gain power, but elections may also directly approve or reject government policy via direct democratic elections (e.g., ballot questions, referenda, or plebiscites).

I focus specifically on ballot questions held in U.S. states and local governments. Ballot questions are a common feature of subnational government at the state and local level in the United States, and are also held in other democracies at both national and subnational levels, including Germany, Italy, Taiwan, Uruguay, and (most famously) Switzerland. During a typical two-year election cycle in the United States, there are usually over 100 state-level ballot questions across 30 or more states, alongside many more questions fielded within local jurisdictions.

Many U.S. ballot questions bear directly on specific industries or companies. For example, in 2018, Oklahoma voters were asked whether to allow Walmart to operate in-store eye clinics to perform exams and sell glasses. While Walmart argued their clinics would lower prices, existing optometrists argued that doctors at Walmart-owned clinics would face pressure to lower medical standards, putting patients at risk. Similarly, in 2022, Colorado voters were asked whether to loosen state laws on wine sales and home alcohol delivery, pitting incumbent liquor stores against grocery stores, convenience stores, and food delivery apps. And in 2024, Missouri voters were asked whether to allow online sports gambling, a measure opposed by the state's existing casino operators. All three of these elections featured expensive political campaigns and were decided by tight margins. In Oklahoma, Walmart spent $4.6 million against $3 million from the state's optometrists and opticians. Ultimately, Walmart's proposal was defeated by only about 5,000 votes (about 0.5 pp of the total), although it eventually was able to negotiate a favorable bill in the Oklahoma legislature—perhaps aided by its strong showing at the ballot box. In Colorado, supermarkets (e.g., Albertsons and Kroger), convenience stores (e.g., 7-Eleven), and food delivery platforms (e.g., Doordash, Instacart) together spent over $14 million, while local liquor stores spent nearly $1 million in opposition; the result was a split decision, with voters approving wine sales in chain retailers (by 3.5 pp) and rejecting home alcohol delivery (by 2.3 pp). Finally, Missouri's fight over online sports gambling involved $45 million spent by online betting platforms DraftKings and

FanDuel versus $9 million from the state's existing riverboat casino operators. In the end, the measure was approved by an extremely narrow margin of 3,000 votes (about 0.1 pp) (Ballotpedia 2026).

While not all electoral contests are decided by such tight margins, these cases do illustrate the importance of constituency outreach within an electoral context. Alongside participating in political campaigns by making financial donations, firms also routinely mobilize their workers to take part in these campaigns as internal constituencies. In Appendix G, I document the involvement of employees in two ballot measure campaigns involving utility companies in Maine and El Paso, Texas. In Maine, workers at Central Maine Power (CMP), a local electric utility, mobilized to oppose 2021 Question 1, which blocked a $1 billion transmission line project, and again in 2023, when Maine voters proposed that the state take over the utility. Similarly, workers at El Paso Electric opposed Proposition K, a May 2023 municipal measure that would also have seen the city take over the operations of the utility. In both cases, the firm's financial contributions to the committee came alongside efforts to involve employees through a variety of measures. While the empirical analysis in the next section focuses on voting turnout, these episodes demonstrate that workers' participation as internal constituents is not limited to the ballot box, but that their voting behavior also coincides with other actions such as putting up yard signs, speaking to neighbors, appearing in advocacy advertisements, and speaking and writing to local media.

4 Data

4.1 Data Sources

To measure whether firms' political activity is associated with increased political support among employees, I assemble several data sources.

4.1.1 Ballot Measures

I begin with the universe of all state ballot questions fielded from 2016 to 2024. I collect finance data from OpenSecrets (2026). In order to focus on ballot measures which have the potential to impact firms or industries, I include only ballot measures where at least one corporation donated to a ballot measure committee on either side.[2] In addition to state ballot questions, I identify local ballot measures from two

[2]Firms that wish to campaign in support of or against a ballot measure committee must donate to a "committee" which is allowed to spend money on campaign activities. Unlike candidate elections, where firms cannot directly give money to

sources. First, Ballotpedia (2026) includes ballot measure coverage for the largest 100 municipalities. I identify two measures in El Paso, Texas, and Jackson County, Missouri from Ballotpedia with relevance for businesses. I additionally include local elections from Colorado and Washington, where municipal campaign finance disclosures are available through state-level online portals. While most elections are fielded during Novembers of even years (i.e., the general election period), states and especially local jurisdictions also field elections during irregular periods where voter turnout is far lower, including November of odd years or at other periods throughout the year.

4.1.2 Employment Histories

Individual workers' employment histories come from Revelio Labs, which aggregates worker employment histories from LinkedIn. Revelio Labs aggregates employment information from online professional profiles, covering over 100 million U.S. employment records. Each record includes the employer name, job title, start and end dates, seniority level, salary band, and NAICS industry classification. Revelio resolves employer names to a canonical company identifier and maps subsidiary relationships to ultimate parent companies. Data from Revelio are increasingly used for research in management and organizational studies, as well as in other social science disciplines (e.g., Briscoe and DesJardine 2026; Hurst et al. 2025; Mohliver and Raines 2024; Wang and Zhang 2026; White et al. 2025).

4.1.3 Voter Records

Individual workers' voting turnout is a matter of public record and is reported in state-level voter files. Voter file data contain details of registered voters' turnout history, partisan affiliation, and demographic information (Hersh 2015). However, voter files contain no information on employment, which has historically limited their use in management and strategy research. I overcome this limitation by relying upon detailed individual-level microdata from the Politics at Work project, an ongoing research initiative linking employment records to administrative voter files. The voter file I use comes from L2, a nonpartisan data vendor, and contains voting turnout history for approximately 180 million registered voters. L2 data are widely used in fields including management (Raffiee et al. 2022) as well as other social sciences (Brown and Enos 2021; Chinoy and Koenen 2024). For each voter, the file includes a

political candidates using corporate dollars, firms can and do give directly to ballot measure committees. Such committees are often established by companies themselves or by their legal counsel; some share the same registered address as the firms donating to them.

complete turnout history across all election types (general, primary, municipal), current and historical residential addresses, party registration where available, and demographic information (age, gender, and race/ethnicity). The L2 voter file contains administrative records for approximately 180 million registered voters across all 50 states and Washington, D.C.

4.2 Merging Data

Linking these three datasets requires two separate merges. First, to join individual-level data from Revelio Labs with the L2 voter file, I rely upon the ensemble fuzzy matching procedure described in Kagan et al. (2026), Frake et al. (2026), and Frake et al. (2025). Because Revelio Labs and the L2 voter file lack a unique common key (e.g., a social security number) or other useful fields (e.g., dates of birth or exact home addresses), I make use of both longstanding record linkage methods (Enamorado et al. 2019; Enamorado 2021; Fellegi and Sunter 1969) as well as newer LLM-enabled methods (Ornstein 2025). Given the scale of matching (approximately 1.8×10^{16} potential matches), this procedure first partitions potential matches by location circa 2024. In other words, the procedure takes registered voters who were registered to vote in a particular metropolitan statistical area (MSA) in 2024 and attempts to match them with workers who reported their employment location in the same MSA. This reduces the scale of required comparisons while preserving the most plausible matches. Second, matching is carried out within the MSA comparison set using probabilistic record linkage following Enamorado et al. (2019), which weights multiple matching fields (name, gender, approximate age) by their discriminatory power. Third, the initial probabilistic match is supplemented with a machine learning approach using large language model embeddings (Ornstein 2025) to capture name variations that string distance measures would miss.

Second, to join state campaign finance disclosures with canonical employer names in Revelio, I implement a four-tier human-in-the-loop matching cascade involving multiple manual and fuzzy matching techniques. State campaign finance data use non-standardized names and, since many politically active companies are private, lack commonly used identifiers (e.g., Compustat's `GVKEY`). My method relies upon conventional string distance matches to capture minor name variants, semantic embeddings which can capture variants such as abbreviations (Dasanaike 2026; Ornstein 2025), and finally, the real-world knowledge contained within large language models (LLMs), such as their knowledge about company

subsidiaries, and variant names and abbreviations.[3] I describe the procedure in Appendix E.

After merging, I exclude firms with fewer than 10 workers in the matched Revelio-L2 data. I also exclude ballot campaigns in which fewer than 50 workers in the state were employed at firms which were politically active.[4] The resulting sample includes 238 different ballot questions, fielded across elections occurring on 132 different election dates within 37 states. I classify each side (i.e., oppose and support) of a ballot measure as a separate campaign. As a result, these 238 ballot measures yield 269 separate campaigns. Across these elections, there are 734,696 workers at 1,916 treated firms and 22,055,379 workers at 225,235 comparison firms in the same states. The overall size of the dataset in terms of ballot measures, elections, geographies, and workers is described in Table 1. Table 2 provides an additional breakdown of each campaign in terms of election timing (i.e., general election vs. off-cycle), geographic scope (i.e., state vs. local), policy domain (described below), and industry sector (i.e., 2-digit NAICS). Figures A1 and A2 display the breakdown by policy domain and industry, respectively.

4.3 Variables

4.3.1 Dependent Variable

Worker Turnout I define *turnout* by whether a worker turned out to vote in a particular election. L2 records vote turnout in each state snapshot but does not distinguish between cases in which a voter was eligible to vote but declined and cases in which a voter was not eligible (e.g., because they were not yet 18 or were registered to vote in another state at the time). To disambiguate between registered voters who declined to vote and those who were not registered, I use the registration date and code elections prior to the registration date as missing rather than failure to turn out to vote. Turnout in general (even-year November) elections is typically between 60–80% of registered voters, with higher turnout in Presidential years relative to midterms. Non-general elections typically have turnout below 20% of registered voters. See Appendix Figure A3.

[3] These methods have different strengths and trade-offs. String distance can retrieve obvious variants and minor typos such as "Microsoft Co." vs. "Microsoft Corp." vs. "Microsotf" [sic]. Semantic similarity relies upon high-dimensional embeddings and so is often able to retrieve far more distant text strings: for example, "BofA" vs. "Bank of America." Finally, LLMs contain massive amounts of knowledge about the world and can impressively match subsidiaries and even map companies across M&A or name changes (especially very large commercial models as opposed to smaller local or open weight models). For example, modern LLMs are well aware that "Instagram," "Meta," "WhatsApp," and "Facebook" all refer to the same corporate parent. As a result, LLMs can effectively evaluate and review the performance of other matching methods. A growing literature now demonstrates that LLMs dramatically outperform human coders on a wide range of tasks (Bermejo et al. 2025; Choi et al. 2026).

[4] Of the 323 campaigns with at least one firm contributor, 54 have too few workers to be included. See Table A1.

Table 1: Sample Details

Ballot measures	238
Campaigns (ballot measure × stance)	269
Ballots (state × election date)	132
Presidential-year November	53
Midterm-year November	39
Non-general elections	40
Statewide elections	123
Local elections	11
Unique states	37
Workers	22,643,845
At politically active firms	734,696
At comparison (politically inactive) firms	22,055,379
Worker-campaigns	200,772,944
At politically active firms	908,579
At comparison (politically inactive) firms	199,864,365
Firms	226,124
Politically active	1,916
Comparison (politically inactive)	225,235

Ballot measures refer to distinct questions. Campaigns refer to stances on each ballot measure in which one or more corporations donated to a ballot measure committee campaigning either in support of or against the measure. Because some ballot measures feature campaigns in support of and opposing the measure, the number of campaigns is greater than the number of ballot measures. General elections occur in November of even years and are split between Presidential election years (2016, 2020, and 2024) and midterms (2018, 2022). Non-general elections occur in other periods, including November of odd years or in other months. Politically active firms are firms that give to a ballot measure committee in a particular state. Workers at politically active firms are those registered to vote in the state (or, for local campaigns, the jurisdiction) where the firm gave. Politically active firms are included only during the first election in which they donate in a given state and are excluded in subsequent treatment periods to avoid "forbidden comparisons." Similarly, firms which ever donate in a given state are excluded from the set of comparison firms. Because some politically active firms give to multiple campaigns in the same election, the number of worker-campaigns at politically active firms is larger than the number of unique workers at politically active firms. Totals seen here include all firms; more restrictive specifications have smaller samples. Table A2 reports the totals for the more restrictive comparison groups.

4.3.2 Independent Variables

Workers may take political action because their firm engages in internal constituency building efforts. However, employees may also be motivated to take political actions on their own because of their own self-interest in policies that benefit their firm; firms' active constituency-building efforts may appear to cause increased political mobilization among workers even if these actions are entirely epiphenomenal (Avenancio-León et al. 2026).

Separating these two is not straightforward. First, these two distinct motivations likely blend together in practice. Firms' mobilization of their employees may occur on an informal basis without central firm planning, e.g., through conversations among workers and supervisors. Second, firms' internal constituency building efforts are rarely publicly observable. While employees do sometimes play a role in firms' visible campaign activity, internal constituency-building—like many other forms of CPA (Werner

2017; Jia et al. 2021)—is not subject to public disclosure and is rarely visible to outside observers. While there are some cases in which firms engage in well-publicized mobilization campaigns that target and involve their own employees (see Appendix G), firms' internal political messages are rarely observable.

To better separate between firms' active constituency mobilization and employees' self-directed mobilization, I use firms' involvement in public political campaigning—as disclosed through campaign finance filings—as a visible proxy for internal constituency-building efforts that are not publicly observable. Because informal internal constituency-mobilization can easily occur without formal political contributions (i.e., via workplace conversations about politics) (Hertel-Fernandez 2018; Hurst et al. 2025; Mutz and Mondak 2006), the donation measure is likely a conservative *under-count* of the true extent of firms' internal constituency mobilization.

Affected Firms To determine what firms may be strategically impacted by a ballot question, I take two approaches. First, I look at the firms which made political contributions to ballot questions. I view these contributions as a costly signal of the ballot measures' importance, and infer that their industry was likely to be strategically affected. As such, I code that all firms in the same state and same industry as at least one politically active firm are affected by a measure. I code affected firms within two-digit NAICS codes (i.e., sector), as well as 4- and 6-digit industry codes. This coding method also accounts for the fact that some firms may choose not to engage in political campaigning by spending money because they are able to free-ride on the contributions of others. For example, in Colorado's 2022 ballot measures related to alcohol sales, only a small number of liquor and wine retailers contributed to the political campaign opposing changes to the state's liquor laws. My coding scheme would thus classify all workers who work at alcohol retailers as affected, even though most alcohol stores did not participate in the political campaign opposing the changes.

Second, because this industry approach involves some degree of circularity, I also identify affected industries using an LLM coding scheme that does not assume strategic significance based upon firms' observed behavior. For each ballot measure, two artificial intelligence raters (Jev[5] and OpenAI gpt-5.6-terra) rate how strongly the proposed measure, if enacted, would change an industry's product, its customers' demand, its regulatory or compliance costs, or the competitive landscape on a scale from 0 to 3. Raters first score each of the 20 two-digit NAICS sectors. For all sectors which were scored above zero,

[5]Jev is a discriminative model that can perform zero-shot classification tasks.

they rate every four-digit industry group within that sector again. Four-digit industries are classified as affected when raters' scores converge at two or higher. In cases where one rater classifies an industry as ≥ 2 and the other does not, a third independent model breaks the tie. The raters agree on whether a sector is materially affected for 88.9% of measure–sector cells. For example, California's Proposition 22 (2020), which classified app-based drivers as independent contractors, is scored as affecting taxi and limousine service (NAICS 4853), other ground passenger transportation (4859), couriers (4921), local delivery (4922), and restaurants (7225). Appendix F.1 describes the procedure in full.

Politically Active Firms Within the broader subset of potentially affected firms, I additionally identify politically active firms as those which are recorded as having donated to a political committee that campaigned on the ballot measure in question, based upon state campaign finance data reports collected by Open Secrets or directly from the Colorado and Washington campaign finance state portals. As discussed previously, I use visible political activity here as a proxy for the likelihood that the firm also engaged in internal constituency-building activities.

4.3.3 Other Variables

Material Stakes for Workers For ballot questions, I code the *material stakes* by measuring the extent to which a ballot question proposal has a potential material effect on employees' jobs, income, or working conditions. I code this using multiple LLM coding agents and assign each firm $\times$ ballot question combination a rating for the extent to which the proposed ballot question has material stakes for both workers and their firm. The LLMs deliver ratings on a 1–10 scale, as well as a categorical grouping into high (8–10), medium (4–7), and low (1–3). Appendix F describes the full coding procedure. Table 2 reports the number of worker-campaigns at politically active firms and the number of politically active firms in each stake category.

Policy Type I define a ballot measure's *policy type* as its primary substantive policy domain. Measures were classified into one of twelve separate policy categories with the assistance of multiple LLM coding agents. Appendix F provides the full procedure. Table 2 reports the number of campaigns, worker-campaigns at politically active firms, and politically active firms in each policy domain.

Table 2: Campaign characteristics

	Campaigns		Worker-campaigns at politically active firms		Politically active firms	
	N	%	N	%	N	%
Election timing						
Presidential-year November	134	49.8	492,329	54.2	1,029	53.7
Midterm-year November	80	29.7	208,240	22.9	572	29.9
Non-general	55	20.4	208,010	22.9	453	23.6
Scope						
Statewide	255	94.8	904,434	99.5	1,888	98.5
Local	14	5.2	4,145	0.5	35	1.8
Policy domain						
Education	36	13.4	193,451	21.3	478	24.9
Health care	28	10.4	147,276	16.2	290	15.1
Taxes and budget rules	27	10.0	104,625	11.5	232	12.1
Industry regulation	43	16.0	76,006	8.4	242	12.6
Transportation and infrastructure	13	4.8	74,693	8.2	259	13.5
Elections and government	28	10.4	73,511	8.1	163	8.5
Social and civil rights	19	7.1	69,049	7.6	149	7.8
Environment and energy	30	11.2	53,028	5.8	169	8.8
Housing and land	10	3.7	52,137	5.7	101	5.3
Public safety and justice	17	6.3	40,086	4.4	79	4.1
Labor and employment	14	5.2	15,184	1.7	89	4.6
Other	4	1.5	9,533	1.0	39	2.0
Material stake						
High (8–10)			53,475	5.9	223	11.6
Medium (4–7)			324,344	35.7	1,005	52.5
Low (1–3)			530,760	58.4	905	47.2
Industry sector						
Health care & social assistance (62)			214,628	23.6	259	13.5
Information (51)			136,919	15.1	100	5.2
Educational services (61)			108,955	12.0	179	9.3
Retail trade (44–45)			92,124	10.1	101	5.3
Finance & insurance (52)			86,256	9.5	199	10.4
Manufacturing (31–33)			78,649	8.7	200	10.4
Utilities (22)			36,872	4.1	59	3.1
Mining, oil & gas (21)			28,262	3.1	56	2.9
Prof., scientific & technical (54)			22,370	2.5	159	8.3
Arts & recreation (71)			22,268	2.5	56	2.9
Transportation & warehousing (48–49)			20,389	2.2	44	2.3
Accommodation & food (72)			18,731	2.1	69	3.6
Administrative & waste services (56)			11,534	1.3	31	1.6
Construction (23)			11,507	1.3	162	8.5
Real estate & leasing (53)			7,585	0.8	80	4.2
Wholesale trade (42)			5,692	0.6	57	3.0
Public administration (92)			2,507	0.3	48	2.5
Agriculture & forestry (11)			2,246	0.2	32	1.7
Other services (81)			821	0.1	12	0.6
Management of companies (55)			132	0.0	4	0.2
Unknown			132	0.0	9	0.5

A campaign is one side (support or oppose) of one ballot measure. N: the count in the row; %: its share of the sample's campaigns, worker-campaigns at politically active firms or politically active firms. Election timing: November general elections in presidential years (2016, 2020, 2024) and midterm years (2018, 2022); non-general is every other election (odd-year, primary and special dates). Material stakes are classified according to the procedure described in Appendix F.2. Policy domain is classified according to the procedure described in Appendix F.3.

5 Stacked Difference-in-Differences

5.1 Empirical Setup

To evaluate the potential for employees to serve as strategically valuable internal constituents, I proceed in two steps. First, to understand whether workers politically mobilize to support their firms' strategic goals, I compare the turnout of workers at firms which are affected by ballot measures against the turnout of unaffected workers in the same election. Increases in affected worker turnout provide evidence consistent with workers mobilizing to provide strategic support to firms. In order to better understand whether this support is associated with firms' mobilization, I then conduct a second test in which I compare workers at politically active firms against workers in the same affected industries but whose firms do not politically mobilize. In other words, the first set of tests examines whether workers mobilize at all, and the second test considers whether firms' political activity is associated with additional increases in worker support.

To do this, I rely upon stacked difference-in-differences. This approach treats each individual campaign (i.e., each ballot question × side) as a separate sub-experiment (Cengiz et al. 2019; Wing et al. 2024). I adopt this approach for several reasons. First, the stacked difference-in-difference approach avoids well-known pitfalls from heterogeneous treatment effects and/or negative weights in a staggered rollout setting where not all units are treated at the same time, as is the case here (Goodman-Bacon 2018; de Chaisemartin and D'Haultfœuille 2023; Borusyak et al. 2024). Second, the stacked approach allows me to aggregate across jurisdictions despite the fact that each state and locality follows different election calendars for off-cycle (non-general) elections. This means that there is no common event-time across each jurisdiction. In other words, the event time indicators for each state or locality (i.e., $t_{-4}, t_{-3}, \ldots, t_0$) do not necessarily correspond to the same election periods. As a result, it is not straightforwardly possible to pool across elections using the time fixed effects used in standard TWFE models or later, more modern estimators that also are built around common event time structures (Sun and Abraham 2021; Callaway and Sant'Anna 2021). Stacked difference-in-difference allows each state or locality to follow its own flexible event time structure.

Because turnout levels differ dramatically between general elections held in November of even years and "off-cycle" elections held during other periods (see Figure A3), I compare elections only with previous elections of the same type. Each sub-experiment "stack" thus consists of one campaign held

within a particular election in a particular jurisdiction (i.e., a state or locality). General elections (i.e., even-year November elections) are compared against the four previous general elections. For example, a 2020 election would be compared against the 2018, 2016, 2014, and 2012 elections. Off-cycle elections in each state or local jurisdiction follow a more irregular schedule, and so each election is compared with prior off-cycle elections in the same state, which may include odd-year Novembers, primary elections held in the spring or summer, or "special" elections held on an ad hoc basis.

To stack each individual sub-experiment, I follow the approach of Wing et al. (2024), which gives each stack's comparison workers the same total weight as its treated workers.[6] I limit my sample of "treated" workers to the first campaign in which a given firm was politically active in a given state to measure the effect of "first-time" mobilizers. Firms which mobilize at any point in a given state are excluded from the comparison group, which is limited to "never-treated" firms.

5.2 Affected Workers vs. Unaffected Workers

I first compare workers at affected firms against workers who are unaffected by a particular ballot measure. I first estimate the event study specification

$$Y_{ict} = \sum_{r \neq -1} \beta_r \left(Affected_{ic} \times \mathbf{1}[t = r] \right) + \alpha_{ic} + \gamma_{tc} + \varepsilon_{ict}, \tag{1}$$

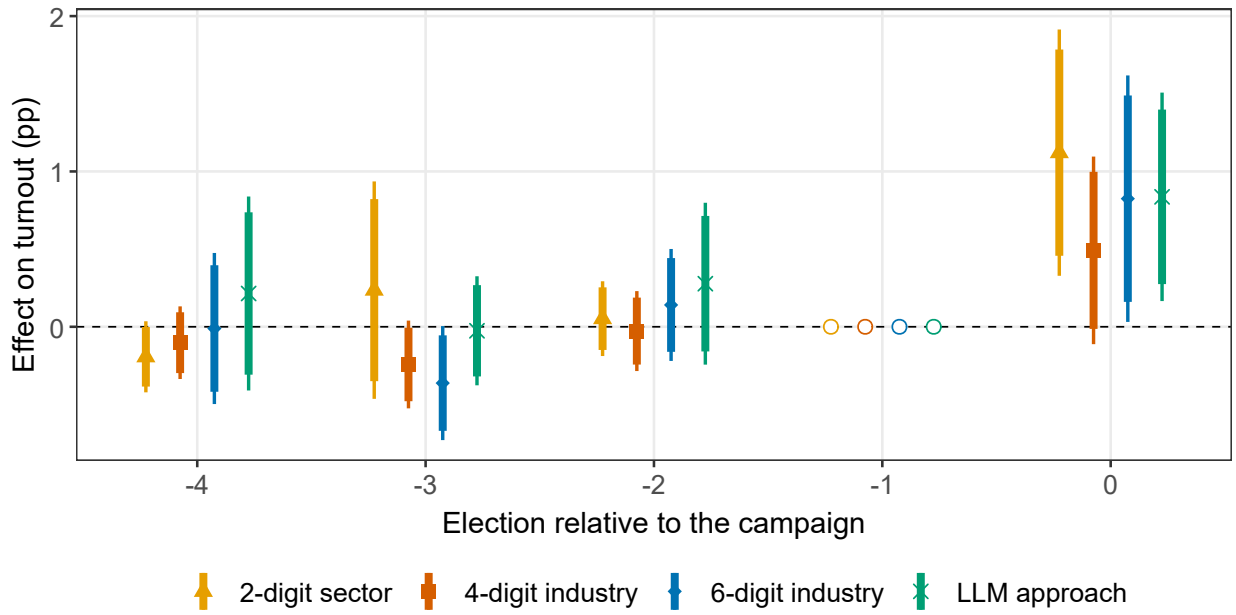
where i is a worker, c a campaign and t an election in event time, $r = -4, \ldots, 0$. $Affected_{ic} = 1$ if worker i's own industry is affected in campaign c. As previously described, I assign $Affected_{ic}$ at the 2-, 4-, and 6-digit NAICS level, as well as via an alternative LLM strategy to identify affected industries. α_{ic} is a worker × campaign fixed effect (i.e., unit), and γ_{tc} is a time × campaign fixed effect (i.e., time).[7] Standard errors are clustered by firm and by ballot. Figure 1 depicts the coefficient estimates in this event study. Pre-treatment periods do not significantly differ from zero, and β_0 is positive and significant in three of the four specifications.

I then fit a pooled difference-in-difference version that replaces the event-time interactions with

[6] Each worker receives a base weight $b = 1/k$, where k is the number of campaigns on the same ballot in which the worker appears in the same group (recall that firms may campaign on multiple ballot measures fielded during the same election.) Comparison workers' weights are scaled so that in each stack all comparison workers together receive the same weight as the total treated workers. Each comparison worker j in stack s receives weight $b_j \cdot \frac{\sum_{i' \in \mathcal{T}_s} b_{i'}}{\sum_{j' \in \mathcal{C}_s} b_{j'}}$, where $\mathcal{T}_s$ and $\mathcal{C}_s$ are the treated and comparison workers of stack s.

[7] Because each campaign is "stacked" into a single larger regression, unit and time fixed effects also include campaign (i.e., stack) indicators.

Figure 1: Event study: all workers in affected industries against workers in unaffected industries



Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals. Standard errors clustered by firm and ballot.

$Post_t$, which equals one at the campaign's election, $r = 0$:

$$Y_{ict} = \beta \left(Post_t \times Affected_{ic} \right) + \alpha_{ic} + \gamma_{tc} + \varepsilon_{ict}. \tag{2}$$

Results are shown in Table 3. Across all specifications, workers at affected firms turn out at higher rates relative to unaffected firms. The estimated increase in turnout is largest when including all firms within a broad 2-digit sector, but consistently positive and significant. In Appendix C.2, I also report alternative standard errors clustered at other levels (Table A6) as well as standard errors from a restricted wild cluster bootstrap clustered by ballot and separately by state (Tables A8 and A7).

5.3 Workers at Politically Active Firms vs. Other Affected Workers

Workers turn out to vote at higher rates in elections in which their firm faces a strategic threat or opportunity at the ballot box. To better understand whether and how firms' active political campaigning—a proxy for internal constituency-building activity—may shape this increase in worker turnout, I re-fit versions of Equations 1 and 2, but include separate treatment indicators for firms which mobilize and for firms which are affected but do not mobilize. Event study results are shown in Figure 2 and pooled

Table 3: Affected industries against unaffected workers

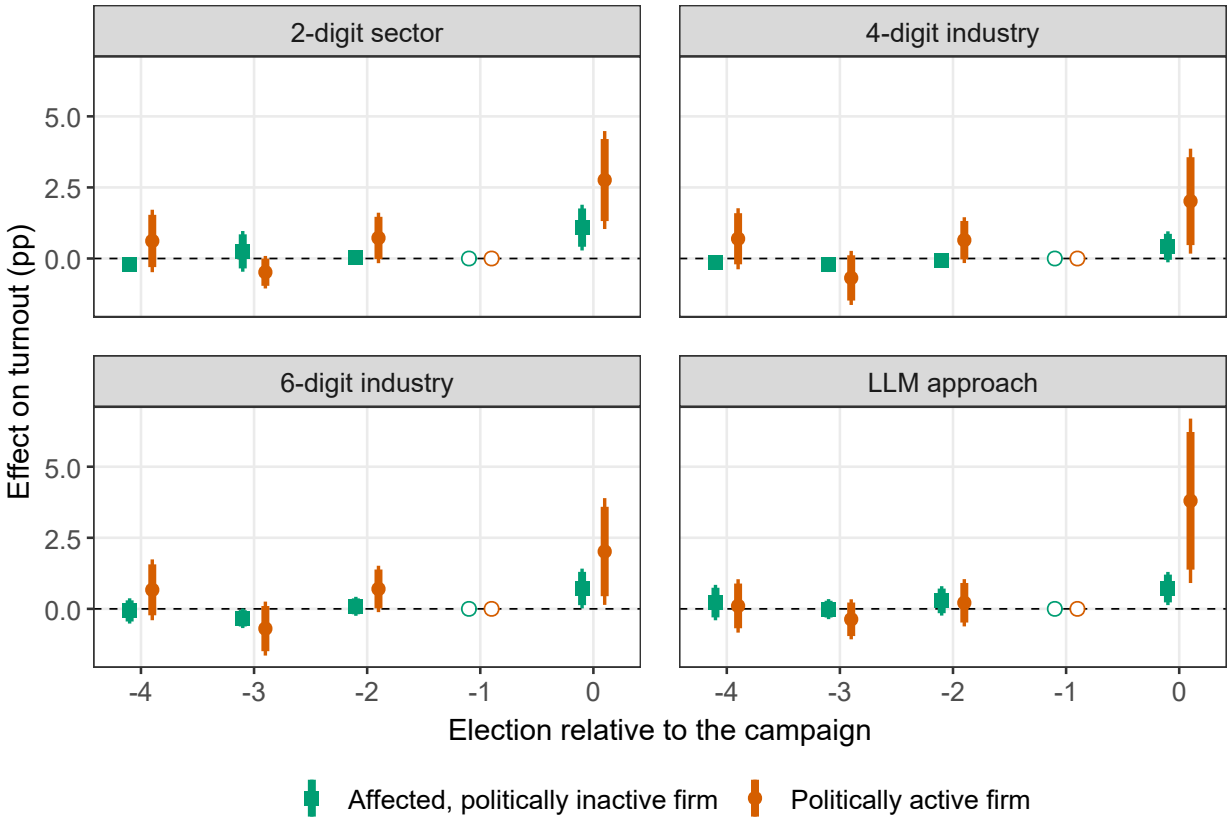
	2-digit sector (1)	4-digit industry (2)	6-digit industry (3)	LLM approach (4)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Affected}_{ic}$	1.09***	0.58**	0.87**	0.73**
	(0.38)	(0.29)	(0.37)	(0.29)
Fixed effects				
Worker × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Time × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Campaigns	269	269	269	223
Ballots	132	132	132	113
Worker-campaigns				
Politically active firms	908,579	908,579	908,579	214,371
Affected, politically inactive firms	70,037,904	20,998,116	11,335,349	7,453,743
Unaffected firms	129,518,347	178,558,135	188,220,902	167,684,932
Politically active, unaffected				607,556
Workers				
Politically active firms	734,696	734,696	734,696	204,847
Affected, politically inactive firms	14,308,798	6,762,183	4,504,499	3,660,338
Unaffected firms	20,947,830	21,793,144	21,876,707	20,739,065
Politically active, unaffected				510,554
Firms				
Politically active firms	1,916	1,916	1,916	600
Politically active, unaffected				1,262

Columns (1)–(3) compare workers in affected industries, defined as the 2-digit sector or 4- or 6-digit industry of at least one politically active firm in the campaign, with workers at politically inactive firms outside them. Column (4) identifies affected industries using the LLM methodology described in Section 4.3.2 and Appendix F.1. Turnout differences are reported in percentage points (pp). Each stack is weighted by the sum of its affected workers' weights $1/k$; within a stack, comparison workers are scaled to the same total weight. Because some workers appear in several campaigns on the same ballot (as comparison workers, or because the same firm is active in several campaigns), a worker in k campaigns on the same ballot in the same group carries weight $1/k$. In column (4), workers at politically active firms outside the rated industries carry their own term in the same regression, not shown: 0.95 (SE 0.71). Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot and reported in parentheses; alternative clustering methods and wild cluster bootstrap intervals are reported in Appendix C.2. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

difference-in-difference results are shown in Table 4. While all affected firms see increased worker turnout relative to unaffected workers, the increases are larger for firms which also politically mobilize, suggesting that firms' political activity has an impact above and beyond workers' own motivations to act in their own self-interest.

Interestingly, using the LLM approach, a small number of firms are politically active despite being in industries that are not classified by the LLM as politically affected. These include a number of instances in which firms giving likely reflects the personal politics' of firm owners at (private) companies. For example, M Motor Groups, an Ohio car dealership, gave $100,000 to a campaign opposing Ohio Issue 1, which would have amended the state constitution to include abortion access. While this may seem a strange choice that has little to do with automotive sales, this appears to be because M Motor Group

Figure 2: Event study: workers in affected industries against unaffected workers, split by politically active vs. inactive



Each panel compares workers at firms which are politically active and firms which are affected (but not politically active) against workers at firms in unaffected industries. Affected industries are identified as firms which are in the same industry as a politically mobilizing firm or alternatively by an LLM-enabled method, as described in Section 4.3.2 and Appendix F.1. Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot.

is associated with Bernie Moreno, a Republican Senator from the state. In such cases where political activity likely reflects solely a financial contribution and is unlikely to be accompanied by internal employee mobilization—or where internal employee constituency building does not rest upon shared material stakes—the increase is worker turnout associated with firm mobilization is not significant.

Figure 2 and Table 4 suggest that workers at politically mobilizing firms turn out at higher rates than workers who are similarly affected by ballot questions, but whose firms do not mobilize. To more formally test the difference between politically active and politically inactive firms that face similar industry exposure, I return to Equations 1 and 2, but replace γ_{tc} with γ_{tcs}, a time × campaign × industry fixed effect (where s is worker i's own industry), and $Affected_{ic}$ with $Active_{ic}$. This limits comparisons such that politically active firms are compared only to firms within the same industry that are not

Table 4: Workers at politically inactive and politically active firms in affected industries against unaffected workers

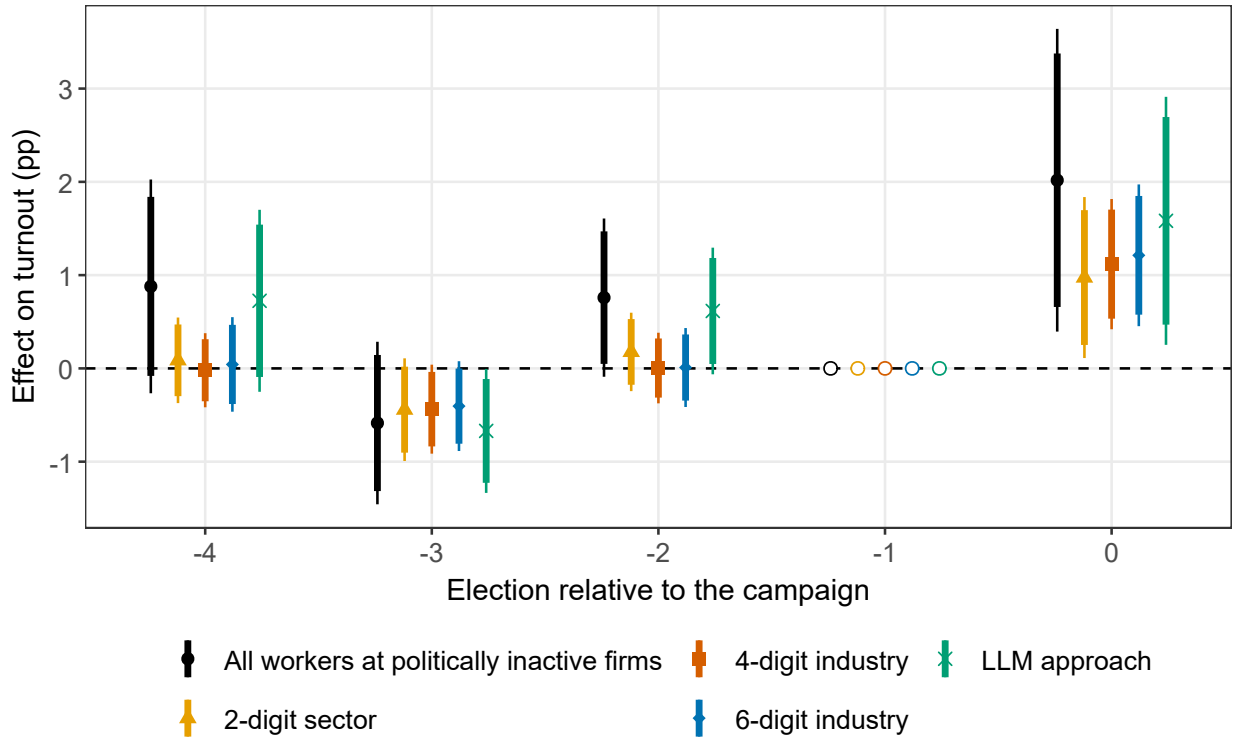
	2-digit sector (1)	4-digit industry (2)	6-digit industry (3)	LLM approach (4)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Affected}_{ic} \times (1 - \text{Active}_{ic})$	1.06***	0.51**	0.78**	0.60***
	(0.38)	(0.25)	(0.32)	(0.22)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Affected}_{ic} \times \text{Active}_{ic}$	2.55***	1.86**	1.86*	3.81**
	(0.91)	(0.93)	(0.95)	(1.56)
$\text{Post}_t \times (1 - \text{Affected}_{ic}) \times \text{Active}_{ic}$				0.95
				(0.71)
Fixed effects				
Worker × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Time × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Campaigns	269	269	269	223
Ballots	132	132	132	113
Worker-campaigns				
Politically active firms	908,579	908,579	908,579	214,371
Affected, politically inactive firms	70,037,904	20,998,116	11,335,349	7,453,743
Unaffected firms	129,518,347	178,558,135	188,220,902	167,684,932
Politically active, unaffected				607,556
Workers				
Politically active firms	734,696	734,696	734,696	204,847
Affected, politically inactive firms	14,308,798	6,762,183	4,504,499	3,660,338
Unaffected firms	20,947,830	21,793,144	21,876,707	20,739,065
Politically active, unaffected				510,554
Firms				
Politically active firms	1,916	1,916	1,916	600
Politically active, unaffected				1,262

Columns (1)–(3) define affected industries as the 2-digit sector or 4- or 6-digit industry of at least one politically active firm in the campaign; column (4) identifies affected industries using the LLM methodology described in Section 4.3.2 and Appendix F.1. Turnout differences are reported in percentage points (pp). A worker who appears in k campaigns on the same ballot in the same group carries base weight $1/k$. Each stack is weighted by the base weights of its affected workers, at politically active and inactive firms alike, and within a stack comparison workers are scaled to the same total weight as affected workers. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot and reported in parentheses. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

politically active. Event study results are shown in Figure 3 while difference-in-difference estimates are in Table 5.

The event studies in Figure 3 show no gaps between workers at politically active and inactive firms before the ballot measure at t_0. In the pooled difference-in-differences (Table 5), workers at politically active firms turn out more at the campaign's election than comparison workers in all five comparison groups. Compared with workers at unaffected firms, workers turn out at 1.8 pp higher rates. When compared to similarly exposed but politically inactive firms, workers at politically active firms vote at between 1.0 and 1.4 percentage points higher rates, depending upon the specification.

Figure 3: Event study: workers at politically active firms against workers at politically inactive firms, one series per comparison group



Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals. Standard errors clustered by firm and ballot.

5.4 Heterogeneity by Material Stake and Policy Domain

Given that firms' political mobilization does appear associated with increased turnout of their workers—even above and beyond what might be expected for firms which are affected by a policy but are not politically active—I now turn my attention to consider what types of policy may be associated with differences in employee responses. First, I consider heterogeneity by the material stakes facing workers and the types of issues on the ballot. I re-fit the estimation of Table 5, but interact treatment with either a continuous indicator for policy stakes or dummy indicators for high, medium, and low material stakes. Results are shown in Table 6 and Figure 4. In the continuous specification, the magnitude of the increase in worker turnout is significantly larger as worker stake grows in three of the four comparison groups. A one-point increase in the 1–10 rating is associated with a 0.2–0.4 pp increase in turnout; moving from the lowest to the highest material stake for workers is associated with a 1.6–3.6 pp increase. When analyzing trichotomous dummy variables, elections with high material stakes are associated with a 1.7–2.7 pp increase in turnout (across the four comparison groups), compared with only 1.8–2.4 pp for medium

Table 5: Main results by comparison group for politically active firms

	All workers at politically inactive firms (1)	2-digit sector (2)	4-digit industry (3)	6-digit industry (4)	LLM approach (5)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$	1.77**	1.01**	1.22***	1.29***	1.43**
	(0.80)	(0.46)	(0.39)	(0.40)	(0.61)
Fixed effects					
Worker × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Time × campaign	✓				✓
Time × campaign × 2-digit sector		✓			
Time × campaign × 4-digit industry			✓		
Time × campaign × 6-digit industry				✓	
Campaigns	269	269	268	266	223
Ballots	132	132	131	129	113
Worker-campaigns					
Politically active firms	908,579	908,579	906,915	899,227	821,927
Politically inactive firms	199,864,365	43,983,903	11,470,492	6,971,570	7,453,743
Workers					
Politically active firms	734,696	734,696	733,225	726,584	687,947
Politically inactive firms	22,055,379	11,893,850	5,106,165	3,349,599	3,660,338
Firms					
Politically active firms	1,916	1,916	1,892	1,834	1,747

Column (1) compares workers at politically active firms against all workers at politically inactive firms in the campaign. Columns (2)–(4) compare workers at politically active firms against workers at politically inactive firms in the same sector (2-digit NAICS) or industry (4- or 6-digit NAICS) as a politically active firm. Column (5) identifies affected industries using the LLM methodology described in Section 4.3.2 and Appendix F.1. Turnout differences are reported in percentage points (pp). Each stack is weighted by the sum of its affected workers' weights $1/k$; within a stack, comparison workers are scaled to the same total weight. Because some workers appear in several campaigns on the same ballot (as comparison workers, or because the same firm is active in several campaigns), a worker in k campaigns on the same ballot in the same group carries weight $1/k$. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot and reported in parentheses; alternative clustering methods and wild cluster bootstrap intervals are reported in Appendix C.2. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

and 0.2–0.8 pp for low stakes issues.

A similar analysis classifying issues by policy type suggests a similar picture. Workers are a far more mobilized constituency in election issues which have a plausible effect on both the company itself and their own material well-being. Ballot questions which are more likely to directly implicate workers, such as those related to education (e.g., funding for schools and teacher pay), transportation and infrastructure (e.g., funding or planning permissions for roads, transit, and other public works), and energy (e.g., clean energy mandates, utility regulation) are consistently positive, as is general industry regulation (e.g., legalization of new industries). By contrast, ballot questions in policy areas that are less clearly related to business outcomes, such as those related to election administration or civil rights do not feature consistent positive increases associated with firm campaigning. Similarly, firms' political activity on ballot questions related to labor and employment practices—including questions such as

minimum wages where firm and employee interests are most likely to diverge—also is not associated with increased turnout.

Table 6: Material stake by comparison group: continuous score and categories

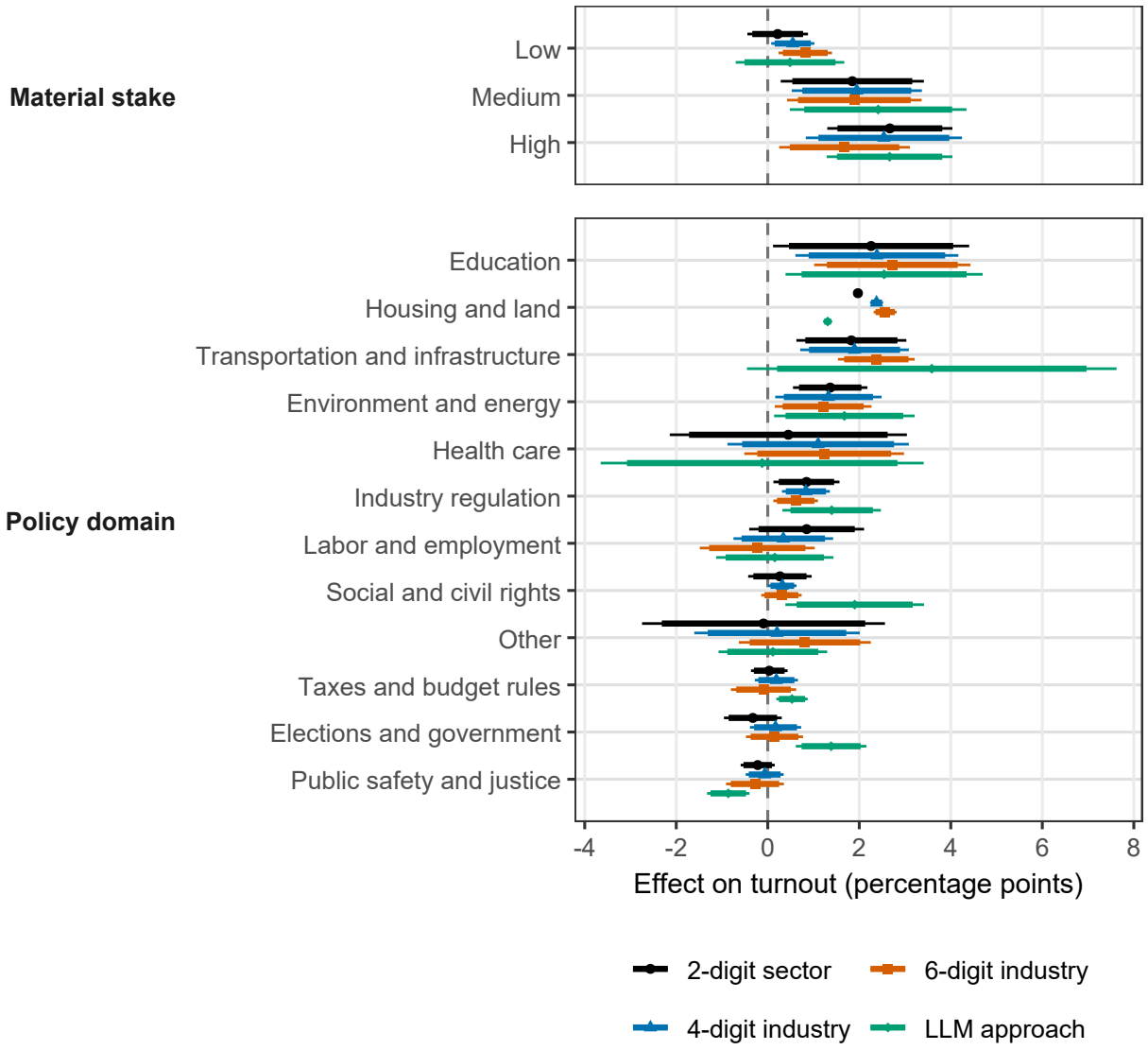
	2-digit sector (1)	4-digit industry (2)	6-digit industry (3)	LLM approach (4)
A. Continuous stake score				
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic} \times$ Stake score	0.39***	0.31***	0.18*	0.40**
	(0.11)	(0.11)	(0.11)	(0.18)
B. Stake categories				
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$ (low stake)	0.22	0.55**	0.82***	0.49
	(0.33)	(0.24)	(0.30)	(0.60)
× Medium stake (vs. low)	1.63**	1.40*	1.07	1.93*
	(0.82)	(0.75)	(0.77)	(1.12)
× High stake (vs. low)	2.45***	1.99**	0.86	2.18**
	(0.75)	(0.87)	(0.70)	(0.93)
Fixed effects				
Worker × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Time × campaign				✓
Time × campaign × 2-digit sector	✓			
Time × campaign × 4-digit industry		✓		
Time × campaign × 6-digit industry			✓	
Campaigns	269	268	266	223
Ballots	132	131	129	113
Worker-campaigns				
Politically active firms	908,579	906,915	899,227	821,927
Politically inactive firms	43,983,903	11,470,492	6,971,570	7,453,743
Workers				
Politically active firms	734,696	733,225	726,584	687,947
Politically inactive firms	11,893,850	5,106,165	3,349,599	3,660,338
Firms				
Politically active firms	1,916	1,892	1,834	1,747

Columns (1)–(3) compare workers at politically active firms against workers at politically inactive firms in the same sector (2-digit NAICS) or industry (4- or 6-digit NAICS) as a politically active firm. Column (4) identifies affected industries using the LLM methodology described in Section 4.3.2 and Appendix F.1. Panel A interacts $\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$ with the politically active firm's LLM material-stake rating of the measure (1–10). Panel B interacts it with the firm's material-stake category (low 1–3, medium 4–7, high 8–10). Turnout differences are reported in percentage points (pp). Each stack is weighted by the sum of its affected workers' weights $1/k$; within a stack, comparison workers are scaled to the same total weight. Because some workers appear in several campaigns on the same ballot (as comparison workers, or because the same firm is active in several campaigns), a worker in k campaigns on the same ballot in the same group carries weight $1/k$. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot and reported in parentheses. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

5.5 Heterogeneity by Prior Turnout

In addition to understanding *when* workers turn out—i.e., the types of policy questions which are associated with greater turnout—I also ask *who* is more likely to turn out. Firms' active involvement in constituency-building has the potential to have the greatest marginal effects on participation by drawing

Figure 4: Heterogeneity by material stake and policy domain, by comparison group



Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals. Standard errors clustered by firm and ballot.

in workers who might otherwise not be politically active. To test this, I split workers based upon their turnout history. In each election, I record whether a worker voted in the previous four general elections (i.e., even-year November elections). I interact a continuous past-turnout history variable based upon the share of these recent elections in which a voter turned out (ranging from 0 to 1) as well as dummy variables for the number of prior elections in which they voted. (I include a separate dummy variable for workers whose registration records indicate that they were not registered to vote in the previous eight years, as such workers may not have been eligible due to age, residing out of state, or not yet having become a citizen.)

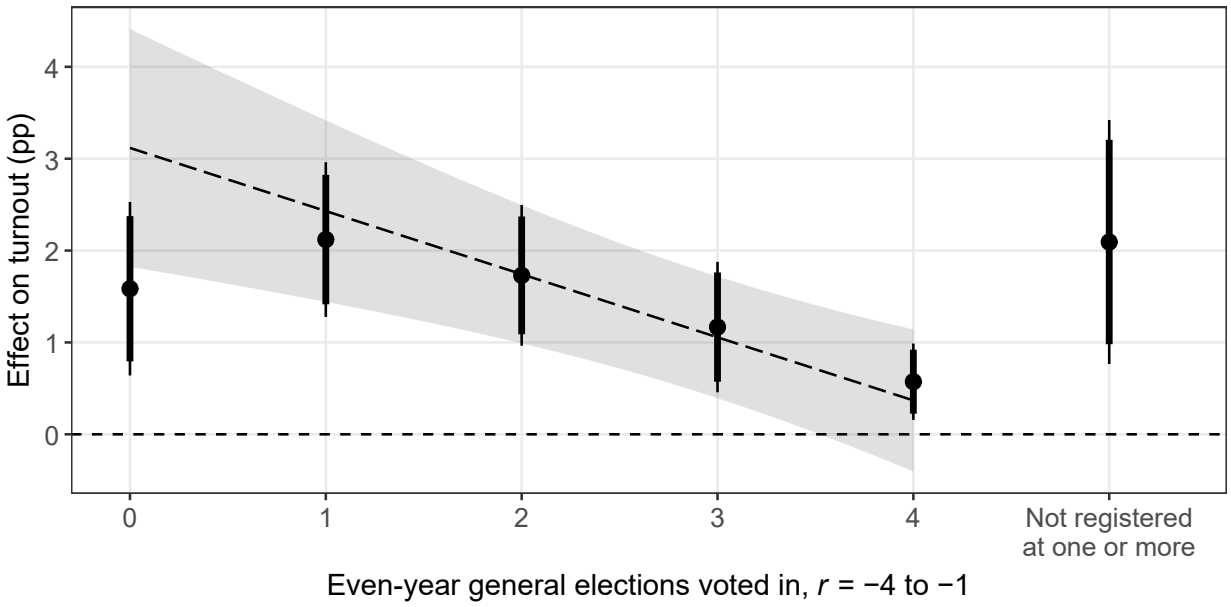
Appendix Table A5 displays the results of these models. Moving from voting in none of the four elections to voting in all four changes the effect by −2.7 pp (SE 0.8) in the 4-digit comparison and by −3.6 to −2.3 pp across the four comparison groups, each significant at the 5% level; workers not registered at one or more of the elections turn out 1.5–2.0 pp more. Figure 5 shows the effect by the number of the four prior even-year general elections in which the worker voted for the 4-digit NAICS industry comparison. (Analogous versions for other comparison groups are shown in Appendix Figure A5.) Across the four comparison groups, the increase is 1.1–1.8 pp among workers who voted in none of the four and 1.5–2.3 pp among those who voted in one, and it falls to 0.4–0.6 pp among those who voted in all four; workers not registered at one or more of the four elections turn out 1.7–2.2 pp more.

5.6 Placebo Checks

As a robustness check, I fit two additional placebo tests. First, to consider national industry-wide shocks, I assign placebo treatments to firms in industries which face a ballot question in a *different* state. For example, Maine voters faced a ballot question related to electrical utilities in 2021. Workers at utility companies in states outside of Maine would be assigned a placebo treatment in 2021.

Second, to consider potential firm-wide shocks, I assign treatment to workers at politically active firms *outside* of the state in which the firm mobilized. For example, if a firm mobilized on a California ballot proposition, workers at the same firm living in other states that hold elections on the same date would be assigned a placebo treatment. Results of these placebo tests are shown in Tables 7 and 8.

Figure 5: Effect by prior turnout



Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals. Dots and bars: one regression with a separate indicator for each number of the four prior even-year general elections the worker voted in, and for workers not registered at one or more of them. Dashed line and shaded band: a second regression on the continuous share of those four elections (Appendix Table A5), with its 95% band. Figure is based upon comparing workers at politically active firms against affected firms in the same industry (4-digit NAICS). Regression results for other comparison groups are in Appendix Table A5. Figure A5 shows the same figure for every comparison group. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot.

5.7 Other Robustness Checks

I carry out a number of other robustness checks. Table 9 summarizes them and the placebo checks.

Event time structure General elections take place in even years. When creating panels, I compare general elections with the four previous general elections, which include both presidential and midterm election years. Although presidential and midterm years have far more similar turnout levels compared with non-general elections (which are far lower), they do consistently differ; raw data plots show a familiar "zig-zag" alternation pattern in turnout levels between presidential and midterm years, as can be seen in Appendix Figure A3. As an alternative manner of panel construction, I fit separate presidential and midterm panels in which event time follows a quadrennial (four year) event-time sequence rather than the two-year panel used in the main results. This results in a more unbalanced panel as many workers do not have three or four pre-periods (i.e., voting history going back 12 or 16 years).

Table 7: Placebo in another state on the same election day

	All workers at politically inactive firms (1)	2-digit sector (2)	4-digit industry (3)	6-digit industry (4)	LLM approach (5)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$	0.35	−0.44*	−0.29	−0.11	−0.10
	(0.25)	(0.26)	(0.29)	(0.28)	(0.34)
Fixed effects					
Worker × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Time × campaign	✓				✓
Time × campaign × 2-digit sector		✓			
Time × campaign × 4-digit industry			✓		
Time × campaign × 6-digit industry				✓	
Campaigns	144	144	144	143	121
Ballots	69	69	69	68	61
Worker-campaigns					
Politically active firms	160,454	160,454	160,400	159,465	144,501
Politically inactive firms	117,655,015	15,047,906	4,067,917	2,946,765	4,564,690
Firms					
Politically active firms	324	324	324	323	309

Column (1) compares workers at politically active firms against all workers at politically inactive firms in the campaign. Columns (2)–(4) compare workers at politically active firms against workers at politically inactive firms in the same sector (2-digit NAICS) or industry (4- or 6-digit NAICS) as a politically active firm. Column (5) identifies affected industries using the LLM methodology described in Section 4.3.2 and Appendix F.1. Turnout differences are reported in percentage points (pp). Each stack is weighted by the sum of its affected workers' weights $1/k$; within a stack, comparison workers are scaled to the same total weight. Because some workers appear in several campaigns on the same ballot (as comparison workers, or because the same firm is active in several campaigns), a worker in k campaigns on the same ballot in the same group carries weight $1/k$. Event studies: Figure A6. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot and reported in parentheses. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Inference The main results rely upon analytic standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot. For the 4-digit NAICS industry comparison, I additionally fit analytic standard errors clustered one way by firm, ballot, state, campaign, worker, and firm × ballot cell, and two ways by firm and state and by worker and ballot (Appendix Table A6). I also fit restricted wild cluster bootstraps clustered by ballot and, separately, by state, for every column of Tables 3 and 5; results are reported in Appendix Tables A8 and A7. Ballot bootstrap intervals are somewhat wider than the analytic intervals and state bootstrap intervals are generally narrower. Nearly all estimates remain significant at the 5% level.

Pre-trends To examine sensitivity to pre-trend violations, I use the HonestDiD package (Rambachan and Roth 2023). Here, I focus on the 4-digit NAICS specification. HonestDiD bounds the estimate at $r = 0$ when the post-period violation of parallel trends may be as large as a multiple $\bar{M}$ of the largest pre-period violation, or may depart from a linear extrapolation of the pre-period trend by up to M percentage points. For the 4-digit specification, the 95% interval for the $r = 0$ coefficient, 1.12 [0.43, 1.81],

Table 8: Placebo: affected industries borrowed from another state's measure

	2-digit sector (1)	4-digit industry (2)	6-digit industry (3)	LLM approach (4)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Affected}_{ic}$	0.33**	0.20	0.29	−0.06
	(0.16)	(0.14)	(0.20)	(0.27)
Fixed effects				
Worker × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Time × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Campaigns	194	251	255	209
Ballots	119	127	126	111
Worker-campaigns				
Placebo-affected workers	13,574,662	7,816,654	5,616,308	5,110,660
Comparison workers	32,526,034	109,428,822	144,450,749	132,924,887

Each column is the placebo for the affected-industry definition of the same column of Table 3. Each measure borrows the affected industries of a measure from another state in the same year, chosen by a seeded random draw; columns (1)–(3) borrow the same measure, and column (4) draws among measures with LLM-rated affected industries. Turnout differences are reported in percentage points (pp). Each stack is weighted by the sum of its affected workers' weights $1/k$; within a stack, comparison workers are scaled to the same total weight. Because some workers appear in several campaigns on the same ballot (as comparison workers, or because the same firm is active in several campaigns), a worker in k campaigns on the same ballot in the same group carries weight $1/k$. Event studies: Figure A7. Worker-campaigns count each worker once per campaign in which the worker enters the fit, as a placebo-affected worker at a politically inactive firm or as a comparison worker. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot and reported in parentheses. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

excludes zero until $\bar{M}$ reaches 1.12. In other words, the effect survives a violation of the parallel pre-trend assumption that is larger than the largest observed pre-period divergence from parallel (Figure A8). HonestDiD robustness for the other four comparison groups is shown in Figure A8. I also use the pre-test power calculations of Roth (2022), which scale a hypothesized linear or U-shaped trend so that the pre-test would detect it with 50% or 80% power and report the bias it implies at $r = 0$ (Figure A10).

Employer size Politically active firms are similar to politically inactive firms on most observable dimensions, including worker age, political partisanship, and tenure. I show balance figures in Appendix Table A4. However, politically active firms are typically larger than politically inactive firms (Appendix Figure A11). To better account for this distinction, I classify each firm's presence in each state according to its in-state headcount among all Revelio profiles on the first of the election month. I split each firm × state cell into three bands: less than 100, 100–499, and 500 or more. I then fit versions of the specifications seen in Table 5 with period × size band fixed effects to better account for potential dynamic and/or heterogeneous effects by size. These fixed effects shrink the size of observed effects but the magnitude of turnout increases remains positive and typically significant (Appendix Table A9). The estimates somewhat fall to between 0.60 and 1.53 percentage points, from between 1.01 and 1.77; all five

Table 9: Robustness checks and placebo

Check	What changes relative to Table 5	What it tests	Appendix
Placebo in another state	Treated arm: workers at politically active firms registered in another state where the firm did not give, on a ballot held the same election day as its first funded campaign; comparison: that state's workers at politically inactive firms in each of the five comparison groups	Whether the effect reflects something common to the firm's workforce on election day rather than the campaign in the workers' own state	C.1
Industry placebo	Step (a) on another state's affected industries, for the 2-digit, 4-digit, 6-digit and LLM comparison groups	Turnout common to any industry	C.1
Same-timing event time	Event time steps within the same election timing (four years for November campaigns), $r = -3..0$, for each comparison group	Whether the estimate depends on comparing elections of different timing	C.4
Clustering	Standard error clustered by firm, ballot, state, firm and state, firm × ballot cells, campaign, worker, or worker and ballot; the estimate is unchanged	Whether inference depends on the level of clustering	C.2
Wild cluster bootstrap	Restricted wild cluster bootstrap by ballot and by state (9,999 Rademacher draws, null imposed)	Inference with few clusters (131 ballots, 37 states)	C.2
HonestDiD bounds	Robust interval for the $r = 0$ coefficient when the post-period violation of parallel trends may reach a multiple of the pre-period ones, or under a smoothness bound	How large a violation of parallel trends the $r = 0$ effect withstands	C.2.1
Hypothesized pre-trends	$r = 0$ coefficient less the bias of linear, U-shaped and best-fit quadratic trends pinned at zero at $r = -1$	Power of the pre-test and the bias of trends it would miss	C.2.1
Size-band trends	Adds time × campaign × employer size band fixed effects (in-state workers under 100, 100–499, 500 or more, missing)	Whether separate turnout paths by employer size account for the effect	C.3
Specification curve	52 fits: event-time design × comparison group × weights (worker $1/k$, firm-equal, campaign-equal) × size-band trends	Sensitivity to the joint choice of design, comparison, weights and size control	C.4
Leave one sector out	Drops one NAICS sector (20 groups) from both arms; same 4- and 6-digit industry	Dependence on a single sector	C.5
Leave one cohort out	Drops one November general-election cohort, or the non-general campaigns of one calendar year	Dependence on a single cohort	C.5
Leave one state out	Drops every statewide and local campaign of one state (37 fits)	Dependence on a single state	C.5
Leave one measure out	Drops both stances of one ballot measure (237 fits)	Dependence on a single measure	C.5

remain significant at the 10% level and three at the 5% level.

5.7.1 Specification Curve

I combine a number of decisions into a specification curve (Appendix Figure A13). Each specification is a version of a column of Table 5: the effect of $Post_t \times Active_{ic}$ for workers at politically active firms against workers at politically inactive firms. Across 52 specifications that vary the event-time design, the comparison group, the weights and employer-size trends, the estimate ranges from 0.22 to 1.94 with a median of 1.05. See Appendix C.4.

5.7.2 Drop-One Checks

To ensure that results are not driven by a small number of observations, I perform a number of checks by dropping classes of data, including NAICS sectors, year cohorts, states, and individual ballot measures. Results are robust to excluding any one NAICS sector, election year, state, or specific (large) ballot measures. Results are shown in Appendix C.5.

6 Direction of Vote: Do Workers Vote the Firm's Way?

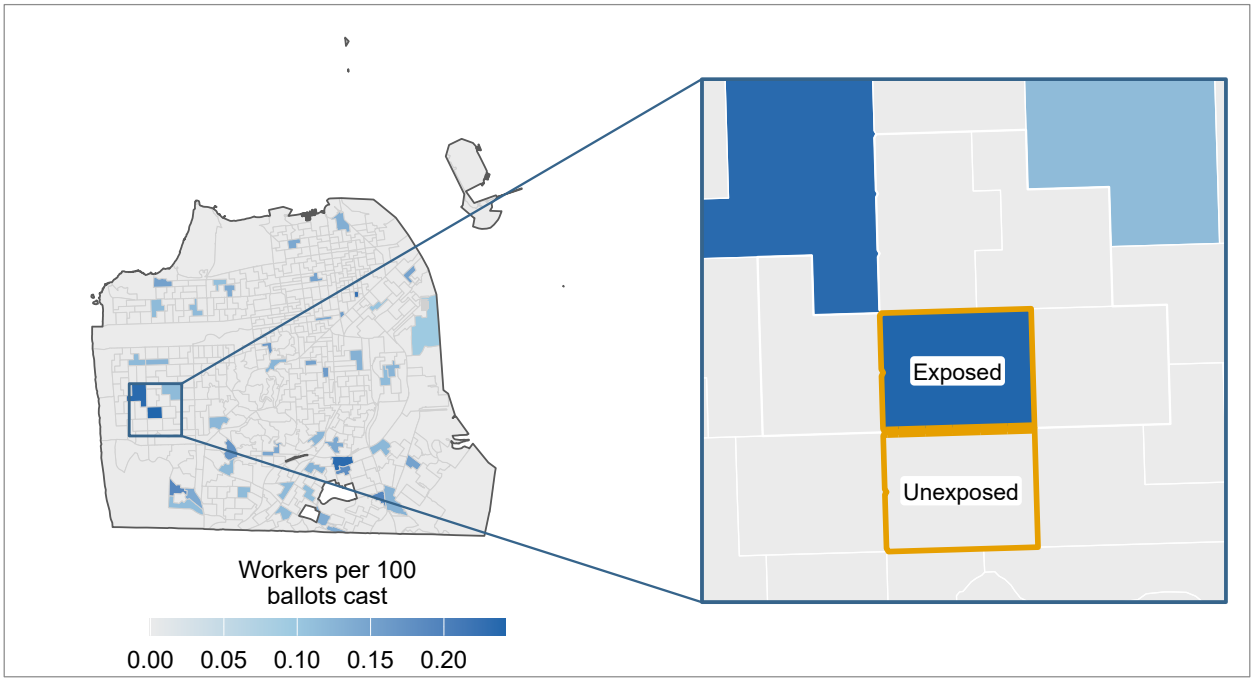
The stacked difference-in-difference analyses demonstrate that workers turn out to vote at higher rates in strategically important elections, and that firms' political activity is associated with further incremental increases in workers' turnout. The nature of the secret ballot means that I focus on *turnout* and am unable to observe the *direction* of the vote. While I cannot state with certainty that workers' additional turnout goes in the direction preferred by their firm, I conduct additional suggestive analysis about the direction of the vote.

Because individual employees' votes can never be observed, I focus on precincts (voting tabulation districts), and compare across neighboring precincts which differ in the proportion of workers at politically active firms. Because workers of any particular firm are unlikely to ever constitute a significant portion of a given election precinct (which typically ranges from 1,000–2,000 voters), the contribution of individual workers is likely to be small, but when one considers the potential for secondary persuasion effects to "spill over" (i.e., from workers to family members and close neighbors) (Nickerson 2008), it is possible that detectable differences could be found at the precinct level.

Precinct-level data are available in seven states (California, Georgia, Massachusetts, Nevada, North Carolina, North Dakota and Oklahoma) and include 30 ballot questions. I define the exposure variable as the number of politically active workers as a share of the total number of ballots cast on a measure as well as of the number of registered voters in the precinct at the time. I exclude measures where firms mobilize on both sides of a ballot question. I compare across all precincts within a state, using Conley spatial-HAC standard errors to account for spatial autocorrelation. Because exposure and outcome are both shares, the slopes are in percentage points of firm-preferred vote share per percentage point of exposure. When comparing all precincts voting on the same measure, a one percentage point increase in exposure is associated with a 3.8 percentage point increase in the firm-preferred vote share, and a one percentage

point increase in exposure measured against year-t registrants with a 6.0 percentage point increase; both are statistically significant (p <0.001). However, across-precinct differences may be driven in large part by residential sorting among different types of workers. Comparing precincts in the same county voting on the same measure reduces the slope to 0.6 percentage points ($p = 0.008$) as a share of cast votes and to 0.6 percentage points as a share of year-t registrants ($p = 0.086$). In a more restricted sample, which limits comparisons to adjoining (neighboring) precincts to better account for residential sorting, the slope falls to 0.2 percentage points as a percentage of ballots cast ($p = 0.026$) and 0.6 percentage points as a percentage of year-t registrants (p <0.001). Figure 6 illustrates the adjoining-precinct comparison for California's Proposition 23 (2020) in San Francisco. While these results are cross-sectional and associational rather than causal, they are consistent with workers' mobilization manifesting not just as additional *turnout*, but also potentially shifting vote shares in favor of firms' preferred outcomes. Table 10 reports the three specifications under both denominators.

Figure 6: Exposure to politically active firms across San Francisco precincts, California Proposition 23 (2020)



The left panel shades each San Francisco precinct in the Proposition 23 estimation sample by the number of workers at politically active firms on the campaign's single active side per 100 official ballots cast. Proposition 23 would have required dialysis clinics to keep a physician on site, report infection data, and obtain state approval before closing or reducing services. The right panel enlarges the boxed area around one pair of adjoining precincts. Precinct boundaries are the 2020 Statewide Database SRPREC polygons.

Table 10: Exposure denominator: ballots cast and year-t registrants

	Ballots cast (1)	Year-t registrants (2)	Ballots cast (3)	Year-t registrants (4)	Ballots cast (5)	Year-t registrants (6)
Workers at politically active firms / denominator	3.78***	5.99***	0.58***	0.58*	0.21**	0.57***
	(0.38)	(0.55)	(0.22)	(0.34)	(0.10)	(0.12)
Fixed effects						
Measure	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
County × measure			✓	✓		
Adjacent precinct pair × measure					✓	✓
Ballot measures	30	30	30	30	30	30
States	7	7	7	7	7	7
Precincts	45,191	44,720	45,191	44,720		
Counties (towns in Massachusetts)	806	806	806	806	740	740
Precinct × measure cells	167,530	165,239	167,530	165,239		
Adjacent precinct pairs					188,046	186,478
Worker-campaigns						
Politically active firms	222,081	222,080	222,081	222,080	222,051	222,050

One regression per column. The outcome is the firm-preferred share of ballots cast on the measure; the slope is in percentage points per percentage point of exposure. Exposure is workers at politically active firms placed in the precinct over the official ballots cast on the measure in columns (1), (3) and (5), and over the precinct's year-t registrants linked in the voter file in columns (2), (4) and (6). Regressions are weighted by official ballots cast in every column (the smaller count of the two precincts in columns (5) and (6)). Columns (1)–(4) use precinct × measure cells with a centroid; columns (5) and (6) use adjacent precinct pairs voting on the same measure with unequal exposure. Column (3) is identified by 1,809 of 4,396 county × measure groups with exposure variation within the group (136,868 cells, 83.4% of ballot weight); column (4) by 1,809 of 4,396 (134,934 cells, 83.4% of ballot weight). Massachusetts uses towns instead of counties. Worker-campaigns count each worker at a politically active firm who is registered in the election year once for each sample measure on which the worker's precinct votes. Alternative spatial standard errors and block-bootstrap intervals: Appendix Table A12.

7 Discussion

Firms must often rely upon public support to pursue strategic goals and defend against threats. Corporate political activity research identifies constituency building as an effective tactic (Keim and Zeithaml 1986; Hillman and Keim 1995), but existing research has largely concentrated on how firms build external constituencies through public relations or alliances with social movements and non-governmental organizations (Walker 2014; Wen et al. 2025; Odziemkowska and Zhu 2025). Internal constituencies—i.e., a firm's own rank-and-file employee base—have received comparatively little attention. While recent research highlights the potential for the workplace to shape employees' political beliefs and behavior (Selenko et al. 2025), we lack evidence as to whether employees will mobilize to take costly political action in support of firms' strategic goals.

By assembling data on the work histories and voting turnout of millions of workers and linking them with their employers' political activities, I test whether employees turn out to vote at higher rates in strategically important elections. Across 238 ballot questions in 37 states, workers in politically

affected industries turn out to vote at 0.6–1.1 percentage points (pp) higher rates relative to workers in unaffected industries. While it is difficult to distinguish whether this effect is caused by workers' own self-motivation and their own self-interest or firms' internal constituency-building efforts, several pieces of evidence suggest that firms' strategic actions can amplify the magnitude of workers' political support. First, relative to firms that are similarly politically affected but are not politically active, firms' political activity is associated with a 1.0–1.4 pp increase in political turnout. This effect is largest in ballot questions with the highest material stakes for workers, and among workers who would otherwise be unlikely to turn out to vote.

These findings constitute the first individual-level evidence about firms' ability to successfully mobilize internal constituents, but several features of the design limit the scope of conclusions. First, I do not directly observe firms' internal mobilization at scale. Second, firms' political activity is not randomly or exogenously assigned. While I compare workers with similarly-situated firms using fine-grained industry classifications, this study—like nearly any observational research into firm strategy—is somewhat limited by the potential for firms to self-select into treatment. Third, the nature of public voter files means that this analysis focuses on voter turnout as a measure of changes to worker participation along an extensive margin. While I provide suggestive evidence about the direction of employees' voting, I am unable to directly observe vote choice and thus make certain that workers' increased mobilization supports the policy positions favored by their employer. Fourth, I focus on an empirically and theoretically useful setting (U.S. state and local ballot questions), but one that may differ from constituency building in other institutional and geographic contexts. Future research may consider other institutional settings and types of political involvement by workers, such as regulatory comments or other types of political advocacy.

These findings speak to three literatures. First, they extend research on corporate political activity beyond lobbying and campaign finance (Hillman and Hitt 1999; Katic and Hillman 2023) and beyond external constituencies (Walker 2014; Wen et al. 2025). Practitioner-oriented accounts have asserted that employees are an effective and easy-to-mobilize constituency (Baron 2012; Lord 2003), but my results here provide some of the first large-scale evidence that employees act on firms' political priorities and that firms' internal constituency mobilization is associated with employees' political advocacy. Second, the results link nonmarket strategy and strategic human capital. Nonmarket strategy research often treats employees as a constraint on firms' political activity (Burbano 2021; White et al. 2025), but my

results suggest that employees can also serve as a positive contribution to firm performance (Barney 1991; Campbell et al. 2012) and that firms may thus wish to invest in building capabilities to effectively channel employees as internal constituents (Makadok 2001). Third, the results bear on debates about the role of firms in democratic participation (Barley 2007; Battilana et al. 2025). Prior research on employer mobilization documents firms directing or coercing employees' political behavior against workers' preferences (Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018), but the pattern here appears consistent with a more benign reading in which firms help organize workers to act on policies for their mutual benefit.

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Appendix Table of Contents

A Sample and Data **A2**

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A Sample and Data

Figure A1: Campaigns per policy domain, estimation sample

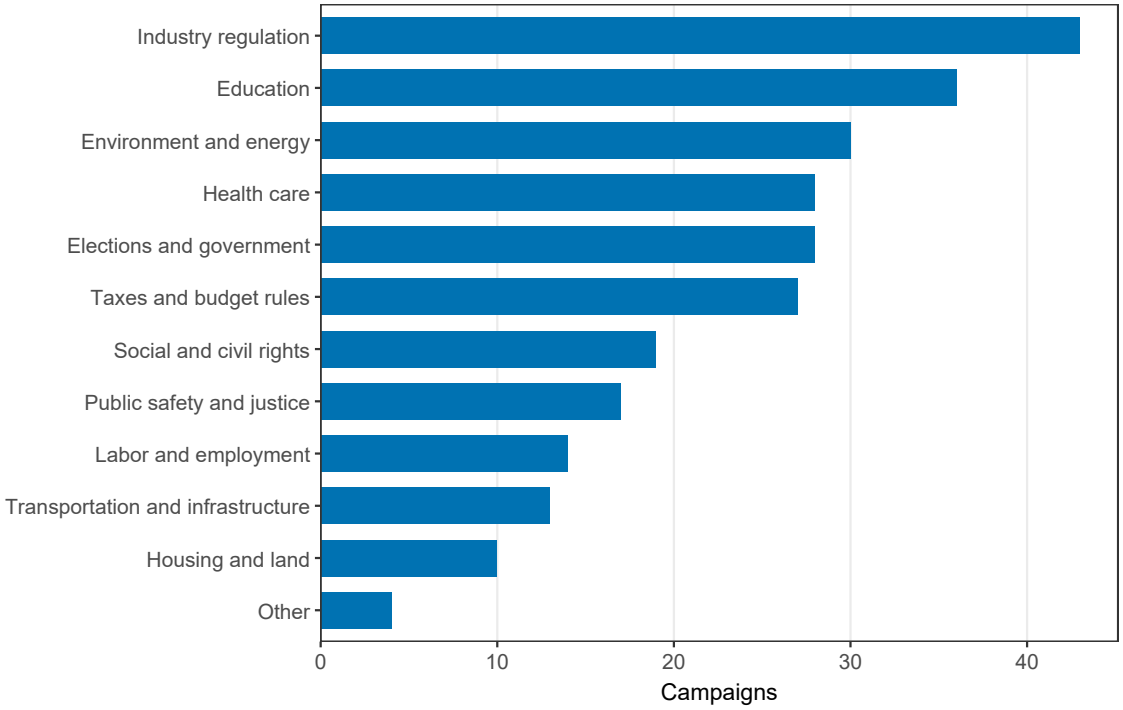


Figure A2: Politically active firms and worker-campaigns per industry sector, estimation sample

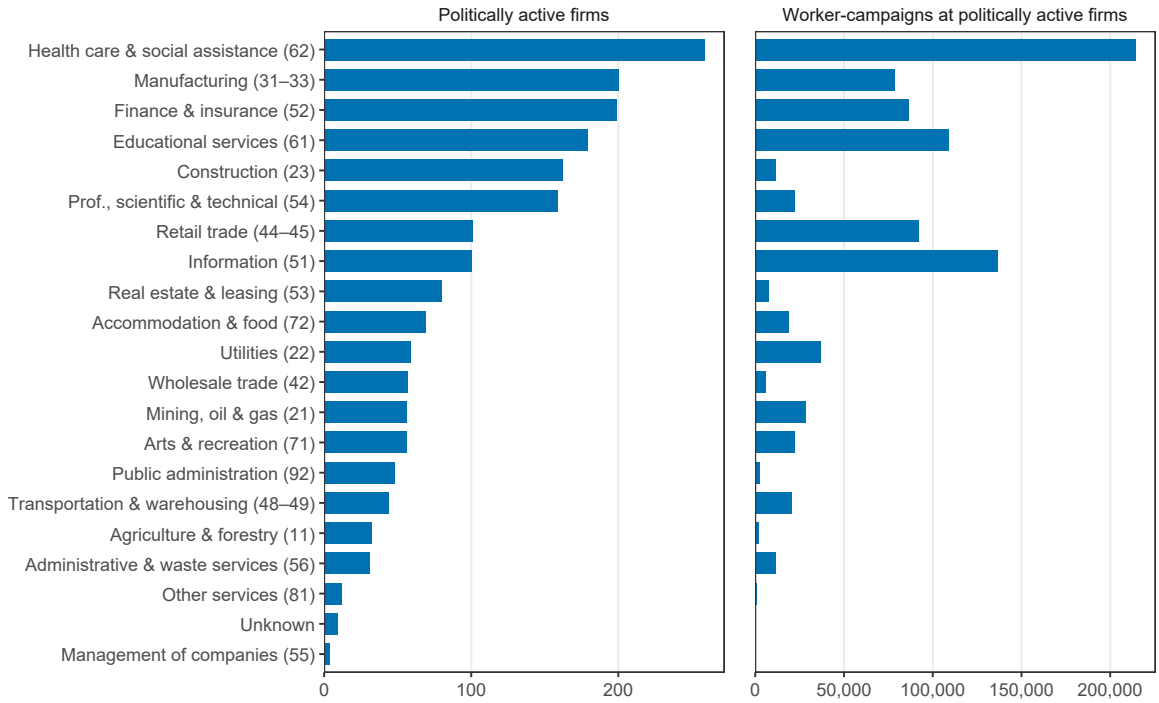


Figure A3: Raw turnout by event time, workers at politically active firms against each comparison group

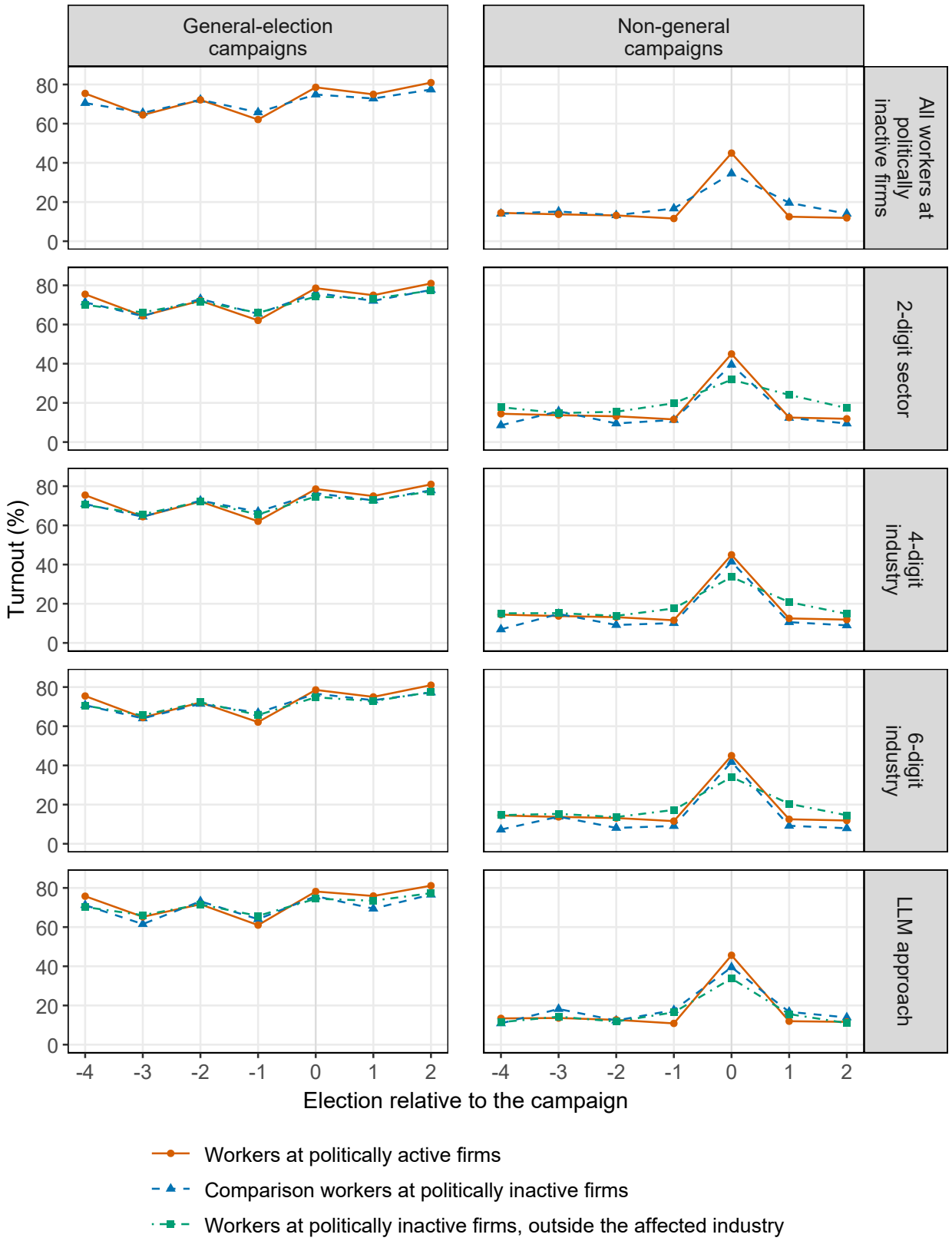


Table A1: Waterfall: from the campaign list to the estimation sample

Stage	Campaigns	Worker-campaigns at politically active firms	Worker-campaigns at comparison firms	All worker-campaigns
1. Campaigns listed; workers registered at the campaign election	323	2,003,196		384,971,187
2. Campaign floor: fewer than 50 workers at first-time politically active firms after the firm floor	−54	−252,873		−52,295,573
3. Workers at firms that fund another campaign (out of the comparison group)			−22,144,159	−22,144,159
4. Firm's first campaign only		−756,225		−756,225
5. Firm floor: under 10 workers at politically active firms		−5,655		−5,655
6. Comparison-firm floor: under 10 workers			−93,461,884	−93,461,884
7. No computed age, or no partisanship				−690,979
8. No turnout observed at $r = -4, \ldots, -1$				−14,843,377
9. Analysis sample before the crosswalk audit	269	908,970	199,864,365	200,773,335
10. Firm–campaign links found wrong by the crosswalk audit		−391		−391
11. Estimation sample	269	908,579	199,864,365	200,772,944

Table A2: Estimation sample by comparison group

	Politically inactive firms (1)	2-digit sector (2)	4-digit industry (3)	6-digit industry (4)	LLM approach (5)
Ballot measures	238	238	237	235	195
Campaigns (ballot measure × stance)	269	269	268	266	223
Ballots (state × election date)	132	132	131	129	113
Presidential-year November	53	53	53	53	48
Midterm-year November	39	39	39	39	32
Non-general elections	40	40	39	37	33
Statewide elections	123	123	123	122	105
Local elections	11	11	10	9	10
Unique states	37	37	37	37	36
Workers	22,643,845	12,524,687	5,783,594	4,036,955	4,313,718
At politically active firms	734,696	734,696	733,225	726,584	687,947
At comparison (politically inactive) firms	22,055,379	11,893,850	5,106,165	3,349,599	3,660,338
Worker-campaigns	200,772,944	44,892,482	12,377,407	7,870,797	8,275,670
At politically active firms	908,579	908,579	906,915	899,227	821,927
At comparison (politically inactive) firms	199,864,365	43,983,903	11,470,492	6,971,570	7,453,743
Firms	226,124	142,305	70,308	45,914	52,972
Politically active	1,916	1,916	1,892	1,834	1,747
Comparison (politically inactive)	225,235	141,285	69,105	44,643	51,814

Column (1) contains all workers, as in Table 1. Columns (2)–(4) limit comparison workers to firms that did not donate but which are in the same 2-, 4-, or 6-digit NAICS sector or industry as at least one firm that did donate. Column (5) includes firms that are situated in industries which were likely affected by the ballot measure using the process described in Appendix F.1. Ballot measures refer to distinct questions. Campaigns refer to stances on each ballot measure in which one or more corporations donated to a ballot measure committee campaigning either in support of or against the measure. Because some ballot measures feature campaigns in support of and opposing the measure, the number of campaigns is greater than the number of ballot measures. General elections occur in November of even years and are split between Presidential election years (2016, 2020, and 2024) and midterms (2018, 2022). Non-general elections occur in other periods, including November of odd years or in other months. Politically active firms are firms that give to a ballot measure committee in a particular state. Workers at politically active firms are those registered to vote in the state (or, for local campaigns, the jurisdiction) where the firm gave. Politically active firms are included only during the first election in which they donate in a given state and are excluded in subsequent treatment periods to avoid "forbidden comparisons." Similarly, firms which ever donate in a given state are excluded from the set of comparison firms. Because some politically active firms give to multiple campaigns in the same election, the number of worker-campaigns at politically active firms is larger than the number of unique workers at politically active firms.

Table A3: Estimation sample by election timing and jurisdiction

		Election timing		Jurisdiction	
	All	General	Non-general	Statewide	Local
Ballot measures	238	188	50	224	14
Campaigns (ballot measure × stance)	269	214	55	255	14
Ballots (state × election date)	132	92	40	123	11
Presidential-year November	53	53	0	53	1
Midterm-year November	39	39	0	38	1
Non-general elections	40	0	40	32	9
Statewide elections	123	91	32	123	0
Local elections	11	2	9	0	11
Unique states	37	34	16	37	4
Workers	22,643,845	18,614,942	12,490,117	22,625,437	381,412
At politically active firms	734,696	528,921	207,210	730,580	4,144
At comparison (politically inactive) firms	22,055,379	18,182,651	12,312,295	22,038,217	377,510
Worker-campaigns	200,772,944	163,702,023	37,070,921	199,980,583	792,361
At politically active firms	908,579	700,569	208,010	904,434	4,145
At comparison (politically inactive) firms	199,864,365	163,001,454	36,862,911	199,076,149	788,216
Firms	226,124	194,171	140,981	226,073	6,788
Politically active	1,916	1,530	453	1,888	35
Comparison (politically inactive)	225,235	193,468	140,732	225,188	6,761

Ballot measures refer to distinct questions. Campaigns refer to stances on each ballot measure in which one or more corporations donated to a ballot measure committee campaigning either in support of or against the measure. Because some ballot measures feature campaigns in support of and opposing the measure, the number of campaigns is greater than the number of ballot measures. General elections occur in November of even years and are split between Presidential election years (2016, 2020, and 2024) and midterms (2018, 2022). Non-general elections occur in other periods, including November of odd years or in other months. Politically active firms are firms that give to a ballot measure committee in a particular state. Workers at politically active firms are those registered to vote in the state (or, for local campaigns, the jurisdiction) where the firm gave. Politically active firms are included only during the first election in which they donate in a given state and are excluded in subsequent treatment periods to avoid "forbidden comparisons." Similarly, firms which ever donate in a given state are excluded from the set of comparison firms. Because some politically active firms give to multiple campaigns in the same election, the number of worker-campaigns at politically active firms is larger than the number of unique workers at politically active firms. Totals seen here include all firms; more restrictive specifications have smaller samples. Table A2 reports the totals for the more restrictive comparison groups.

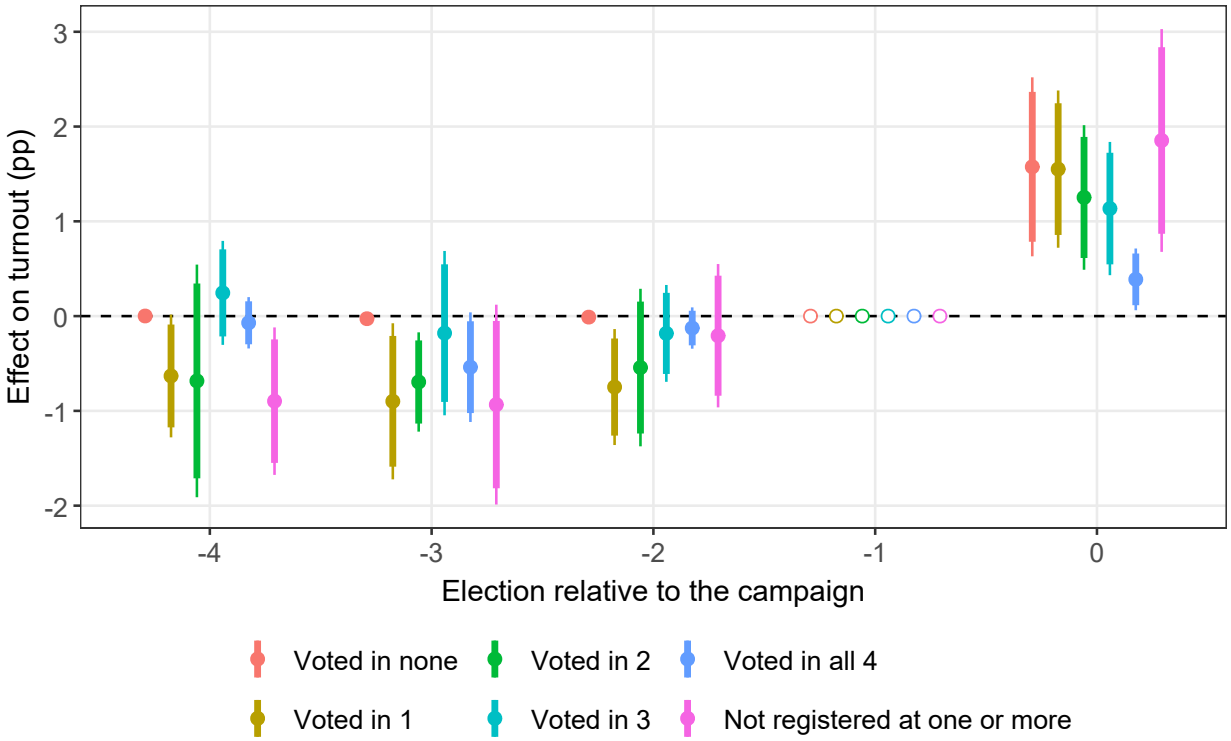
Table A4: Balance: workers at politically active and inactive firms

	Comparison: all workers at politically inactive firms			
	Workers at politically active firms	Workers at politically inactive firms (weighted)	Diff.	Std. diff.
Age band				
18–24	0.058	0.057	0.002	0.01
25–34	0.219	0.210	0.008	0.02
35–44	0.227	0.213	0.014	0.03
45–64	0.383	0.388	−0.005	−0.01
65 and over	0.112	0.132	−0.020	−0.06
Age at the campaign's election, years				
mean	45.4	46.3	−0.9	−0.06
Partisanship				
Lean Democrat	0.603	0.575	0.028	0.06
Lean Republican	0.349	0.376	−0.027	−0.06
Independent	0.048	0.049	−0.001	0.00
Gender				
female	0.536	0.534	0.003	0.01
male	0.456	0.460	−0.004	−0.01
Employer in-state workers in Revelio, per employer-campaign				
under 100	0.392	0.782	−0.390	**−0.86**
100–499	0.363	0.182	0.182	**0.42**
500 or more	0.245	0.036	0.209	**0.63**
mean	927	123	804	**0.96**
median	147	42	105	–
Tenure at the firm				
under 2 years	0.180	0.195	−0.015	−0.04
2–5 years	0.178	0.173	0.005	0.01
5–10 years	0.155	0.143	0.012	0.03
10 years or more	0.198	0.169	0.030	0.08

Workers at politically active firms (firms that contributed to the campaign) against workers at politically inactive firms. Weighted: the regression weights (worker $1/k$; workers at politically inactive firms reweighted to the count of workers at politically active firms in their campaign). Diff.: workers at politically active firms minus weighted workers at politically inactive firms, in share points (years for age, workers for headcounts). Standardized difference: difference in means over the pooled standard deviation. Bold: absolute standardized difference of 0.10 or more. Shares except age (years) and headcounts (workers); shares are of all workers in the group, and rows for missing values are not shown (tenure is missing for 28.8% of workers at politically active firms). Employer in-state workers in Revelio: all Revelio profiles at the employer in the state on the first of the election month, not only workers linked to the voter file. The employer-size rows are per employer-campaign: one observation per employer, campaign and group (2,558 politically active and 3,647,964 politically inactive employer-campaigns); every other row is per worker-campaign under the regression weights. Bands (under 100, 100–499, 500 or more) are shares of employer-campaigns with a headcount; a zero headcount falls in the under-100 band. The mean and median rows are headcounts in workers; the standardized difference of the mean is on log10 headcount and leaves out zero headcounts.

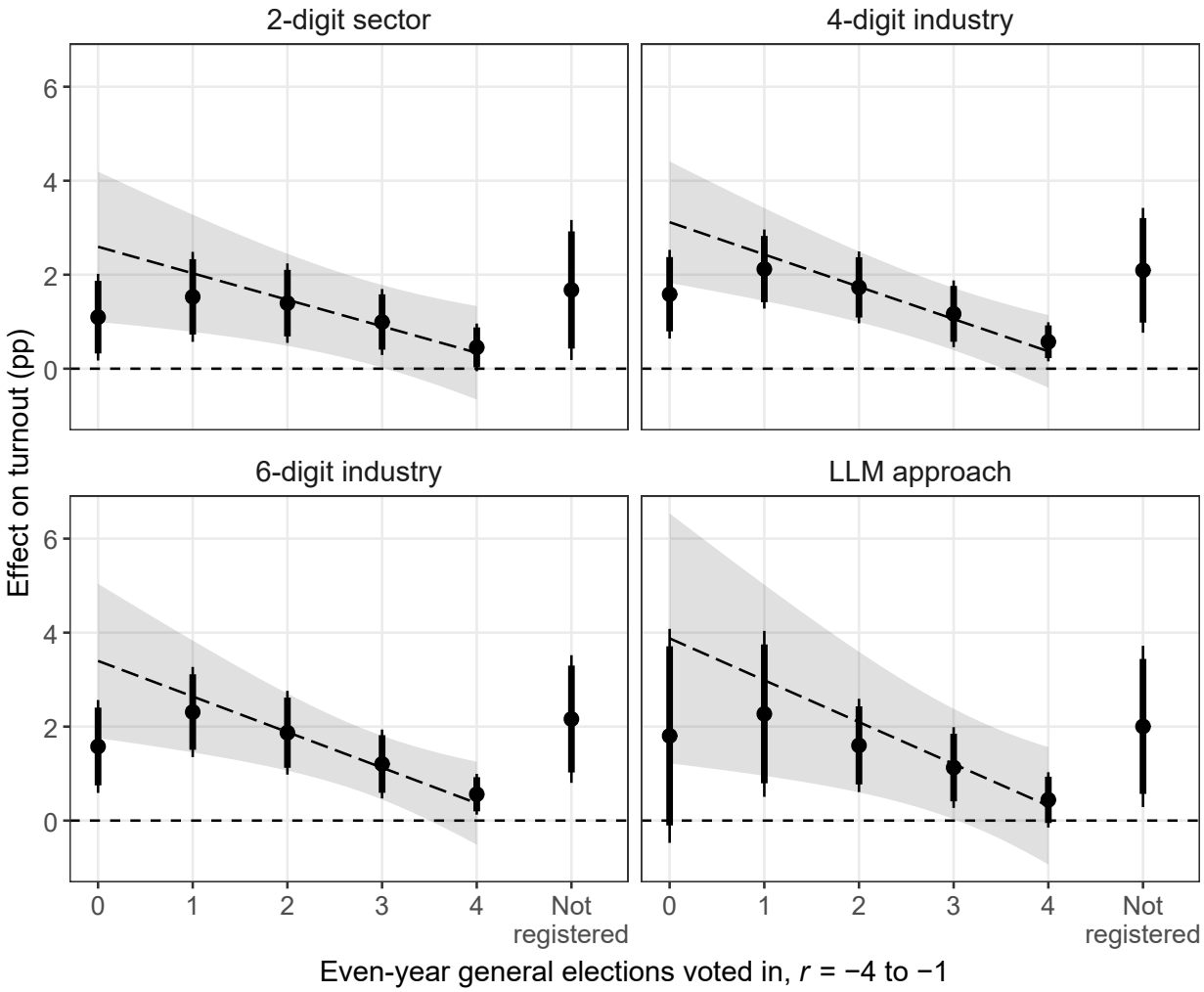
B Additional Results

Figure A4: Event study by prior turnout



Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals.

Figure A5: Heterogeneity by prior turnout, by comparison group



Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals; band: 95%. Standard errors clustered by firm and ballot. Each panel shows two regressions of workers at politically active firms against the comparison workers of the corresponding column of Table 6: 2-digit sector, 4-digit industry, 6-digit industry, or the LLM approach. Dots are the effects of $Post_t \times Active_{ic}$ for workers grouped by the number of the four even-year November general elections before the campaign ($r = -4$ to -1) in which they voted; "Not registered" marks workers not registered at one or more of those elections. The dashed line and shaded band are the continuous prior-turnout-share regression of Table A5, drawn from voting in none of the four to all four. In both regressions, comparison workers are grouped by the same turnout history. Effects in percentage points; the four panels share one y-axis.

Table A5: Heterogeneity by prior turnout

	2-digit sector (1)	4-digit industry (2)	6-digit industry (3)	LLM approach (4)
A. Continuous prior-turnout share				
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic} \times$ Prior turnout share	-2.26^{**}	-2.75^{***}	-3.03^{***}	-3.56^{**}
	(0.91)	(0.76)	(1.04)	(1.46)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic} \times$ Not registered	1.47^{**}	1.94^{***}	2.02^{***}	1.82^{**}
	(0.66)	(0.59)	(0.59)	(0.82)
B. Prior-turnout groups				
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$, voted in none of the four	1.10^{**}	1.58^{***}	1.58^{***}	1.80
	(0.47)	(0.48)	(0.50)	(1.15)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$, voted in one	1.53^{***}	2.12^{***}	2.31^{***}	2.27^{**}
	(0.48)	(0.43)	(0.48)	(0.89)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$, voted in two	1.40^{***}	1.73^{***}	1.87^{***}	1.60^{***}
	(0.43)	(0.39)	(0.45)	(0.50)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$, voted in three	0.99^{***}	1.17^{***}	1.20^{***}	1.13^{**}
	(0.35)	(0.36)	(0.37)	(0.43)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$, voted in all four	0.45^{*}	0.57^{***}	0.56^{**}	0.44
	(0.26)	(0.21)	(0.22)	(0.30)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$, Not registered	1.67^{**}	2.09^{***}	2.16^{***}	2.00^{**}
	(0.75)	(0.67)	(0.69)	(0.87)
Fixed effects				
Worker × campaign	✓	✓	✓	✓
Time × campaign				✓
Time × campaign × 2-digit sector	✓			
Time × campaign × 4-digit industry		✓		
Time × campaign × 6-digit industry			✓	
Campaigns	269	268	266	223
Ballots	132	131	129	113
Worker-campaigns				
Politically active firms	908,579	906,915	899,227	821,927
Politically inactive firms	43,983,903	11,470,492	6,971,570	7,453,743
Workers				
Politically active firms	734,696	733,225	726,584	687,947
Politically inactive firms	11,893,850	5,106,165	3,349,599	3,660,338
Firms				
Politically active firms	1,916	1,892	1,834	1,747

Prior turnout share is the share of the four even-year November general elections before the campaign ($r = -4..-1$) in which the worker voted, and Not registered marks workers not registered at one or more of them. Panel A: One regression per column, the comparison of politically active and inactive firms (Section 5.3) with the comparison workers of the corresponding column of Table 6. Comparison workers are grouped by the same history: each regression includes the share and Not registered interacted with each event time, for workers at politically active and inactive firms alike. Panel B: one regression per column on the same comparison workers, with $\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$ estimated separately (levels) for workers who voted in none, one, two, three or all four of those elections and for Not registered workers; comparison workers are grouped by the same history. Both panels use the same campaigns and workers. Turnout differences are reported in percentage points (pp). Each worker's base weight is $1/k$ for the k campaigns on one ballot in which he or she appears. Standard errors are clustered by firm and ballot and reported in parentheses; alternative clustering methods are reported in Appendix C.2. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. LLM approach: industries that LLM raters coded as affected by the measure.

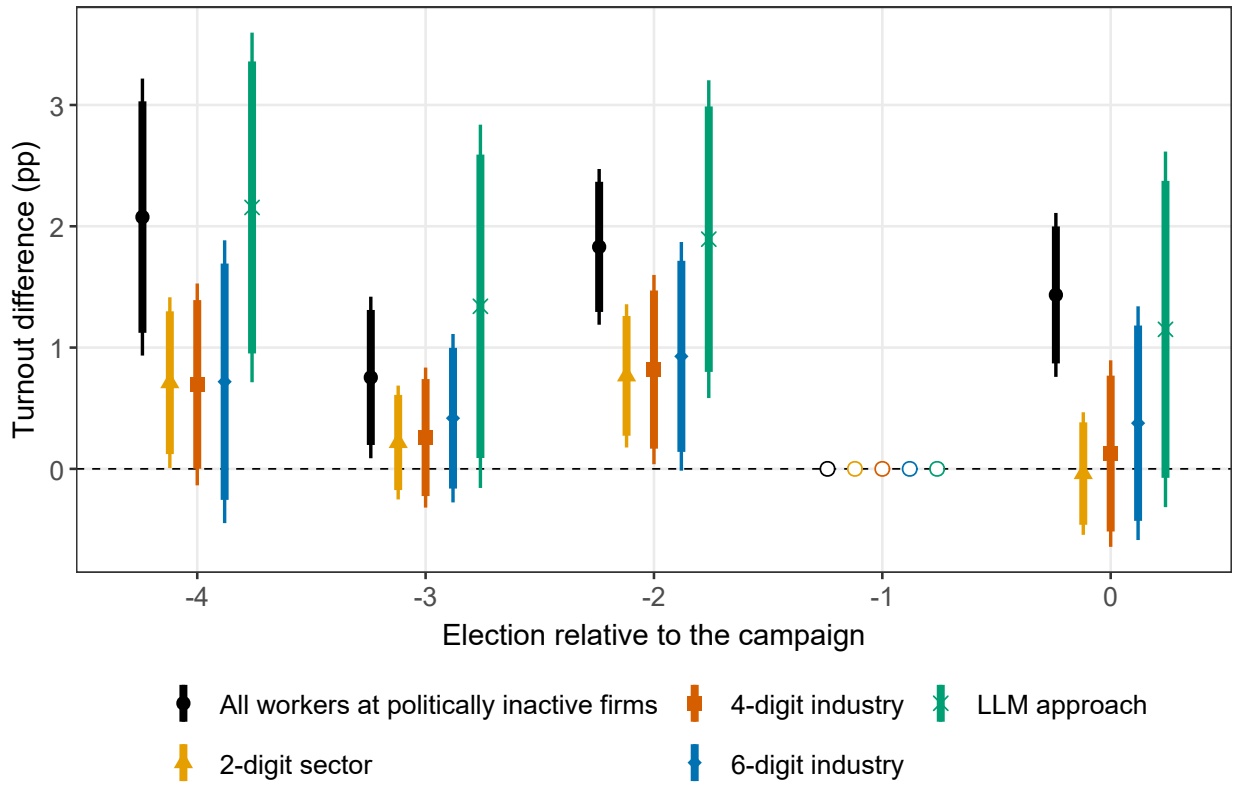
C Robustness Checks

C.1 Placebo Tests

C.1.1 Placebo in Another State

The placebo asks whether workers at a politically active firm turn out more on election day in a state where the firm did not contribute. Its treated workers are employees of a politically active firm who are registered to vote in a state other than the one where the firm contributed, and who face a ballot held on the same election day as one of the firm's first funded campaigns. Their comparison workers are registered voters in that state employed at politically inactive firms in the column's comparison group; workers at firms that funded that state's own campaigns leave both groups. Event time, fixed effects, weights and standard errors follow Table 5. If the estimates of Table 5 reflected something common to a politically active firm's workforce around election day rather than the campaign in the workers' own state, such as a firm-wide turnout drive unrelated to the measure or the composition of politically active firms' employees, these workers would show it as well.

Figure A6: Placebo in another state: event studies



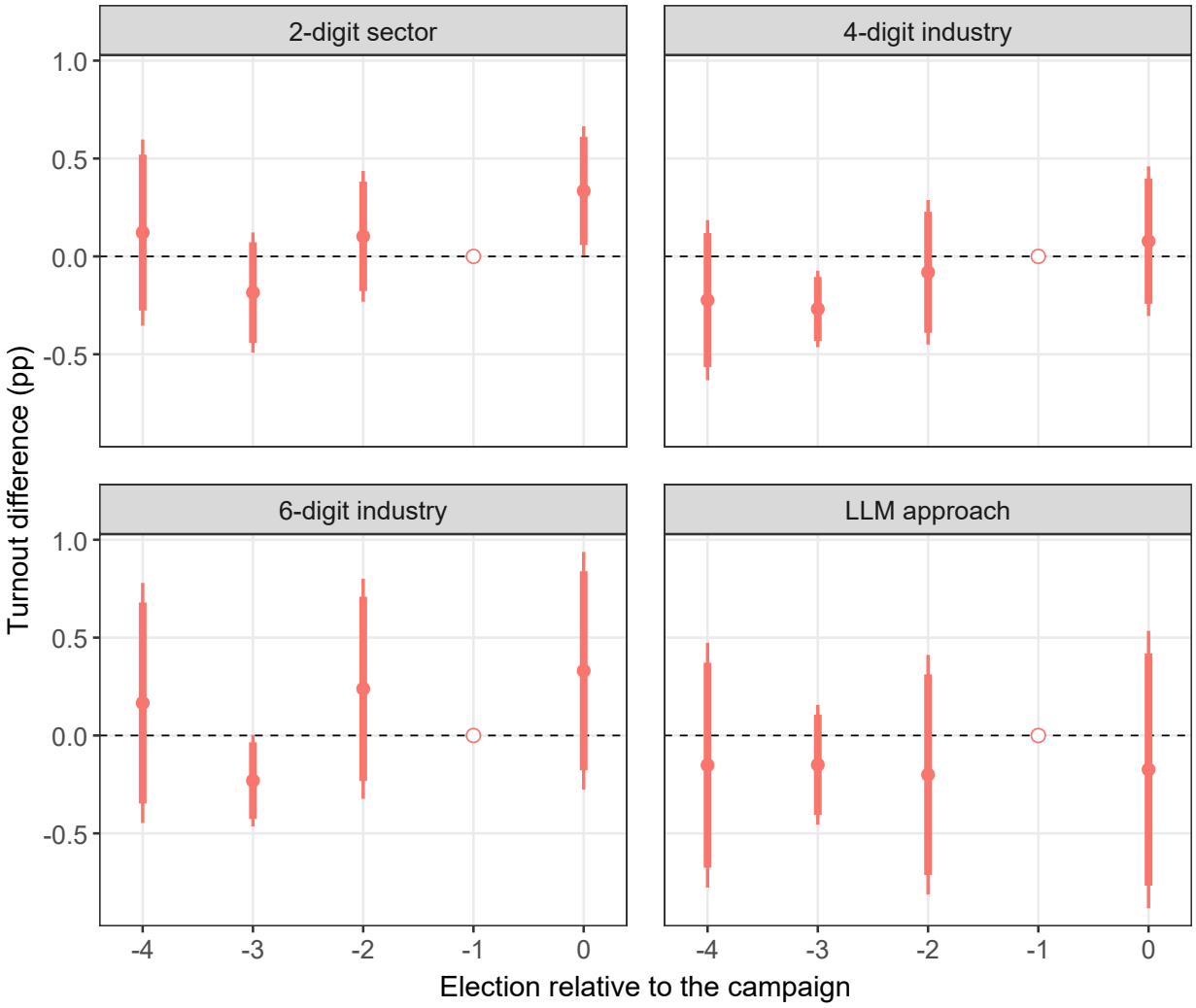
Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals. Event studies of the five columns of Table 7, one regression per comparison group: workers of politically active firms registered in a state where the firm did not contribute, on a ballot held the same day as one of the firm's first funded campaigns, against that state's workers at politically inactive firms in the comparison group. Event time over the preceding elections of the same type, general or non-general, $r = -4..0$; reference $r = -1$; standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot.

C.1.2 Placebo in Another Industry

The industry placebo asks whether workers in an industry that a ballot measure would affect turn out more when that measure is on another state's ballot rather than their own. Each measure borrows the affected industries of one measure from a different state in the same election year, chosen by a seeded random draw. Workers at politically inactive firms in an industry the borrowed measure affects, and unaffected by any measure on their own ballot, are placebo-affected; their comparison group is the campaign's other workers at politically inactive firms. Workers affected by a measure on their own ballot and workers at politically active firms leave the placebo fits. Event time, fixed effects, weights and standard errors follow step (a), with the placebo-affected workers as the treated group. If the step (a) estimate reflected something common to an industry's workers around election day, such as an industry-wide turnout trend, rather than the measure on the workers' own ballot, the placebo-affected workers would show it as well.

With the affected industry defined as the politically active firm's 4-digit industry, the placebo estimate is 0.20 (SE 0.14, p 0.14) across 127 ballots, against 0.58 (SE 0.29) for step (a). With the industries that LLM raters coded as affected by the measure, it is −0.06 (SE 0.27, p 0.84) across 111 ballots, against 0.73 (SE 0.29) for step (a) (Table 8). With the affected industry defined as the politically active firm's 2-digit sector, the placebo estimate is 0.33 (SE 0.16, p 0.040) across 119 ballots, against 1.09 (SE 0.38) for step (a); 75 campaigns leave this fit because every borrowed sector is also affected on their own ballot. With the politically active firm's 6-digit industry, it is 0.29 (SE 0.20, p 0.15) across 126 ballots, against 0.87 (SE 0.37) for step (a). Workers in industries that a measure on another state's ballot would affect do not turn out significantly more under the 4-digit, 6-digit and LLM definitions, and turn out somewhat more under the broad 2-digit definition (Figure A7).

Figure A7: Event study, industry placebo



Event studies of the four columns of Table 8, one panel per definition of the affected industry: the politically active firm's 2-digit sector, 4-digit industry and 6-digit industry, and the industries that LLM raters coded as affected by the measure. Points are the placebo coefficients; thick bars are 90% and thin bars 95% confidence intervals, from standard errors clustered by firm and ballot. Event time over the preceding elections of the same type, general or non-general, $r = -4..0$; reference $r = -1$.

C.2 Inference

Table A6: Inference, 4-digit industry comparison

Clustering	SE	95% interval	p	Clusters
Firm	0.181	[0.87, 1.58]	1×10^{-11}***	70,308 firms
Ballot	0.388	[0.45, 1.99]	0.0021***	131 ballots
State	0.150	[0.92, 1.53]	1×10^{-9}***	37 states
Two ways, by firm and by ballot	0.392	[0.45, 2.00]	0.0023***	70,308 firms, 131 ballots
Two ways, by firm and by state	0.156	[0.90, 1.54]	3×10^{-9}***	70,308 firms, 37 states
Firm × ballot cells, one way	0.172	[0.88, 1.56]	1×10^{-12}***	153,522 cells
Campaign	0.368	[0.50, 1.95]	0.0010***	268 campaigns
Worker	0.070	[1.08, 1.36]	9×10^{-69}***	5,783,594 workers
Two ways, by worker and by ballot	0.388	[0.45, 1.99]	0.0021***	5,783,594 workers, 131 ballots
Wild cluster bootstrap, by ballot		[0.50, 2.26]	0.0003***	131 ballots
Wild cluster bootstrap, by state		[0.80, 1.82]	<0.0001***	37 states

The 4-digit industry comparison (column (3) of Table 5), $\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic} = 1.22$ percentage points, one regression; the rows differ only in how its standard error is computed. The campaign, worker and worker-and-ballot rows come from a refit that keeps the scores at the worker × campaign level, which reproduces the estimate and the other standard errors exactly. Wild cluster bootstrap: restricted, null imposed, 9,999 Rademacher draws; a p of zero over the draws is shown as <0.0001. Tables in the main text report the two-way firm and ballot clustering. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A7: Wild cluster bootstrap, main results

	All workers at politically inactive firms (1)	2-digit sector (2)	4-digit industry (3)	6-digit industry (4)	LLM approach (5)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$	1.77	1.01	1.22	1.29	1.43
Ballot bootstrap 95%	[0.15, 3.86]	[0.15, 2.24]	[0.50, 2.26]	[0.53, 2.36]	[0.17, 2.97]
p	0.028**	0.013**	0.0003***	0.0003***	0.02**
Ballots	132	132	131	129	113
State bootstrap 95%	[1.19, 2.76]	[0.71, 1.71]	[0.80, 1.82]	[1.01, 2.05]	[0.84, 3.05]
p	<0.0001***	0.0004***	<0.0001***	0.0003***	0.0009***
States	37	37	37	37	36

The coefficient $\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$ of each column of Table 5 (one regression per column), with 95% intervals (pp) and p of the restricted wild cluster bootstrap clustered by ballot and, separately, by state (null imposed, 9,999 Rademacher draws). Stars refer to the bootstrap p: $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. LLM approach: industries that LLM raters coded as affected by the measure.

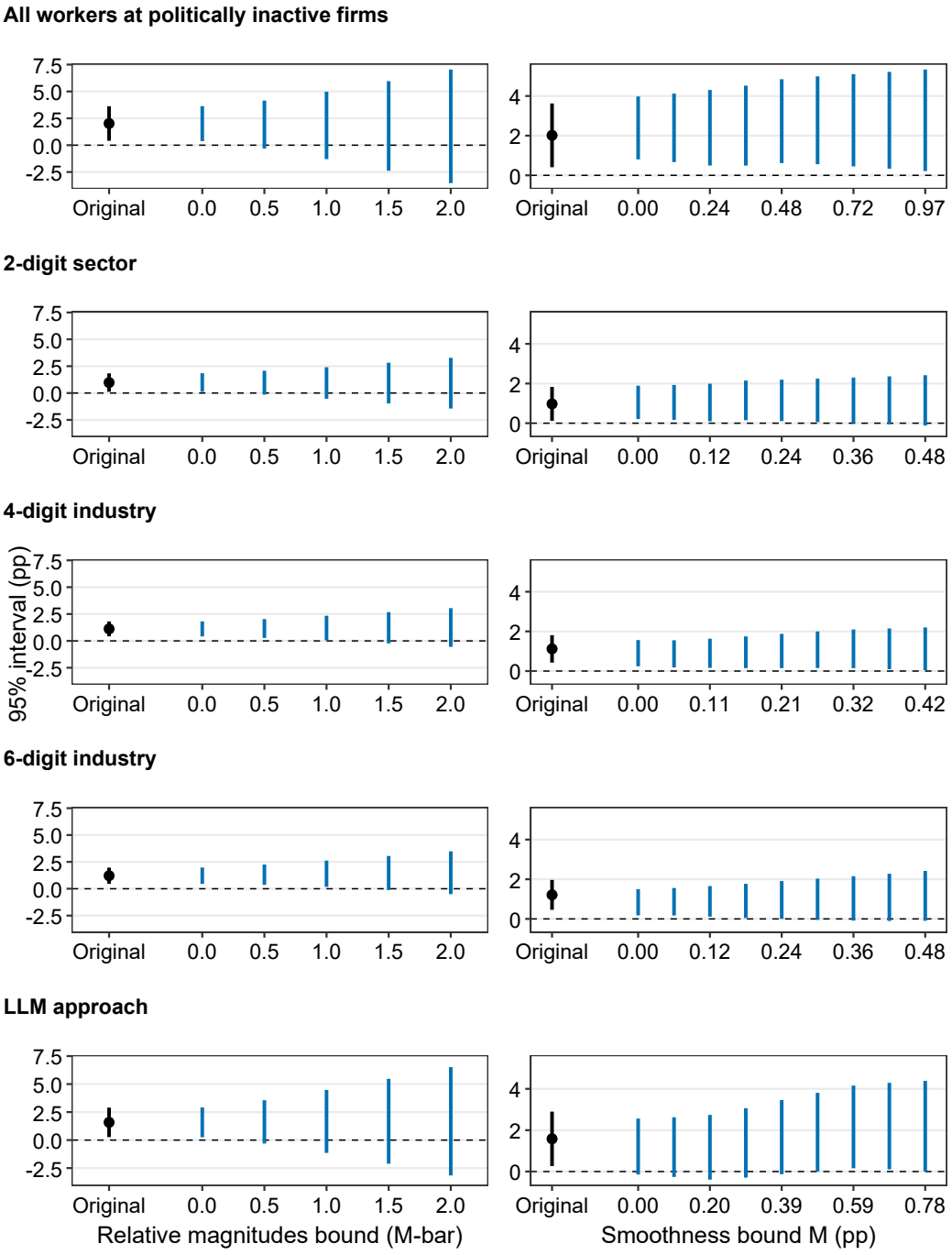
Table A8: Wild cluster bootstrap, affected industries against unaffected workers

	2-digit sector (1)	4-digit industry (2)	6-digit industry (3)	LLM approach (4)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Affected}_{ic}$	1.09	0.58	0.87	0.73
Ballot bootstrap 95%	[0.30, 1.92]	[−0.02, 1.26]	[0.12, 1.78]	[0.23, 1.42]
p	0.0001***	0.061*	0.021**	0.0025***
Ballots	132	132	132	113
State bootstrap 95%	[0.13, 1.73]	[0.37, 1.54]	[0.49, 1.32]	[0.39, 1.07]
p	0.0031***	0.0049***	<0.0001***	0.0027***
States	37	37	37	36

Wild cluster bootstrap inference for the coefficient on $\text{Post}_t \times \text{Affected}_{ic}$ in each column of Table 3, one regression per column. Every worker in the affected industry, at politically active and politically inactive firms, is compared with workers at politically inactive firms outside it, with worker × campaign and time × campaign fixed effects; event time runs over the preceding elections of the same type, general or non-general, $r = -4..0$, reference $r = -1$. Intervals are 95% intervals in percentage points (pp), and p-values are from the restricted wild cluster bootstrap (null imposed, 9,999 Rademacher draws), clustered by ballot and, separately, by state. A ballot is a state and a certified election date. Column (4) identifies affected industries using the LLM methodology described in Section 4.3.2 and Appendix F.1. Stars refer to the bootstrap p: $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

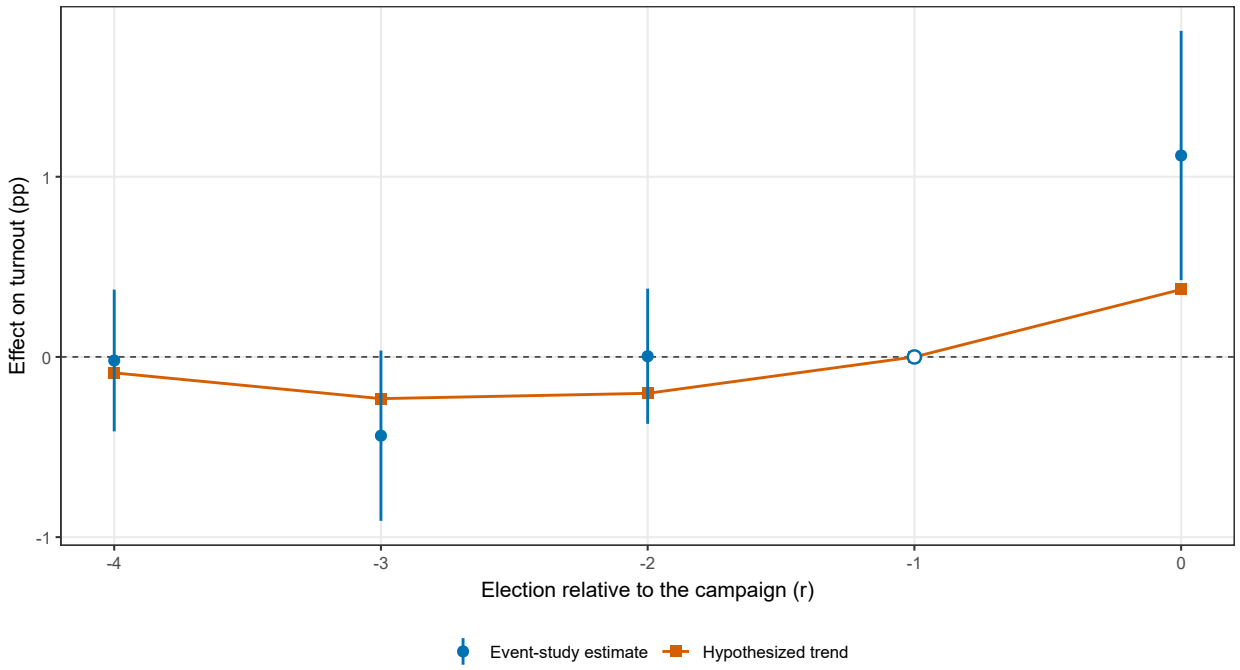
C.2.1 Pre-trend Sensitivity

Figure A8: HonestDiD bounds, by comparison group



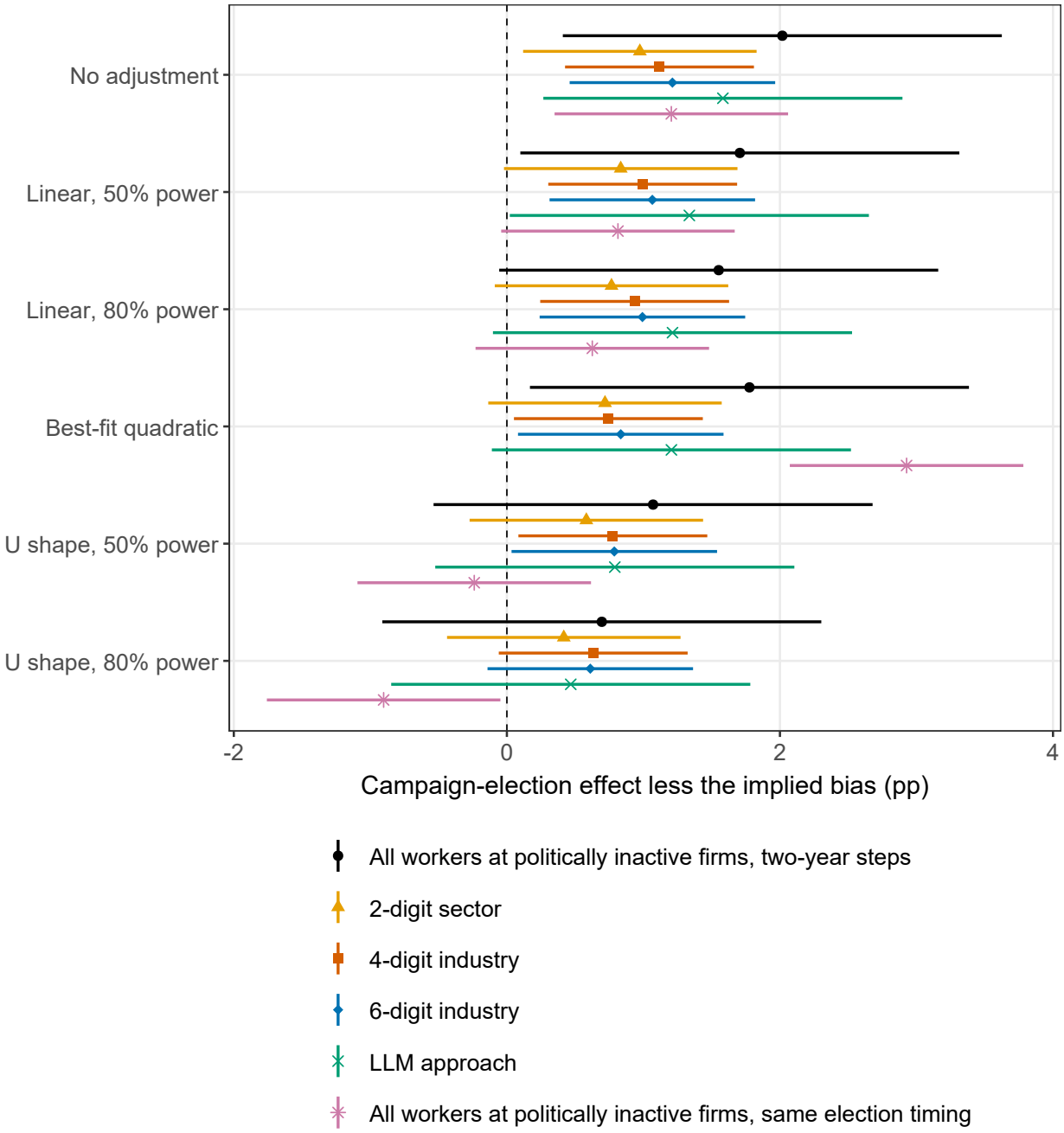
95% interval for the $r = 0$ coefficient against the relative-magnitudes bound $\bar{M}$ (left) and the smoothness bound M in pp (right), one row per comparison group of Table 5; the original interval at the left of each panel, with its point estimate. The smoothness bound is a multiple $k = 0, 0.25, \ldots, 2$ of the mean standard error of the group's three pre-period coefficients.

Figure A9: Best-fit quadratic trend, 4-digit industry comparison



Quadratic fitted to the pre-period estimates through zero at $r = -1$, extended to $r = 0$. Pre-test power against this trend 0.29; implied bias at $r = 0$ 0.37; $r = 0$ estimate 1.12 (0.35) less the bias 0.74, 95% [0.05, 1.44].

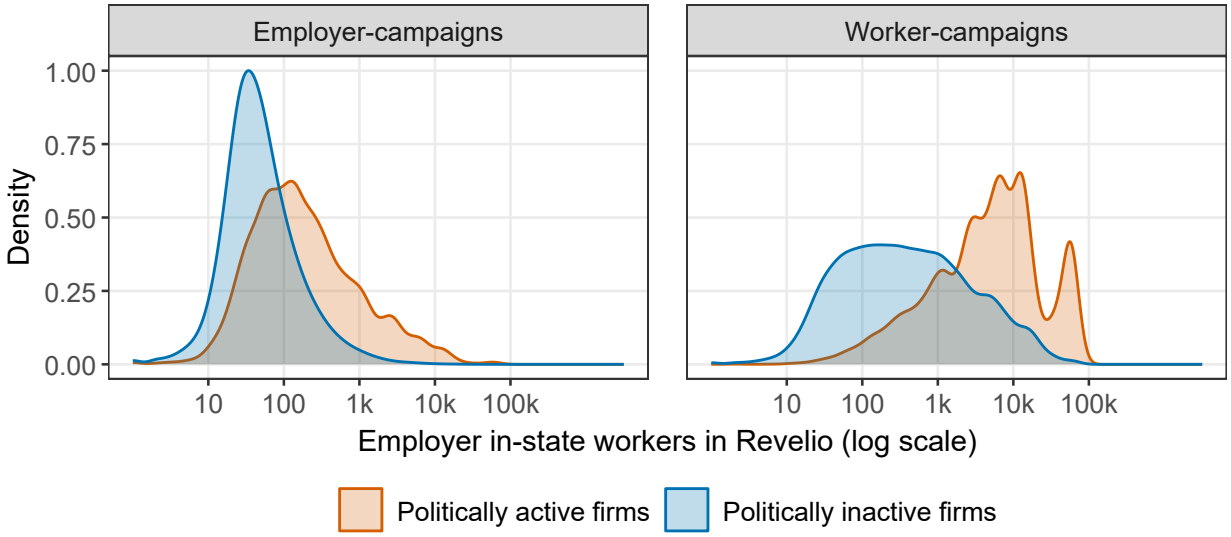
Figure A10: The $r = 0$ coefficient less the bias implied by each hypothesized pre-trend, six designs



Pretrends calculations of Roth (2022): each trend is pinned at zero at $r = -1$; linear and U-shaped trends are scaled so that the joint pre-test detects them with 50% or 80% power; the best-fit quadratic is fitted to the pre-period coefficients. Normal 95% intervals from the covariance clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot.

C.3 Employer Size

Figure A11: Employer in-state workers in Revelio, politically active and politically inactive employers



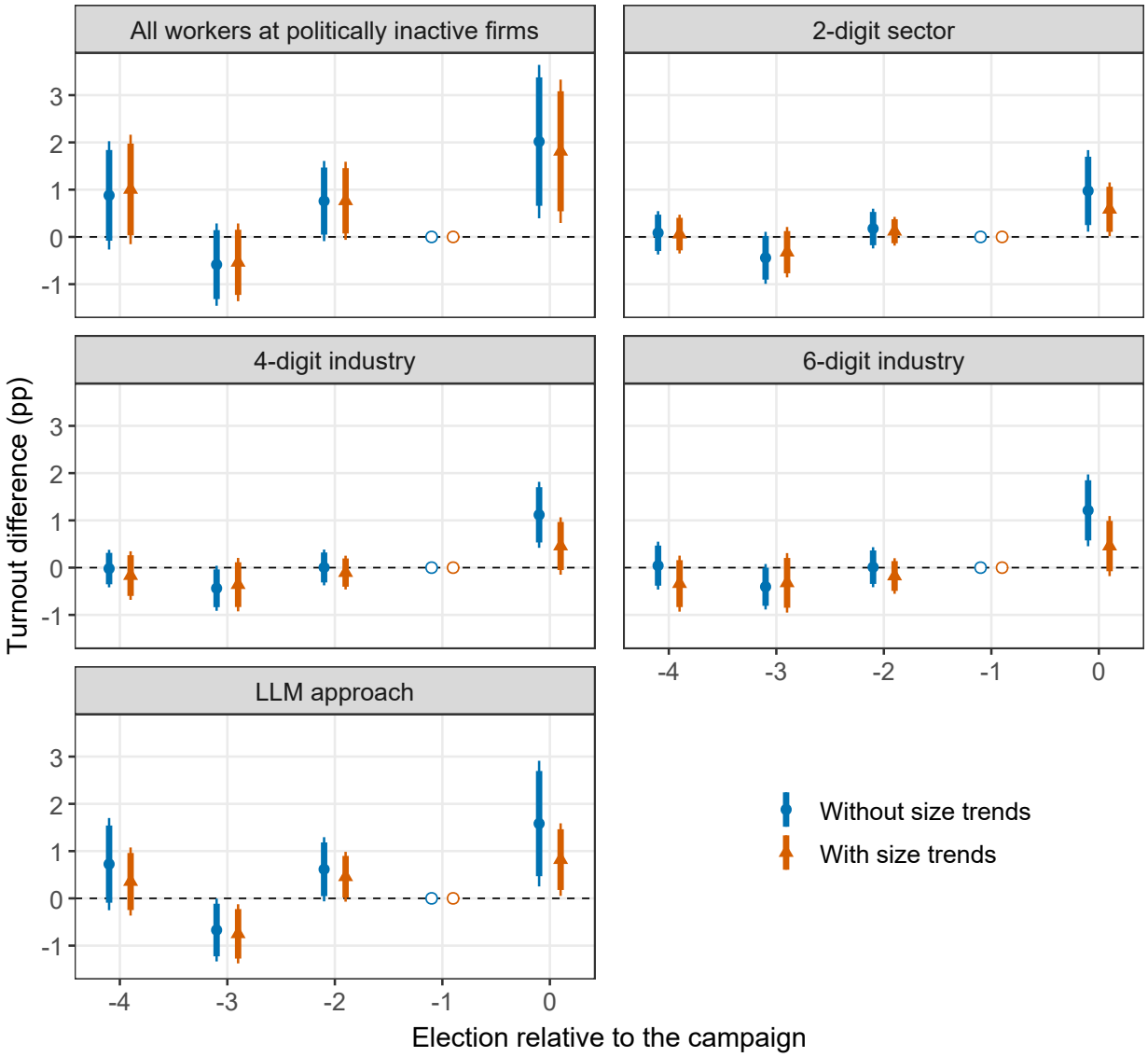
Kernel densities (Gaussian, bandwidth 0.1 in log10 units) of the employer's Revelio profiles located in the campaign's state on the first of the election month. Left, employer-campaigns: one observation per employer and campaign, so an employer counts once in each campaign it is in, whatever its number of workers; 2,545 politically active and 3,596,906 politically inactive employer-campaigns are drawn. Right, worker-campaigns: one observation per worker and campaign of the estimation sample, unweighted, so an employer counts once for each of its workers; 908,287 worker-campaigns at politically active firms and 190,121,878 at politically inactive firms are drawn. Employers with no positive headcount are not drawn (employer-campaigns, politically active / inactive: 13 / 51,058; worker-campaigns: 292 / 9,742,487). Means, medians and band shares per employer-campaign are in Table A4.

Table A9: Robustness: differential size trends

	All workers at politically inactive firms (1)	2-digit sector (2)	4-digit industry (3)	6-digit industry (4)	LLM approach (5)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$	1.53**	0.61*	0.60*	0.65**	0.80**
	(0.74)	(0.32)	(0.32)	(0.30)	(0.35)
Campaigns	269	269	268	266	223
Ballots	132	132	131	129	113
Worker-campaigns at politically active firms	908,579	908,579	906,915	899,227	821,927
Comparison worker-campaigns	199,864,365	43,983,903	11,470,492	6,971,570	7,453,743
Firms					
Politically active firms	1,916	1,916	1,892	1,834	1,747

Each column adds time × campaign × size band fixed effects (employer in-state workers in Revelio: under 100, 100–499, 500 or more; a missing headcount is its own band) to the same column of Table 5: $\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$, the coefficient β of Section 5.3. Effect on turnout, percentage points; standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot, in parentheses. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. Wild cluster bootstrap intervals: Table A10.

Figure A12: Event studies with size band × event-time fixed effects against the fits without them, five comparison groups



Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95% confidence intervals. Pooled effects in Table A9.

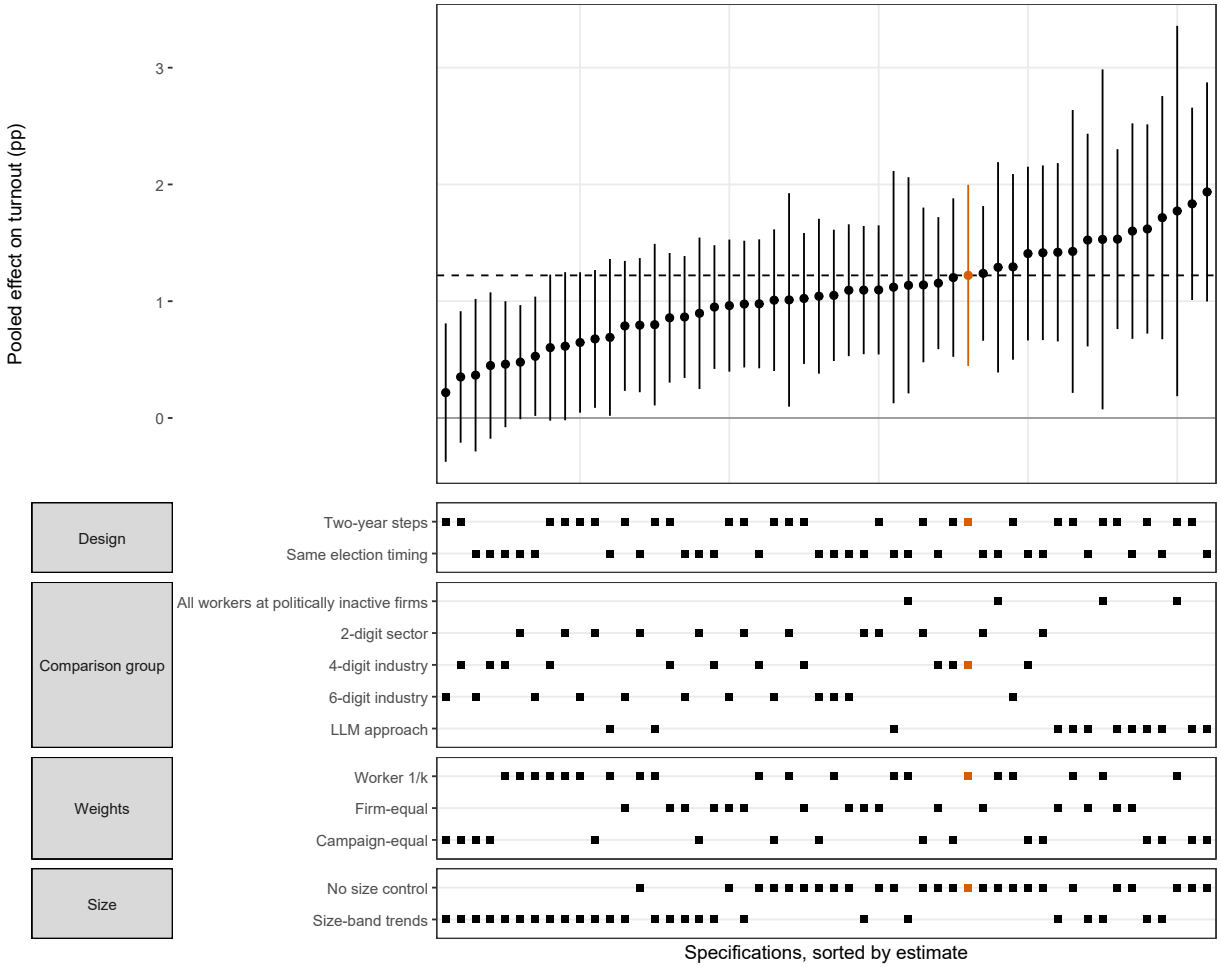
Table A10: Wild cluster bootstrap, size trends

	All workers at politically inactive firms (1)	2-digit sector (2)	4-digit industry (3)	6-digit industry (4)	LLM approach (5)
$\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$	1.53	0.61	0.60	0.65	0.80
Ballot bootstrap 95%	[0.01, 3.37]	[−0.03, 1.42]	[−0.06, 1.38]	[0.01, 1.40]	[0.10, 1.62]
p	0.049**	0.064*	0.073*	0.046**	0.025**
Ballots	132	132	131	129	113
State bootstrap 95%	[0.92, 2.57]	[0.26, 1.32]	[0.13, 1.35]	[0.04, 1.46]	[0.30, 2.38]
p	0.0004***	0.0053***	0.017**	0.039**	0.0047***
States	37	37	37	37	36

The coefficient $\text{Post}_t \times \text{Active}_{ic}$ of each column of Table A9 (one regression per column), with 95% intervals (pp) and p of the restricted wild cluster bootstrap clustered by ballot and, separately, by state (null imposed, 9,999 Rademacher draws). Stars refer to the bootstrap p: $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. LLM approach: industries that LLM raters coded as affected by the measure.

C.4 Alternative Comparisons, Weights and Controls

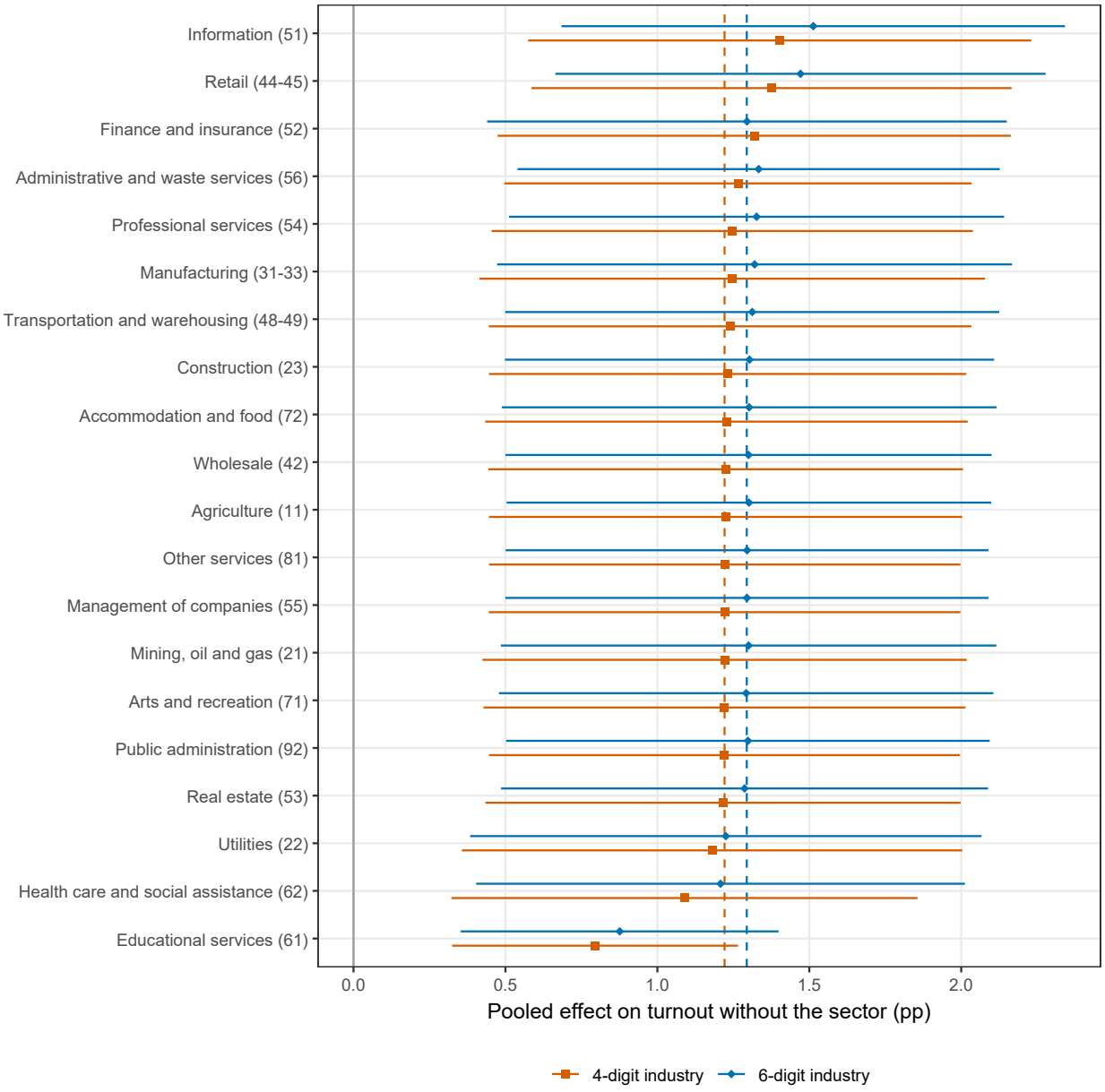
Figure A13: Specification curve



One regression per specification: event-time design (two-year steps over even-year November elections, $r = -4..0$; steps within the same election timing, $r = -3..0$) × comparison group (all workers at politically inactive firms, same 2-, 4- or 6-digit industry, affected industries, the industries that LLM raters coded as affected by the measure) × weights (worker $1/k$; firm-equal; campaign-equal) × employer size (none; size band × event-time fixed effects, bands under 100, 100–499 and 500 or more in-state workers). Top: estimates sorted from smallest to largest, dots and 95% intervals from standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot, 113 to 132 ballots; dashed line and orange mark, the 4-digit industry comparison of Table 5, 1.22. Bottom: the choices of each specification. 52 specifications. Estimates 0.22 to 1.94, median 1.05; 44 of 52 intervals exclude zero, and the eight that include zero all carry size-band trends (lowest lower bound −0.38).

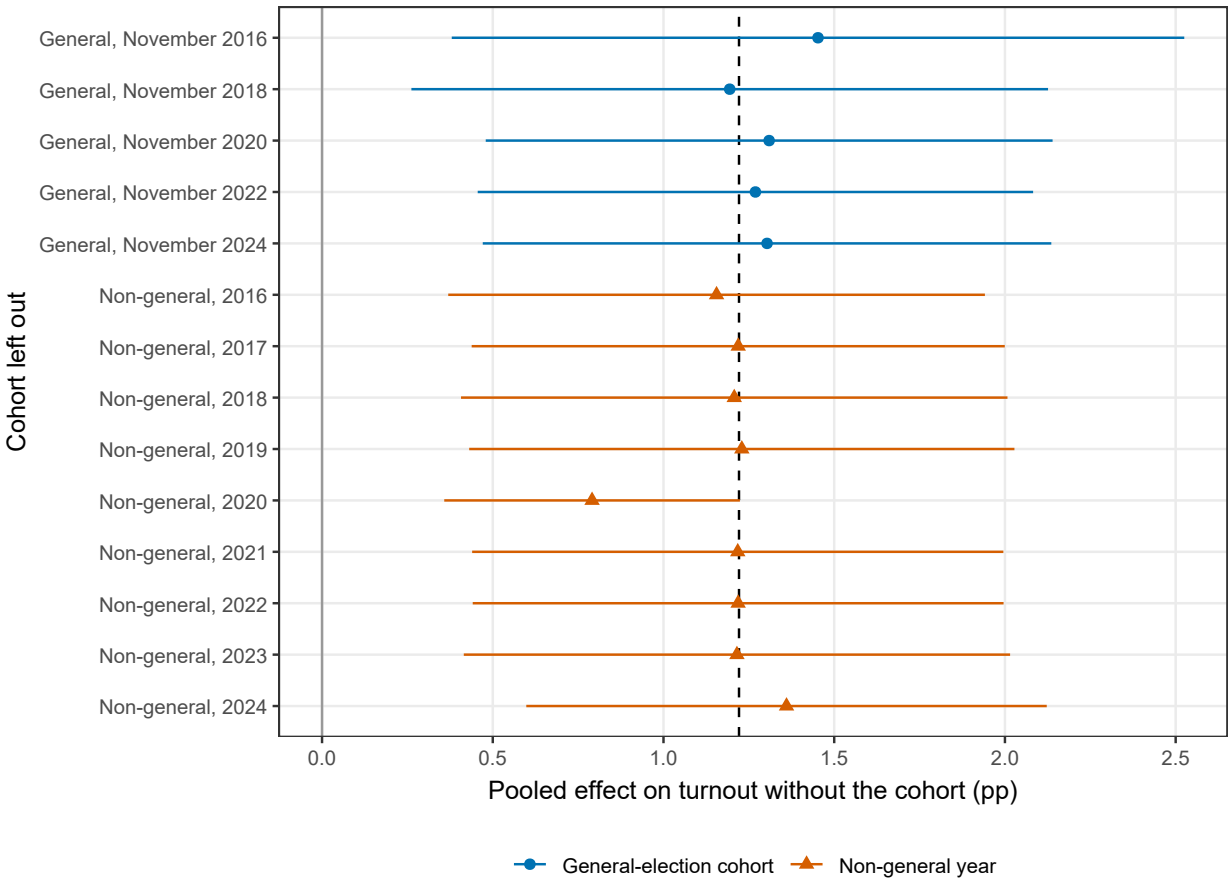
C.5 Drop-one Checks

Figure A14: Leave one NAICS sector out, same 4-digit and same 6-digit industry



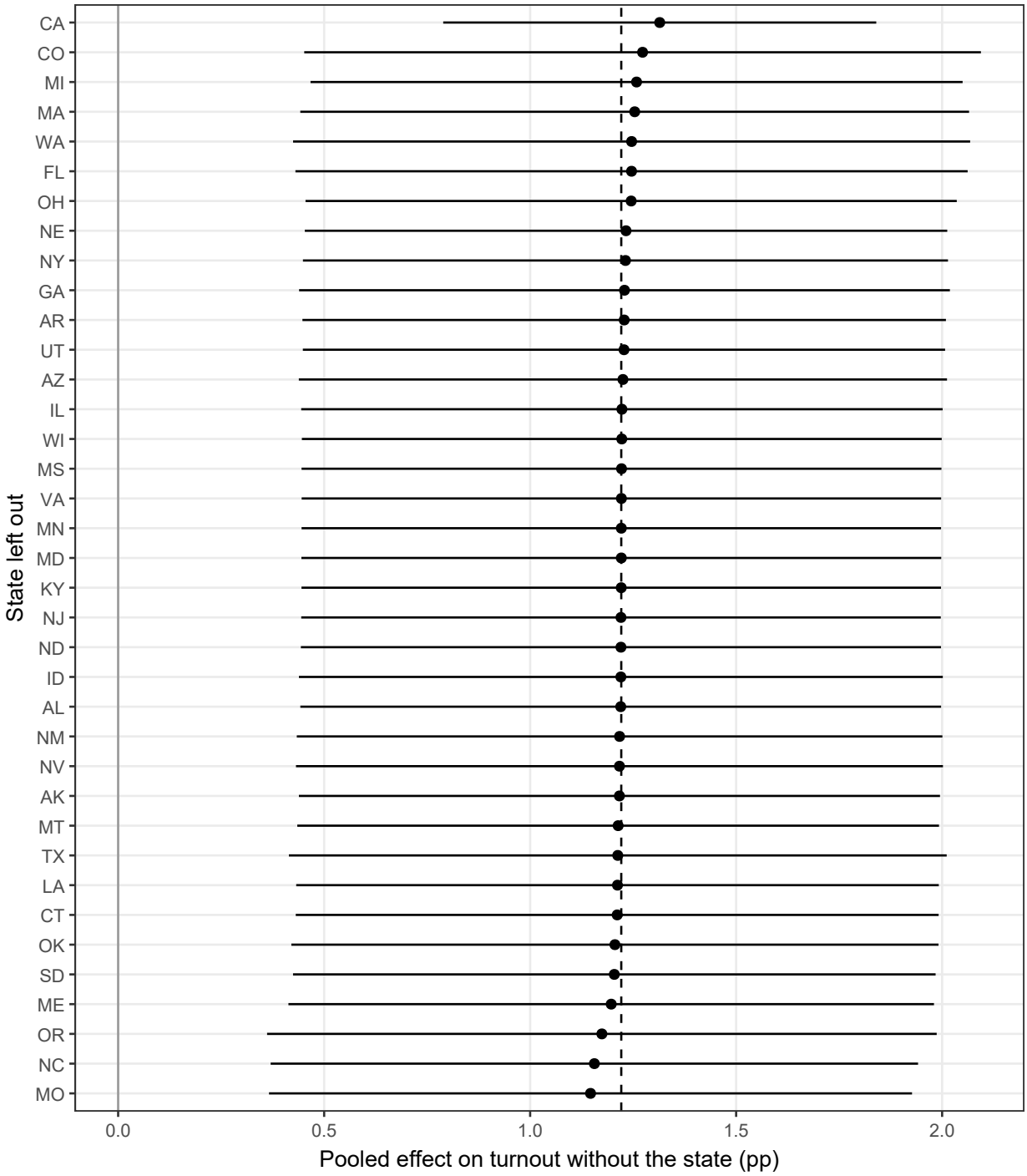
One refit per sector and comparison group; 20 sectors (31–33, 44–45 and 48–49 each one group; the sector's workers leave both arms). Dots and 95% intervals from standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot.

Figure A15: Leave one cohort out, 4-digit industry comparison



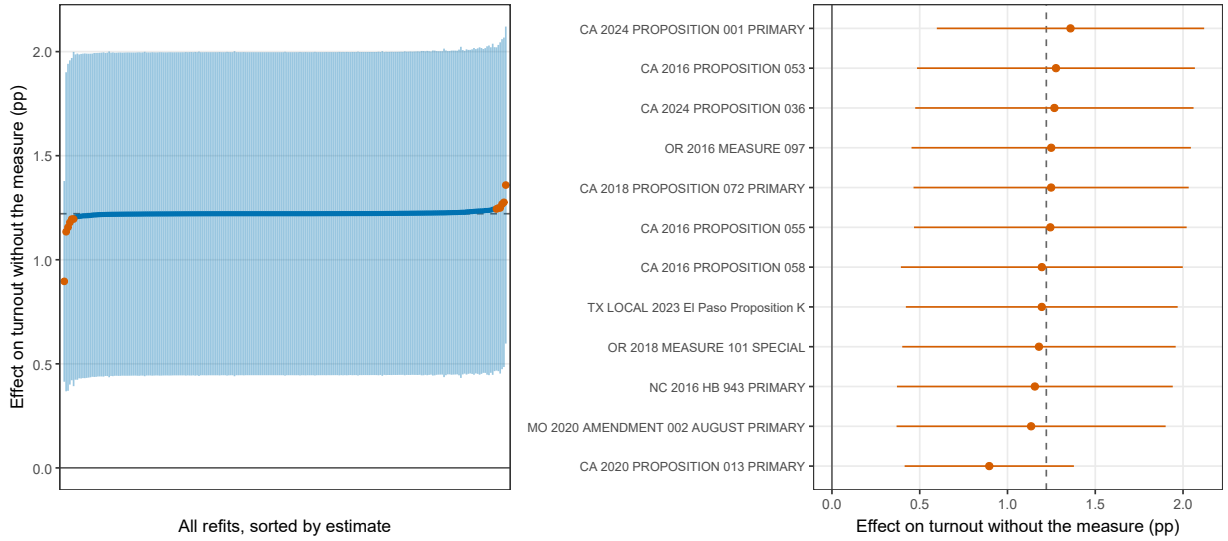
One refit per cohort left out: each November general-election cohort (2016, 2018, 2020, 2022, 2024), and the non-general campaigns grouped by the calendar year of their election (2016 through 2024: 2, 5, 7, 6, 7, 9, 3, 13 and 3 campaigns). Dots and 95% intervals from standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot.

Figure A16: Leave one state out, 4-digit industry comparison



37 fits; each drops every statewide and local campaign of one state. Dots and 95% intervals from standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot; dashed line, all campaigns, 1.22. Pooled effect 1.15 (0.39, Missouri out) to 1.31 (0.27, California out); every other state 1.16 to 1.27. All 37 intervals exclude zero. California carries 47% of the weight on workers at politically active firms; without it the fit has 123 ballots and 38,783 firms.

Figure A17: Leave one ballot measure out, 4-digit industry comparison



One refit per ballot measure, both stances of the measure dropped together (237 measures), sorted by the refit's estimate; dots and 95% intervals from standard errors clustered two ways, by firm and by ballot; dashed line, the estimate on all measures, 1.22. Estimates run from 0.90 (SE 0.24; without California Proposition 13, March 2020) to 1.36 (SE 0.38; without California Proposition 1, March 2024); every interval excludes zero. Left: all 237 refits in order. Right: the twelve measures whose omission moves the estimate furthest from 1.22 in either direction (largest absolute difference), labelled and ordered by the estimate without the measure; they are orange on the left.

D Precinct Vote-Direction Construction

D.1 Precinct-Level Returns: Sources and Coverage

Precinct-level returns on ballot measures are harder to obtain than precinct-level returns on candidate races. The standardized academic collections—the MIT Election Data and Science Lab and the Voting and Election Science Team—publish precinct returns for *candidate* offices only. Neither publishes measure-level yes/no counts. Ballot-measure returns must therefore be obtained from each state's own election authority, one state at a time, in whatever format that authority publishes. Although the turnout analysis spans 37 states, the vote-direction analysis is limited to seven states that publish precinct-by-precinct ballot question results as well as contemporaneous precinct shapefile boundaries. Table A11 lists the source used for each. Precinct boundaries are redrawn between cycles, so geometry is vintage-specific: each measure is matched to the shapefile for its own state and year, and precinct identifiers are scoped to that layer. In addition to data restrictions, I also limit the estimation to measures in which corporate funders were only active on one side of a ballot question, as it is not theoretically clear how to treat precincts with workers employed at multiple opposing firms.

Table A11: Precinct-Level Ballot-Measure Returns: Source by State

State	Authority	Granularity	Format
California	Statewide Database (SWDB)	Precinct (SRPREC)	CSV/DBF
Georgia	Secretary of State (historical)	Precinct	Precinct files
Massachusetts	Secretary of the Commonwealth	Precinct	Searchable database
North Carolina	State Board of Elections	Precinct	Flat file
North Dakota	Secretary of State	Precinct	CSV/Excel
Nevada	Secretary of State	Precinct	CSV/Excel
Oklahoma	State Election Board	Precinct	CSV/ASCII

Precinct *geometry* comes from a different source: the Voting and Election Science Team and the Redistricting Data Hub publish precinct shapefiles by state and vintage, and California is matched to the Statewide Database's own SRPREC shapefile. Returns and geometry are joined by precinct identifier, then workers are placed into the resulting polygons.

D.2 Spatial Inference

Table A12: Precinct slopes under alternative spatial inference

	Ballots cast (1)	Year-t registrants (2)	Ballots cast (3)	Year-t registrants (4)	Ballots cast (5)	Year-t registrants (6)
Slope	3.78	5.99	0.58	0.58	0.21	0.57
Conley standard error, Bartlett kernel						
5 km	0.38	0.55	0.22	0.34	0.10	0.12
10 km	0.55	0.76	0.27	0.45	0.10	0.13
25 km	0.72	0.99	0.33	0.55	0.10	0.14
Spatial block bootstrap, 95% interval						
10 km blocks	[2.68, 4.81]	[4.29, 7.42]	[−0.01, 1.18]	[−0.53, 1.47]	[0.06, 0.47]	[0.28, 0.80]
25 km blocks	[2.27, 5.18]	[3.36, 7.88]	[−0.09, 1.23]	[−0.66, 1.44]	[0.02, 0.48]	[0.28, 0.80]

The six regressions of Table 10, same columns. Conley spatial-HAC standard errors with a Bartlett kernel at 5, 10 and 25 km bandwidths (5 km is the one reported in Table 10); spatial block bootstrap with 999 draws over 10 km and 25 km blocks, 95% percentile intervals. Slopes in percentage points of firm-preferred vote share per percentage point of exposure.

E Case and Company Identification

This appendix describes how I identified the ballot question campaigns and contributing companies that comprise the sample, and how I linked those contributors to employer records in the employment-voter panel.

E.1 Campaign Universe and Case Selection

During a typical election cycle, over 100 state-level ballot questions appear across 30 or more states. I consider all state-level ballot questions from 2016 through 2024, supplemented by selected municipal ballot questions in cities where employment data coverage is available. Using campaign finance data from OpenSecrets, I identify ballot question committees that received corporate contributions (OpenSecrets 2026). From the resulting set, I select campaigns where one or more specific companies contributed to a ballot question committee.

E.2 Contributor-to-Employer Matching

A central challenge is linking the names of ballot measure contributors—as they appear in campaign finance records—to the corresponding employer entities in the Revelio Labs employment database (Revelio Labs 2024). Contributor names in campaign finance filings are not standardized: the same company may appear as "BLUE CROSS BLUE SHIELD OF MASSACHUSETTS," "BLUE CROSS & BLUE SHIELD OF MA," or "BCBS MASSACHUSETTS." Meanwhile, Revelio's employment records use corporate legal names that may differ from the contributor's filing name (e.g., "Health Care Service Corporation" for Blue Cross Blue Shield of Illinois). The matching procedure must handle these discrepancies systematically.

Starting universe The campaign finance data contains 11,111 unique contributor names across all ballot measures in the sample states and years. Most of these are not employers—the universe includes unions, political action committees, advocacy organizations, political parties, religious organizations, and government entities alongside corporate contributors.

E.2.1 Entity Classification

I first classify each contributor into one of ten entity types: corporation, union, trade or professional association, political action committee, government, religious organization, campaign committee, advocacy organization, political party, and other. An LLM (OpenAI's `gpt-5.6-terra` at medium reasoning effort) classifies each contributor name and returns a type, a confidence score, and a one-sentence reason. Its instructions classify an entity by its primary activity rather than by words in its name. An organization whose main activity is running a business, school, hospital, clinic, or utility is a corporation regardless of ownership form (for-profit, nonprofit, public, tribal, or cooperative), whereas a membership organization that mainly represents its members' shared interests is an association even when it has employees. "Tillamook County Creamery Association," a dairy cooperative, is therefore a corporation, while the "National Restaurant Association" is an association. A foundation that exists to support a single institution, such as a university foundation, takes that institution's type. Nine OpenSecrets entries that record aggregated contributions rather than an organization are set aside before classification. The classifier identifies 5,404 contributors as corporations.

Manual curation Two hand-built lists adjust the classifier's output. A hand-curated exclusion list of 1,389 entities confirmed through manual review to be non-employers (e.g., "FWD.US," a political advocacy organization; "Represent.Us," a governance reform nonprofit) removes 74 entities the classifier had called corporations; the remainder of the list names entities the classifier already placed outside the corporate pool. A smaller set of manual overrides restores genuine employers that the classifier placed elsewhere, such as tribal governments that operate casinos.

After classification and exclusions, 5,330 corporate entities remain for matching.

E.2.2 Name Normalization

Before matching, I normalize both contributor names and employer names using the following rules, applied in order:

1. Convert to uppercase
2. Strip corporate suffixes: Inc, LLC, Corp, Corporation, Company, Co, Ltd, Limited, LP, LLP, PLC, Holdings, Group, International, Enterprises, Industries, The
3. Replace punctuation (except & and whitespace) with spaces
4. Collapse multiple spaces to a single space

This normalization maps "Procter & Gamble Co." and "PROCTER & GAMBLE COMPANY" to the same key ("PROCTER & GAMBLE"), enabling exact matching across stylistic differences.

E.2.3 Employer Lookup Table

The target for matching is a lookup table of employer names and employee counts by state, extracted from the Revelio employment records. For each of the 52 state partitions in the employment data, I extract all unique company names, their Revelio company identifiers (RCIDs), employee counts (defined as the number of linked voters with active employment at that company), and primary NAICS industry classification. The extraction uses DuckDB for memory-efficient per-state queries over the parquet-formatted employment data. The resulting lookup contains approximately 20 million (company, state) entries.

E.2.4 Four-Tier Matching Cascade

Each contributor entity is matched against the employer lookup using a four-tier cascade. The tiers are applied in order; the first match found is accepted.

Tier 1: Manual aliases A hand-curated mapping of 321 contributor names to their corresponding employer names. These handle cases where automated matching is impossible: corporate renamings ("Fiat Chrysler" → "Stellantis"), DBA names ("Amerco" → "U-Haul"), abbreviations ("BNSF" → "BNSF Railway"), and subsidiary-to-parent mappings ("21st Century Fox America" → "Fox Corp."). The alias file was built iteratively across five review rounds, starting from known difficult cases and expanding as automated tiers revealed gaps.

Tier 2: Exact normalized match The contributor's normalized name is compared to all employer names in the lookup for each state where the contributor is active. If the normalized strings are identical, the match is accepted. This tier captures the majority of matches—companies whose filing name, after suffix stripping, is the same as their employer record name.

Tier 3: Fuzzy matching For short names ($\leq$ 2 tokens after normalization), I apply *containment matching*: the contributor name is accepted as a match if it appears as a substring of an employer name with at least 10 employees. For example, "BASS PRO" matches "BASS PRO SHOPS OUTDOOR WORLD." The employee threshold prevents false positives from small entities with coincidentally similar names.

For longer names ($\geq$ 3 tokens), I use token-level Jaccard similarity:

$$J(A, B) = \frac{|A \cap B|}{|A \cup B|}$$

where A and B are the token sets of the contributor and employer names, respectively. To account for the discrete nature of Jaccard scores at different token counts, I apply graduated thresholds: $J \geq 0.67$ for 3-token names, $J \geq 0.60$ for 4+ token names. I use an inverted token index to efficiently identify candidate pairs sharing at least one token, avoiding exhaustive pairwise comparison.

Tier 4: Semantic similarity Remaining unmatched entities are embedded using OpenAI's text-embedding-3-small model and matched via approximate nearest neighbor search using FAISS (Johnson et al. 2021). The employer lookup names are embedded and indexed using FAISS's inner-product index on L2-normalized vectors, which computes cosine similarity. A match is accepted if the cosine similarity exceeds 0.85. This tier captures semantic matches that token-level methods miss—for example, "Progressive Casualty Insurance" matching "Progressive Corp." Queries are restricted to states where the contributor is active to prevent cross-state false matches.

E.2.5 Post-Match Filtering

Three filters are applied after matching:

1. **Match blacklist.** A set of 248 known false-positive (contributor, employer) pairs is removed. These arise when an employer name is superficially similar to the contributor but refers to a different entity (e.g., "WSI US LLC," a staffing company, matched to "Wynn Resorts"; "Horizon Pharma PLC," an Irish biopharmaceutical company, matched to "Horizon Pharmacies, Inc.," a Texas pharmacy chain). The blacklist was compiled through iterative manual review across five matching rounds and a comprehensive LLM-assisted validation of all matches (described below).

2. **Industry filter.** Matches where the employer's NAICS classification indicates a non-employer entity are removed. The filter excludes all six-digit NAICS codes from 813000 through 813999 (NAICS 813xxx).

3. **Employer size threshold.** An employer enters the registry only where the employment data record at least 10 employees for it, assessed on the firm in the state its coverage row was computed in. A separate and larger threshold applies later, at the episode level rather than the firm level: an episode is estimated only if at least 50 employees of the mobilizing firms appear on that state's voter file at that election, pooled across every firm on that side of the measure. No filter at any stage removes an individual employer for having fewer than 50 linked voters.

E.2.6 Iterative Review

The matching pipeline was run five times, with manual review of all matches and high-contribution unmatched entities between rounds. Each review round produced three types of feedback: (a) new manual aliases for entities that should have matched, (b) additions to the entity exclusion list for contributors confirmed as non-employers, and (c) additions to the match blacklist for false-positive matches. The fourth round included a systematic investigation of all 1,743 unmatched entities with contributions of $10,000 or more, using the employer lookup to identify candidate matches for manual verification.

E.2.7 LLM-Assisted Match Validation

After the iterative review, I conduct a comprehensive validation of all matched pairs using a large language model (Claude Opus 4.6, Anthropic). Each matched contributor–employer pair is evaluated for two properties: (a) whether the matched employer name plausibly refers to the same entity as the contributor name, considering subsidiaries, DBAs, and corporate renamings; and (b) the three most likely six-digit NAICS 2022 industry codes for the contributor company. The validation is performed by 12 parallel classification agents, each reviewing approximately 200 matches.

This validation identifies 157 false-positive matches, which are removed from the crosswalk. False positives are concentrated among Tier 3 fuzzy matches (39% invalid rate) rather than Tier 2 exact matches (1.9%).

The NAICS review reveals that Revelio's industry classifications are unreliable: in a random 50-row spot-check, 34% of Revelio-assigned NAICS codes were incorrect at the six-digit level. Common errors include holding-company codes assigned to operating subsidiaries (e.g., a commercial bank coded as "Corporate Managing Offices"), cannabis companies assigned to pharmaceutical manufacturing (no cannabis-specific NAICS code exists), tribal casino operations classified as amusement parks, and private law firms coded under government legal services. I replace Revelio's NAICS codes with the LLM's top classification for all companies in the crosswalk, applying manual overrides for known problem categories: cannabis companies are assigned 111998 ("All Other Miscellaneous Crop Farming"), tribal casino operations 713210 ("Casinos"), and tribal governments 921150 ("American Indian and Alaska Native Tribal Governments"). The LLM-assigned codes are mapped to the official Census Bureau NAICS 2022 classification.

E.3 Matching Results

Table A13: Matching Results by Tier

Tier	Method	Matches
0	Manual employer-ID overrides	71
1	Manual aliases	298
2	Exact normalized	1,878
3	Fuzzy (Jaccard + containment)	177
4	Embedding similarity (FAISS, cosine ≥ 0.85)	0
	Total	**2,424**

F Ballot Measure Classification

F.1 LLM Identification of Affected Industries

I identify which industries are likely to be affected by a potential ballot question by locating companies that are active in political campaigns supporting or opposing the bill. While donating to political campaigns is a costly signal that the measures have strategic impact for firms in that industry, this definition is arguably circular. As an alternative, I use multiple LLMs to assess all industries and judge which 4-digit NAICS codes are likely to be affected by a specific ballot measure.

The procedure involves two independent rating agents: Jev (version 1.13.0), and gpt-5.6-terra (medium reasoning effort). Each agent is given a prompt including each ballot measure's name, jurisdiction, election year, and a description which was prepared by a separate LLM based upon the Ballotpedia (2026) summary of the ballot question. (The summary redacts information about supporters and funders of the campaign.)

Each rating agent is then asked, for each ballot question, whether the proposed policy would, if enacted, change its firms' products, the demand of their customers, their regulatory or compliance costs, or their competitors, including effects one step removed through suppliers and service providers. Each industry is scored 0 (not affected), 1 (marginally), 2 (materially) or 3 (primary target). The two models first rate sectors (2-digit NAICS). For sectors which a model rates 1 or higher, that model then rates each 4-digit NAICS industry within the sector; the affected set is the 4-digit industries rated 2 or higher.

Where the two models disagree on whether a ballot measure is considered material for an industry (≥ 2), a third model (Claude Opus 5.5) adjudicates as a tie-breaker. The tiebreaker was invoked on 2,976 items, siding with Jev on 1,300 and with `gpt-5.6-terra` on 1,676. Before the tiebreak, the raters agree on the material call for 88.9% of measure–sector cells (κ 0.63; quadratic-weighted κ on the four-point score 0.73). Jev codes 864 measure–sector cells as material and `gpt-5.6-terra` 1,369. At the 4-digit level the Jaccard overlap of the two raters' material sets has a mean of 0.38 and a median of 0.37 across measures.

Examples California Proposition 22 (2020), which classified app-based drivers as independent contractors, has five affected industries: taxi and limousine service (4853), other transit and ground passenger transportation (4859), couriers and express delivery services (4921), local messengers and local delivery (4922), and restaurants and other eating places (7225), the last entering at the tiebreak. California Proposition 67 (2016), which upheld the statewide ban on single-use plastic bags, has eleven, among them textile, paper and plastics product manufacturing (3149, 3222, 3261), paper and nondurable goods wholesalers (4241, 4249), and grocery, specialty food, department, general merchandise, health and miscellaneous retailers (4451, 4452, 4551, 4552, 4561, 4599).

Prompts The raters received the prompts below, version `affected-industries/v2-20260925`, reproduced verbatim; lines longer than 100 characters are wrapped for display, and angle brackets mark the parts filled in for each measure. Both raters and the tiebreaker received the same rubric. In stage 1 each rater scored all twenty NAICS sectors; in stage 2, the four-digit industry groups inside the sectors it scored 1 or more. gpt-5.6-terra received each stage as one prompt per batch of measures, beginning with a read-only instruction; Jev received the rubric with one question per sector or industry group, each answered on the 0–3 scale with the level descriptions below. The tiebreaker saw the two raters' scores anonymously, as Rater 1 and Rater 2 in random order.

Rubric (both raters and the tiebreaker)

```
You are coding which industries a ballot measure affects, for a study of how firms respond to
ballot measures. You see only the text of the measure. Judge the measure as if it were enacted
```

```
exactly as described, whatever the actual result.

DEFINITION. An industry is AFFECTED by a measure when the measure, if enacted, would change any
of the following for that industry's firms:
- its products: what the firms may make, sell or provide, or the terms, prices or taxes on
  which they do so;
- its customers' demand: demand the measure creates, removes, restricts or redirects,
  including demand from public spending the measure authorizes for a named use;
- its regulatory or compliance costs: rules, licences, taxes, fees, mandates or reporting
  duties the firms must meet, including rules on how they hire, pay or classify workers;
- its competitors: a rival product or provider the measure enables, restricts or creates,
  including a public provider or a newly opened or closed market.

Count effects one step removed from the text. The industries affected are not only those the
measure names but also the suppliers and service providers of the activity it regulates,
taxes, funds, restricts or bans. A restriction on who may buy or hold a product reaches the
firms that make, distribute and sell that product. A change in how the state handles an
activity reaches the private firms that are paid to provide services to that activity. A
measure that funds building reaches the firms that design and build it.

Still scored 0: effects that run only through the general economy or business climate; through
how a government later spends general revenue with no named use; or through an industry
merely sharing the measure's topic without any of the four channels above reaching its firms.

SCORE, 0 to 3:
0 = not affected: none of the four channels reaches this industry's firms, even one step
    removed.
1 = marginally affected: a channel reaches the industry, but the effect is small relative to
    its business, reaches only a small part of it, or reaches it only as one of all employers
    or taxpayers under a broad rule whose burden falls evenly across industries.
2 = materially affected: a channel, direct or one step removed, substantially changes the
    products, customer demand, regulatory or compliance costs, or competition of a substantial
    part of the industry's firms, or of an identifiable line of business the industry contains.
    A broad tax or mandate whose burden falls disproportionately on particular industries
    scores 2 or more for those industries.
3 = primary target: the industry's firms are a principal object of the measure; it is written
    to tax, regulate, fund, protect, restrict or create a market for this industry's business.

Score each industry on the measure's effect on its most affected part. A sector containing one
industry that the measure targets outright scores 3 even if the rest of the sector is untouched.

Use the measure text and general knowledge of what industries do and whom they serve. Do not
guess at who funded, supported or opposed the measure; that information is withheld on purpose
and is not evidence of an effect. Use the NAICS 2022 definitions of the sectors and industry
groups listed.
```

Measure description (as given to each rater and the tiebreaker)

```
measure_id: <measure identifier>
jurisdiction: <state, or local jurisdiction and state>
year: <election year>
measure: <measure title>
description: <summary of the measure text>
```

Stage 1 task (gpt-5.6-terra)

```
STAGE 1, SECTORS. For each measure below, score EVERY one of the twenty NAICS 2022 sectors
listed, 0 to 3, under the rubric. Each sector is listed with its three-digit subsectors so you
can see what it covers.

Return one CSV block, fenced with ‘‘‘csv, with header exactly
measure_id,sector,score,reason
and exactly twenty rows per measure, one per sector, using the sector codes as written
(11, 21, 22, 23, 31-33, 42, 44-45, 48-49, 51, 52, 53, 54, 55, 56, 61, 62, 71, 72, 81, 92).
score is an integer 0, 1, 2 or 3. reason is at most 15 words, with no commas, and may be empty
for a score of 0.
```

Stage 2 task (gpt-5.6-terra)

```
STAGE 2, INDUSTRY GROUPS. For each measure below you are given the NAICS 2022 four-digit
industry groups inside the sectors a first pass found affected. Score each listed
industry group 0 to 3 under the same rubric.

Return one CSV block, fenced with ‘‘‘csv, with header exactly
measure_id,naics4,score
listing ONLY the industry groups you score 1, 2 or 3. Every listed group you leave out is
recorded as 0. Use only codes from that measure’s own list. score is an integer 1, 2 or 3.
```

Order of a gpt-5.6-terra prompt

```
<READ-ONLY INSTRUCTION>

Prompt version: affected-industries/v2-20260925

<RUBRIC>

<STAGE TASK>

SECTORS (NAICS 2022):            (stage 1 only)
<code> <title> [subsectors: <codes and titles>]
...

MEASURES:

<measure description, as above>
industry groups to score:        (stage 2 only)
  <four-digit code> <title> (sector <code>)
...
```

Read-only instruction (gpt-5.6-terra)

```
This is a read-only rating task run from a script. Do not write, create or modify any file, and
do not create a session log or any other artifact; the sandbox is read-only by design and no
log is expected of you. Do not run any commands, do not browse, and do not read any files;
everything you need is in this message. Respond with the requested CSV block and nothing else.
```

Stage 1 question, one per sector (Jev)

```
<RUBRIC>

Prompt version: affected-industries/v2-20260925

Score this NAICS 2022 sector for the measure described: <sector code> <sector title> [subsectors:
    <three-digit subsector codes and titles>]. Answer with one of 0, 1, 2 or 3.
```

Stage 2 question, one per industry group (Jev)

```
<RUBRIC>

Prompt version: affected-industries/v2-20260925

Score this NAICS 2022 industry group for the measure described: <four-digit code> <industry group
    title> (sector <sector code>). Answer with one of 0, 1, 2 or 3.
```

Answer levels (Jev)

```
0: Not affected: none of the four channels (products, customer demand, regulatory or compliance
    costs, competitors) reaches this industry’s firms, even one step removed.
1: Marginally affected: a channel reaches the industry but the effect is small, reaches a small part
```

```
    of it, or reaches it only as one of all employers or taxpayers under a broad rule whose burden
    falls evenly.
2: Materially affected: a channel, direct or one step removed, substantially changes products,
    customer demand, compliance costs or competition for a substantial part of the industry or an
    identifiable line of business in it; includes broad rules whose burden falls disproportionately
    on it.
3: Primary target: the industry's firms are a principal object of the measure.
```

Tiebreak task (Claude Opus 5.5)

```
You are adjudicating between two independent raters who coded which industries a ballot
measure affects, under the rubric above. For each disputed item the two raters' scores
are shown as Rater 1 and Rater 2; the raters are anonymous and neither is a reference answer.
Decide the correct score, 0 to 3, under the rubric, from the measure text alone. You may choose
either rater's score or another score.

Return one CSV block, fenced with ‘‘‘csv, with header exactly
item_id,score,reason
one row per disputed item, reason at most 20 words with no commas.
```

Order of a tiebreak prompt

```
Prompt version: affected-industries/v2-20260925

Read only this file. Do not open any other file, do not search, and do not browse.

<RUBRIC>

<TIEBREAK TASK>

DISPUTED ITEMS BY MEASURE:

<measure description, as above>
disputed items:
  T0001: sector <code> <title>; Rater 1 = <score>, Rater 2 = <score>
...
```

F.2 Material Stake Classification

For each firm × measure pair, I assess the *material stake* for workers—i.e., the extent to which the ballot measure affects employees' jobs, income, or working conditions.

This classification is based upon two independent LLM raters (Claude Sonnet 5 and gpt-5.6-terra, both at high reasoning effort). Each rating agent received information about the specific employer (employer name, NAICS code, corporate parent, and workforce size), a detailed description of the ballot measure (based upon the information available from Ballotpedia), and the stance the firm took (support or oppose). Based upon this information, each rater assigns both a 1–10 material stake score, as well as a corresponding classification into "High" (score 8–10), "Medium" (4–7), or "Low" (1–3), based upon the detailed classification guide provided in Table A14. Each rating agent also provides a written explanation for its score.

In cases where the two rating agents disagreed across categories (i.e., they do not agree whether the material stake is high, medium, or low), a third agent (Claude Opus 5) adjudicated between the two based upon the initial information provided as well as the written rationale provided by each rating agent. Of the 3,951 pairs, 3,079 were resolved by consensus and 868 required adjudication; the remaining 4, whose sector had been mis-coded, were re-rated with the sector omitted. Table A15 reports inter-rater agreement statistics; over 92% of firm–measure pairs are within 2 score points of one another.

Table A16 reports the final distribution after adjudication.

Table A14: Material Stake Coding Guide

Category	Score	Criterion	Anchoring example
High	10	Employees lose their jobs if it passes/fails. Existential.	Coal-mining company opposing a ban on coal power (miners lose their jobs)
	9	Major workforce restructuring likely (layoffs, closures, pay cuts).	Taxi company opposing rideshare legalization (workforce made obsolete)
	8	Employees' core job functions or working conditions change substantially.	Hospital system opposing Medicaid expansion repeal (staffing levels change)
Medium	7	Meaningful impact on job security or compensation, not existential.	Trucking company opposing emissions rules requiring fleet replacement (costly adaptation)
	6	Some employees affected (one division), others not.	Pharmaceutical company opposing a drug-pricing measure (some sales roles affected, R&D not)
	5	Plausible but indirect—the firm cares, employees might notice.	Technology company opposing a data-privacy measure (compliance costs, daily work unchanged)
	4	Firm has a financial interest but employees' daily work is unaffected.	Bank opposing a financial transaction tax (revenue hit, tellers' jobs same)
Low	3	Marginal—industry-adjacent, employees keep jobs and conditions regardless.	Insurer opposing tort reform (industry-adjacent, employees unaffected)
	2	Firm takes a position on a policy tangential to its sector.	Oil company supporting a school-voucher initiative
	1	No connection to the firm's business or employees' work. Purely political, reputational, or ideological.	Software company weighing in on an animal-welfare ballot measure

This coding guide was dispatched to two rating agents (Claude Sonnet 5 and gpt-5.6-terra), alongside descriptions of each company and ballot question.

Table A15: Inter-Rater Agreement: Material Stake Classification

Statistic	Value
Firm–measure pairs scored by both raters	3,951
Category agreement (High/Medium/Low)	3,083 (78.0%)
Cohen's κ (three categories)	0.635
Pearson r (1–10 scores)	0.868
Within 1 point	2,868 (72.6%)
Within 2 points	3,633 (92.0%)
Disagreements adjudicated (Opus 5)	868

Table A16: Material Stake Distribution

Material Stake	Statewide	Local	Total	%
High (8–10)	414	7	421	10.7
Medium (4–7)	1,526	283	1,809	45.8
Low (1–3)	1,461	260	1,721	43.6
Total	3,401	550	3,951	100.0

Counts cover all coded firm × measure pairs, including pairs outside the estimation sample. Table 2 reports the stake categories in the estimation sample.

F.3 Policy Type Classification

I classify each ballot measure into one of twelve policy type categories:

- **Industry regulation**: measures that directly regulate a specific industry's ability to operate, enter, or exit a market, where the industry falls in no other category (e.g., cannabis legalization, gambling authorization, insurance and lending rules)
- **Taxes and budget rules**: measures on the tax or budget system itself, such as rate changes with no named program, assessment rules, revenue or spending limits, and budget procedures; a tax, fee, or bond that funds a named program is classified by that program
- **Elections and government**: measures affecting voting systems, voter eligibility, redistricting, campaign finance, term limits, or government structure
- **Social and civil rights**: measures addressing abortion, guns, anti-discrimination, immigration, or religious liberty
- **Labor and employment**: measures on minimum wage, working conditions, paid leave, union rules, or occupational licensing
- **Education**: measures on school funding and facilities, vouchers and charter schools, teacher pay, early learning, or higher education
- **Health care**: measures on health insurance, Medicaid, drug pricing, hospitals, or public health
- **Environment and energy**: measures on emissions, clean energy mandates, utility regulation, water, or conservation
- **Public safety and justice**: measures on criminal law, sentencing, bail, or policing, and funding for police, fire, jails, and courts
- **Transportation and infrastructure**: measures on roads, transit, broadband, or general public works, including taxes and fees dedicated to transportation
- **Housing and land**: measures on rent control, housing affordability, homelessness services, property rights, or zoning
- **Other**: measures with a named purpose that none of the eleven categories above covers (e.g., libraries, arts, stadiums)

This classification is based upon two independent LLM raters (Claude Haiku 4.5 and gpt-5.6-terra, both at medium reasoning effort). Each rating agent received a detailed description of the ballot measure (based upon the information available from Ballotpedia). Based upon this information, each rater assigned the ballot question into a policy type category.

In cases where the two rating agents disagreed across categories (i.e., they assign different policy types), a third agent (Claude Opus 5) adjudicated between the two based upon the initial information provided as well as the written rationale provided by each rating agent. Table A17 reports agreement between the two coding agents after the initial run (prior to resolving disagreements).

Table A18 reports the final policy type distribution after adjudication.

Table A17: Inter-Rater Agreement: Ballot Measure Policy Type Classification

Statistic	All	Statewide	Local
Measures classified	416	374	42
Rated by both raters	416	374	42
Raw agreement	388 (93.3%)	349 (93.3%)	39 (92.9%)
Cohen's κ	0.925	0.925	0.913
Disagreements adjudicated	28		
Resolved to gpt-5.6-terra rater	23		
Resolved to Claude Haiku 4.5 rater	4		
Resolved to a category neither rater chose	1		

Table A18: Policy Type Distribution Across the Identified Statewide Measures

Policy Type	*N*	%
Industry regulation	63	16.8
Elections and government	57	15.2
Education	42	11.2
Social and civil rights	38	10.2
Health care	37	9.9
Taxes and budget rules	35	9.4
Environment and energy	34	9.1
Labor and employment	23	6.1
Public safety and justice	18	4.8
Transportation and infrastructure	14	3.7
Housing and land	10	2.7
Other	3	0.8
Total	374	100.0

G Employee Mobilization in Practice

A central inferential challenge in this paper is that employee mobilization is typically unobservable to the researcher. Large-scale survey evidence suggests that firms can and often do speak to their employees about politics, especially policies that closely relate to their business (Hertel-Fernandez 2017, 2018). However, for most of the 269 campaigns in the sample, we observe that a firm contributed to a ballot campaign and that its employees subsequently turned out at elevated rates, but we cannot directly observe the firm's internal communications, outreach efforts, or coordination with employee groups.

This appendix presents detailed case evidence from two episodes where the mobilization process was publicly documented through media coverage, corporate disclosures, employee-authored public communications, and interviews with labor representatives. These cases—Central Maine Power in Maine (2021 and 2023) and El Paso Electric in Texas (2023)—are not necessarily representative of the full sample, but they make visible the mechanisms that the quantitative analysis can only infer.

G.1 Central Maine Power (Maine 2021 and 2023)

Context

Maine voters faced two related ballot questions in consecutive odd-year elections. In November 2021, Question 1 asked whether to block the New England Clean Energy Connect (NECEC), a $1 billion transmission corridor backed by Central Maine Power (CMP) and its parent company Avangrid (a subsidiary of Spanish utility Iberdrola) that would carry hydroelectric power from Hydro-Québec to New England. Despite Maine's small population, the NECEC campaign was among the most expensive ballot campaigns in U.S. history, with combined spending exceeding $90 million. Voters rejected the corridor by a 59–41 margin.

Two years later, in November 2023, Question 3 proposed replacing Maine's two investor-owned utilities—CMP and Versant Power—with a consumer-owned entity called Pine Tree Power. This was a direct existential threat to CMP as an organization: if passed, the state would use eminent domain to acquire the utilities' assets and transfer operations to a publicly governed board. Combined opposition spending by CMP and Versant exceeded $37 million. Voters rejected Pine Tree Power by a 69–31 margin.

Both campaigns occurred in odd-year November elections—Maine's standard cycle for statewide ballot questions—where overall turnout is low and partisan cues from candidate races are largely absent. This is precisely the sparse information environment in which the amplifier condition predicts employer mobilization should be most effective.

Evidence of Employee Mobilization

The CMP case provides unusually rich evidence of deliberate employee mobilization through multiple channels.

Union–management coordination CMP employees are represented by IBEW Local 1837 (International Brotherhood of Electrical Workers). In an interview with a union official involved in both campaigns, the official described explicit coordination between the union and CMP management:[8]

> We communicated with [employees]… through email and letters and things like that. Word of mouth and talking to members. We worked closely with CMP. Workers made videos

[8] Personal interview, 2024. The official requested that the interview not be recorded but consented to the use of paraphrased quotes.

and commercials, and management were able to say in meetings that they had the workers' support. That was a crucial support.

This coordination was recognized by the National Labor and Management Public Affairs Committee (LAMPAC), which awarded IBEW Local 1837 and CMP for their coalition-building efforts on the NECEC and Pine Tree Power campaigns.

Television and online advertisements CMP employees appeared in professionally produced advertisements opposing Pine Tree Power. Figure A18 shows two examples: a named CMP employee (Jim Wright) discussing the risks of the proposed government takeover, and a CMP utility worker featured in the "A Risk We Can't Afford" campaign. These advertisements positioned employees as knowledgeable insiders whose firsthand expertise informed their opposition, and whose own jobs were at stake in the outcome.

Figure A18: CMP Employees in Campaign Advertisements (Maine 2023)



(a) CMP employee Jim Wright in anti-Pine Tree Power advertisement



(b) CMP utility worker in "A Risk We Can't Afford" campaign

Central Maine Power employees appeared in television and online advertisements opposing Question 3 (Pine Tree Power). The advertisements featured workers discussing the risks of replacing the investor-owned utility with a consumer-owned entity, framing employees as knowledgeable insiders whose expertise informed their opposition.

Grassroots campaign activity Beyond media appearances, CMP employees engaged in visible campaign outreach, including distributing materials and attending public events (Figure A19). The presence of employee-initiated activity—distinct from corporate advertising—suggests that mobilization operated at least partly through workplace social channels rather than exclusively through top-down employer communication.

Letters to the editor Between 2021 and 2023, CMP employees published letters to the editors of Maine newspapers opposing the NECEC referendum and Pine Tree Power. These letters are notable because they were authored by individual employees—not the corporation—and appeared in local outlets where the authors identified themselves by name, job title, and years of service. They illustrate the range of employee engagement, from senior executives to line workers. Excerpts from selected letters are reproduced below.

> We are Kevin Therriault, director of Substation Operations, and Kerri Therriault, director of Electric Operations, both at Central Maine Power. Together we have a combined 55 years of experience in the utility business. Both of us began at CMP in entry-level positions, holding a variety of operations



Figure A19: CMP employees campaigning against Pine Tree Power (Maine 2023)

CMP employees organized grassroots campaign activity opposing Question 3. The visibility of employee-led (as opposed to corporate-funded) opposition is consistent with a shared-stake account, in which employees whose own livelihoods are exposed act as voluntary political agents rather than as directed ones.

positions, and are proud to be part of an organization that successfully provides a critical service and invests in grid and substation modernization.

[Pine Tree Power]… looks to dismantle this team and replace it with a new management organization who would not have the experience, institutional knowledge, or financial structure to serve the people of Maine.

CMP customers have benefited consistently from CMP's parent company, Avangrid, in storm restoration. CMP can scale up quickly in a storm by calling upon sister companies to assist without the need to go through the traditional mutual aid organization. With this flexibility we can restore over 100,000 customers in a day; a high bar for a nonprofit company to reach. This critical benefit will disappear under any new public power entity…

CMP has served the customers of central and southern Maine for more than 120 years. Employees are proud to say that "We are CMP."

—Kevin and Kerri Therriault, *Kennebec Journal*, June 10, 2021

Good luck finding the dedication, despite the conditions, of a group of men and women such as CMP employees. Walk in their steel-toe boots all day, wear their protective clothing on sweltering days and in ice-cold temperatures before you throw away the reliability of your electric service, day and night, 24/7. Try wearing a raincoat and bibs for 17 hours during a sweltering, humid thunderstorm.

—John Rossignol, *Kennebec Journal*, June 25, 2021

It's hunting season in Maine. And, as a Central Maine Power employee, I am proud that CMP land is open for Maine recreation.

But what would happen to our access if the government were to take control of all the power lines in Maine? Instead of the longstanding agreements we've had with these companies, politicians would

> get to decide what we could and couldn't do along power line corridors… People will be hearing more about the proposal to have the state take over Versant and CMP in the coming months. It's a terrible idea. I hope people don't support it.
>
> —Bridgette Spencer, *Lewiston Sun Journal*, October 1, 2022

> **As a longtime CMP employee, I'm proud of the work we do to safely operate the electric grid.** We constantly monitor usage, track outages and repair downed lines, all while keeping the lights on. Thinking about these responsibilities in the hands of politicians chills me to the bone…
>
> To those who are as concerned as I am, please join me, and many of my coworkers, in opposing Pine Tree Power.
>
> —Terri MacDonald, *Portland Press Herald*, December 1, 2022

> My grandfather was a lineman for Central Maine Power. Generations of people just like him—hardworking, proud Mainers who care deeply about their local communities—are the faces of our company. They are the people who best know how to build and maintain our state's power grid.
>
> Take the 650 people on my Electric Operations team who continue this tradition. Many grew up in one Maine town and now live in another not far away. They know the geography of CMP's grid and how to repair it efficiently when our worst storms hit…
>
> **Or, you can choose not to pass Question 3 and keep the people who know Maine best in charge of making sure its power system is safe and reliable, while protecting local jobs.**
>
> —Adam Desrosiers, VP Electric Operations, *Portland Press Herald*, September 9, 2023

These letters span two years (2021–2023), two campaigns, and multiple newspapers. The authors range from a VP of Electric Operations to line workers. Their arguments consistently invoke personal expertise, local knowledge, and economic stakes—precisely the dimensions of competence and shared economic exposure that make an employer's political signal worth acting on.

G.2 El Paso Electric (Texas 2023)

Context

On May 6, 2023, El Paso voters considered Proposition K, a measure to municipalize El Paso Electric (EPE) by authorizing the city to issue bonds to acquire the utility's assets and create a publicly owned power provider. The proposal was driven by a coalition of environmental and consumer advocates who argued that public ownership would accelerate the transition to renewable energy and reduce rates. EPE opposed the measure.

Like the Maine campaigns, Proposition K occurred in a low-turnout special election—a municipal ballot in a non-November cycle—where partisan cues were minimal and the stakes for the employer were existential. Total turnout was approximately 69,600 voters out of roughly 400,000 eligible. Proposition K was defeated 67–33.

Evidence of Employee Mobilization

EPE's mobilization effort was unusually well documented because the company described it in its own corporate sustainability report.

Corporate disclosure of mobilization El Paso Electric's 2023 Corporate Sustainability Report explicitly described the company's employee mobilization campaign:

> EPE… vehemently opposed Proposition K, rallying workers and retirees to protect jobs, the company and the region's economic vitality. Through door-to-door outreach, yard signs and community engagement, workers and the community mobilized voters to soundly reject the proposal.

This is a rare instance of a firm publicly documenting that it "rallied workers" as a political strategy—language that goes beyond the typical corporate framing of employee "engagement" or "education." The disclosure also confirms that the mobilization extended to retirees, suggesting the firm leveraged its broader employment network, not just current workers.

Internal mobilization events Figure A20 shows an internal employee event at El Paso Electric featuring company leadership addressing employees under a "Power of My Vote" banner bearing the EPE logo. The event was designed to encourage employees to vote on Proposition K. The use of company branding on voter mobilization materials—held at what appears to be a company facility—illustrates the integration of political mobilization into the firm's internal communications infrastructure.



Figure A20: El Paso Electric leadership addressing employees at "Power of My Vote" event

Company leadership speaks to employees at an internal event encouraging voter participation on Proposition K. The "Power of My Vote" banner features El Paso Electric's corporate logo, illustrating the firm's integration of political mobilization into internal communications.

Community campaign activity EPE employees engaged in visible public campaign activity, including door-to-door canvassing, distributing yard signs, and attending public meetings (Figure A21a). The "No Way on Prop K" yard signs (Figure A21b) were distributed throughout the city in the weeks before the election.

Union coordination As in the CMP case, El Paso Electric's employee mobilization involved coordination between management and organized labor. IBEW Local 960, which represents EPE workers, also received a LAMPAC award for its coalition-building efforts on the Proposition K campaign.

Figure A21: El Paso Electric Campaign Activity



(a) EPE employees campaigning against Proposition K



(b) "No Way on Prop K" yard signs in El Paso

Left: El Paso Electric employees organized public campaign events opposing Proposition K. *Right:* "No Way on Prop K — Vote NO on May 6" yard signs were distributed throughout El Paso in the weeks before the election.

G.3 Implications for the Quantitative Analysis

These cases illustrate several features of the mobilization process that the quantitative analysis cannot directly observe but that inform the interpretation of the results. Notably, the evidence shown here demonstrates that the mobilization was multi-channel: firms used internal communications (emails, meetings, leadership addresses), external media (television advertisements, newspaper letters), grassroots organizing (door-to-door canvassing, yard signs), and labor–management coordination. This suggests that the treatment captured in the quantitative analysis—a firm contributing to a ballot campaign—is a proxy for a bundle of mobilization activities, not a single intervention. Additionally, both cases involved existential threats to the employer (utility takeover or elimination), occurred in low-turnout elections with minimal partisan cues, and featured union–management alignment. These are exactly the conditions—a stake genuinely shared between firm and workforce, a sparse information environment, and cross-partisan cooperation—under which the account in Section 2 predicts the strongest effects. The quantitative results are consistent on the dimension the sample can resolve: off-cycle elections produce the largest treatment effects. On the stake dimension the cases are more informative than the pooled estimates, because both firms faced an existential measure while the contributor-based sample contains almost no episodes in which a firm had no stake at all.

H Ballot Measure Roster

Table A19 counts the statewide measures by state and election year. Table A20 lists each statewide measure with its election year, a short description, the side or sides funded, contributions for and against, the number of politically active firms and the outcome, and Table A21 lists the local measures with the funding committee, its contributions, the politically active firms and their workers, and the outcome. The roster covers the all-workers sample, which contains every campaign of the comparison-group samples.

Table A19: Statewide ballot measures by state and election year

State	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023	2024	Total
AK	1	—	1	—	1	—	1	—	—	4
AL	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	2
AR	2	—	1	—	1	—	1	—	—	5
AZ	1	—	1	—	2	—	1	—	2	7
CA	12	—	10	—	8	—	5	—	7	42
CO	7	—	4	2	4	2	3	1	—	23
CT	—	—	2	—	—	—	—	—	—	2
FL	3	—	2	—	2	—	—	—	3	10
GA	2	—	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	4
ID	1	—	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	3
IL	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	2
KY	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1	1
LA	—	1	1	—	—	2	—	—	—	4
MA	2	—	2	—	1	—	3	—	1	9
MD	—	—	—	—	1	—	1	—	—	2
ME	1	1	1	—	2	1	—	1	1	8
MI	—	—	2	—	1	—	1	—	—	4
MN	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1	1
MO	2	—	2	—	2	—	1	—	2	9
MS	—	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	1
MT	1	—	3	—	—	—	—	—	—	4
NC	1	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1
ND	—	—	2	—	—	—	—	—	1	3
NE	—	—	—	—	3	—	3	—	2	8
NJ	—	—	—	—	1	—	—	—	—	1
NM	1	—	—	—	—	—	1	—	—	2
NV	2	—	1	—	1	—	—	—	2	6
NY	—	1	—	—	—	—	1	—	1	3
OH	—	—	2	—	—	—	1	3	—	6
OK	5	—	1	—	2	—	—	—	—	8
OR	4	—	4	—	1	—	1	—	1	11
SD	3	—	1	—	—	—	1	—	—	5
TX	—	1	—	1	—	1	—	2	—	5
UT	—	—	3	—	—	—	—	—	—	3
VA	1	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1
WA	2	—	4	2	1	—	—	—	4	13
WI	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1	1
Total	56	4	52	5	37	6	27	7	30	224

Counts are unique statewide ballot measures in the estimation sample (224 measures in 37 states); a measure with a support and an oppose campaign counts once. Odd years are off-cycle state elections. Local measures are in Table A21.

Table A20: Statewide ballot measures in the estimation sample

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
AK	MEASURE 001	2016	Allow voter registration via permanent fund dividend application.	Support	$1.2M	—	8	P
AK	MEASURE 001	2018	Establish stricter salmon habitat protections and environmental permits.	Oppose	$1.7M	$12.0M	17	F
AK	MEASURE 001	2020	Increase taxes on North Slope oil production significantly.	Oppose	$1.5M	$18.8M	2	F
AK	BALLOT MEASURE 001	2022	Call a convention to amend Alaska's constitution.	Oppose	$62K	$4.6M	1	F
AL	AMENDMENT 002	2016	Protect state park funds from reallocation to general budget.	Support	$62K	—	3	P
AL	AMENDMENT 001 (PRIMARY)	2020	Change state board of education from elected to appointed.	Support	$476K	—	8	F
AR	ISSUE 003	2016	Remove 5% cap on state-issued economic development bonds.	Support	$386K	$29K	22	P
AR	ISSUE 006	2016	Legalize marijuana for medical use with state regulation.	Oppose	$1.7M	$426K	8	P
AR	ISSUE 005	2018	Raise minimum wage from $8.50 to $11.00 over three years.	Oppose	$1.5M	$155K	1	P
AR	ISSUE 001	2020	Make permanent the temporary 0.5% sales tax for transportation.	Support	$2.3M	$3K	19	P
AR	ISSUE 004	2022	Legalize recreational marijuana for adults age 21+.	Support	$14.1M	$2.8M	2	F
AZ	PROPOSITION 205	2016	Legalize marijuana for adults 21+; establish regulation system.	Oppose	$6.5M	$8.4M	18	F
AZ	Proposition 127	2018	Increase renewable energy standards to 50% by 2030	Oppose	$25.3M	$41.1M	2	F
AZ	Proposition 207	2020	Legalize recreational marijuana for adults 21+	Both	$6.0M	$1.1M	13	P
AZ	Proposition 208	2020	3.5% income tax on earnings above $250,000 for education	Oppose	$22.8M	$4.3M	4	P
AZ	Proposition 310	2022	0.1% sales tax for 20 years to fund fire districts	Support	$563K	—	2	F
AZ	Proposition 140	2024	Open primary with all candidates competing; possible ranked-choice voting	Support	$16.9M	$150K	3	F
AZ	Proposition 312	2024	Property tax refunds for non-enforcement of public nuisance laws	Support	$1.1M	—	13	P
CA	Proposition 51	2016	$9 billion bond for K-12 and community college facilities	Support	$11.3M	—	43	P
CA	Proposition 52	2016	Extend hospital fees for Medi-Cal indefinitely without regular reauthorization	Support	$15.3M	$11.1M	25	P
CA	Proposition 53	2016	Require voter approval for revenue bonds over $2 billion	Oppose	$5.0M	$21.3M	85	F
CA	Proposition 55	2016	Extend income tax increase on earnings over $250K for 12 years	Support	$61.1M	$2K	6	P
CA	Proposition 56	2016	Increase excise tax on cigarettes and tobacco products	Both	$38.5M	$71.2M	24	P
CA	Proposition 57	2016	Parole consideration for nonviolent felons; judges decide juvenile prosecutions	Oppose	$24.5M	$1.9M	5	P
CA	Proposition 58	2016	Allow multilingual education; repeal English-only immersion requirement	Support	$5.0M	—	16	P
CA	Proposition 61	2016	Limit state prescription drug purchases to VA pricing standards	Both	$19.2M	$109.3M	35	F
CA	Proposition 62	2016	Repeal death penalty; convert to life without parole	Both	$15.6M	$5.0M	6	F
CA	Proposition 63	2016	Background checks for ammo; ban large-capacity magazines over 10 rounds	Support	$4.1M	$743K	19	P
CA	Proposition 66	2016	Accelerated death penalty appeals procedures.	Support	$6.0M	$10.0M	3	P
CA	Proposition 67	2016	Upheld 2014 statewide single-use plastic bag ban.	Support	$1.6M	$2.9M	17	P
CA	Proposition 1	2018	$4B housing and veterans' loans bond act.	Support	$9.3M	—	45	P

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Table A20 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
CA	Proposition 10	2018	Repeal Costa-Hawkins; allow local rent control.	Both	$25.8M	$65.1M	33	F
CA	Proposition 11	2018	Allow ambulance firms to require on-call paid breaks.	Support	$30.0M	—	3	P
CA	Proposition 2	2018	$2B homelessness prevention bonds from Prop 63.	Support	$6.8M	—	45	P
CA	Proposition 3	2018	$8.9B water conservation and habitat bonds.	Support	$5.2M	—	21	F
CA	Proposition 4	2018	$1.5B children's hospital construction bonds.	Support	$11.5M	—	10	P
CA	Proposition 68 (Primary)	2018	$4B parks, environment, water, climate bond.	Support	$6.8M	—	2	P
CA	Proposition 69 (Primary)	2018	Lock SB 1 gas tax revenue to transportation only.	Support	$42.2M	—	43	P
CA	Proposition 72 (Primary)	2018	Exclude rainwater systems from property tax.	Support	$85K	—	12	P
CA	Proposition 8	2018	Cap dialysis clinic revenue; require refunds above 115% costs.	Oppose	$38.8M	$111.5M	3	F
CA	Proposition 13 (Primary)	2020	$15B K-12 and college facilities bond.	Support	$15.6M	—	105	F
CA	Proposition 15	2020	Tax commercial property at market value; fund schools/local govt.	Both	$81.7M	$68.1M	34	F
CA	Proposition 16	2020	Repeal Prop 209; allow race/sex-based preferences.	Support	$26.6M	$789K	11	F
CA	Proposition 17	2020	Restore voting rights for people on parole.	Support	$2.5M	—	16	P
CA	Proposition 18	2020	Allow 17-year-olds to vote in primaries.	Support	$1.3M	—	19	F
CA	Proposition 21	2020	Allow local rent control on 15+ year occupied units.	Oppose	$38.7M	$78.2M	6	F
CA	Proposition 22	2020	Classify app drivers as contractors, not employees.	Support	$205.1M	$19.4M	6	P
CA	Proposition 25	2020	Repeal 2018 bail reform; restore risk assessment system.	Oppose	$2.1M	$24.8M	3	F
CA	Proposition 1 - Right to Reproductive Freedom	2022	Constitutional amendment establishing right to abortion and contraceptives.	Support	$17.4M	$237K	4	P
CA	Proposition 26 - Legalize Sports Betting on Tribal Lands	2022	Authorization for in-person sports betting at tribal casinos and racetracks.	Both	$120.7M	$43.8M	8	F
CA	Proposition 27 - Legalize Online Sports Betting	2022	Legalization of online and mobile sports betting with homelessness funding.	Both	$169.6M	$237.8M	13	F
CA	Proposition 28 - Arts and Music K-12 Education	2022	Annual 1% K-12 funding minimum for arts and music instruction.	Support	$10.5M	—	7	P
CA	Proposition 30 - Electric Vehicle and Wildfire Tax	2022	1.75% income tax on earnings above $2 million for green infrastructure.	Oppose	$50.9M	$30.8M	2	F
CA	Proposition 1 - Behavioral Health Bond (March 2024)	2024	$6.38 billion bond for mental health treatment and homeless housing.	Support	$23.6M	$1.5M	22	P
CA	Proposition 2 - Public Education Facilities Bond	2024	$10 billion bond for K-12 and community college facility improvements.	Support	$14.6M	—	21	P
CA	Proposition 3 - Right to Marry Amendment	2024	Constitutional amendment protecting right to marry regardless of gender.	Support	$3.9M	—	3	P
CA	Proposition 33 - Local Rent Control Authority	2024	Allow cities and counties to enact rent control without state restrictions.	Oppose	$50.8M	$124.4M	2	F
CA	Proposition 35 - Managed Care Organization Tax Authorization	2024	Permanent tax on health insurance plans for Medi-Cal services.	Support	$53.7M	—	14	P

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Table A20 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
CA	Proposition 36 - Drug and Theft Crime Penalties	2024	Increase penalties for drug possession and theft; add treatment-mandated felonies.	Support	$14.8M	$7.9M	25	P
CA	Proposition 5 - Lower Supermajority for Local Bonds to 55%	2024	Reduce local bond vote requirement from two-thirds to 55% for housing and infrastructure.	Support	$29.3M	$28.7M	6	F
CO	Amendment 071	2016	Supermajority requirement and geographic signature distribution for constitutional amendments	Support	$24.8M	$2.0M	48	P
CO	Amendment 072	2016	Tobacco tax increase by $1.75 per pack of cigarettes	Both	$2.4M	$11.9M	24	F
CO	Amendment 69 - ColoradoCare State Health Care System	2016	Proposed universal single-payer health care system for Colorado.	Oppose	$603K	$5.1M	59	F
CO	Amendment 70 - $12 Minimum Wage	2016	Phased increase of minimum wage to $12 per hour by 2020.	Oppose	$5.3M	$2.3M	13	P
CO	Proposition 106	2016	Legalize medical aid-in-dying for terminally ill patients	Oppose	$11.0M	$2.8M	1	P
CO	Proposition 107	2016	Establish presidential primary elections and allow unaffiliated voter participation	Support	$6.0M	$71K	22	P
CO	Proposition 108	2016	Open primary elections to unaffiliated voters	Support	$6.0M	$71K	22	P
CO	Amendment 073	2018	Progressive income tax and corporate tax increase to fund K-12 education	Oppose	$1.5M	$4.2M	7	F
CO	Proposition 109	2018	$3.5 billion transportation bond for roads and bridges	Oppose	$779K	$7.2M	33	F
CO	Proposition 110	2018	Sales tax increase and bonds for multimodal transportation	Support	$7.2M	$30K	33	F
CO	Proposition 112	2018	2,500-foot setback for new oil and gas development	Oppose	$1.5M	$44.5M	21	F
CO	Proposition CC	2019	Allow state to retain revenue above TABOR limit	Support	$4.6M	$1.1M	3	F
CO	Proposition DD	2019	Legalize and tax sports betting; fund water projects	Support	$3.9M	—	5	P
CO	Amendment 077	2020	Allow local voter approval to expand casino games and increase bet limits	Support	$4.6M	—	4	P
CO	Amendment B	2020	Repeal Gallagher Amendment; freeze residential property tax rate	Support	$7.8M	$722K	5	P
CO	Proposition 115	2020	Ban abortions after 22 weeks of pregnancy	Oppose	$632K	$9.7M	1	F
CO	Proposition EE	2020	Tax increase on cigarettes, tobacco, and nicotine products.	Support	$5.0M	$4.5M	1	P
CO	Proposition 119	2021	LEAP program for out-of-school enrichment funded by marijuana sales tax increase.	Oppose	$3.0M	$84K	1	F
CO	Proposition 120	2021	Reduce property tax rates and retain $25 million TABOR surplus.	Support	$1.6M	—	1	F
CO	Proposition 123	2022	Dedicate income tax revenue to affordable housing funding programs.	Support	$6.6M	$10K	5	P
CO	Proposition 125	2022	Allow wine sales in grocery and convenience stores.	Support	$14.6M	$903K	16	P
CO	Proposition 126	2022	Allow third-party alcohol delivery from retailers and restaurants.	Support	$14.6M	$903K	16	F
CO	Proposition HH	2023	Property tax relief, backfill local governments, and new revenue cap.	Support	$3.4M	$2.1M	4	F
CT	Amendment 001	2018	Lockbox restricting Special Transportation Fund to transportation uses.	Support	$85K	—	14	P
CT	Amendment 002	2018	Require two-thirds legislative vote to transfer state properties.	Support	$180K	—	1	P
FL	Amendment 001	2016	Consumer protections for solar energy ownership and rooftop systems.	Support	$26.4M	$514K	4	F
FL	Amendment 002	2016	Medical marijuana legalization with patient/caregiver regulations.	Both	$5.7M	$3.5M	5	P

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Table A20 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
FL	Amendment 004	2016	Property tax exemption for solar and renewable energy devices.	Support	$2.6M	—	1	P
FL	Amendment 002	2018	Cap nonhomestead property tax assessment increases at 10%.	Support	$11.0M	$110K	1	P
FL	Amendment 003	2018	Voter approval required for casino gambling authorization.	Both	$46.2M	$16.7M	25	P
FL	Amendment 002	2020	Raise minimum wage to $15 per hour over six years.	Oppose	$6.2M	$686K	6	P
FL	Amendment 003	2020	Replace closed primaries with top-two open primaries for state offices.	Support	$7.7M	—	1	F
FL	AMENDMENT 003	2024	Marijuana legalization for adults 21+	Both	$133.2M	$33.2M	45	F
FL	AMENDMENT 004	2024	Right to abortion before fetal viability	Both	$109.8M	$11.0M	33	F
FL	Amendment 002	2024	Constitutional right to hunt and fish using traditional methods.	Support	$1.2M	$131K	11	P
GA	AMENDMENT 001	2016	State intervention in failing public schools	Support	$3.4M	$5.2M	1	F
GA	AMENDMENT 002	2016	Safe Harbor for sexually exploited children fund	Support	$531K	—	25	P
GA	AMENDMENT 001	2018	Outdoor recreation sales tax to land conservation	Support	$609K	—	10	P
GA	REFERENDUM A	2022	Timber equipment exempt from property taxes	Support	$461K	—	7	P
ID	HJR 005	2016	Veto-proof legislative oversight of administrative rules	Support	$107K	—	9	P
ID	PROPOSITION 002	2018	Medicaid expansion to 133% federal poverty level	Support	$1.7M	$60K	5	P
ID	SJR 102	2022	Legislature authority to call special session amendment	Oppose	—	$794K	7	P
IL	HJRCA 036	2016	Transportation funds lockbox amendment	Support	$3.8M	—	26	P
IL	SJR 001	2020	Allow graduated income tax rates	Both	$62.3M	$61.3M	10	F
KY	AMENDMENT 002	2024	Allow state funding for non-public education	Support	$5.2M	$10.3M	2	F
LA	AMENDMENT 001	2017	No property tax on properties under construction	Support	$533K	—	5	P
LA	AMENDMENT 002	2018	Require unanimous jury verdicts for felonies	Support	$2.1M	—	2	P
LA	AMENDMENT 001	2021	State and local streamlined sales tax commission	Support	$69K	—	2	F
LA	AMENDMENT 002	2021	Reduce maximum individual income tax rate	Support	$69K	—	2	P
MA	QUESTION 002	2016	Charter school enrollment cap expansion proposal	Support	$27.0M	$17.2M	22	F
MA	QUESTION 004	2016	Legalize and regulate recreational marijuana	Oppose	$6.8M	$3.1M	19	P
MA	QUESTION 001	2018	Establish maximum patient assignments per nurse	Oppose	$12.0M	$25.0M	1	F
MA	QUESTION 003	2018	Uphold law protecting transgender people in public accommodations	Support	$4.5M	$442K	30	P
MA	QUESTION 001	2020	Vehicle data access for independent repair shops	Both	$25.0M	$26.6M	18	P
MA	QUESTION 001	2022	4% tax on income over $1 million for education/transport	Oppose	$31.9M	$14.0M	5	P
MA	QUESTION 002	2022	Require dental insurers spend 83% on patient care	Oppose	$10.0M	$9.5M	4	P
MA	QUESTION 004	2022	Allow driver licenses without citizenship verification	Support	$3.5M	$187K	14	P
MA	QUESTION 005	2024	Eliminate tipped minimum wage; phase in full minimum	Oppose	$1.8M	$3.1M	17	F
MD	QUESTION 002	2020	Legalize sports betting for education funding	Support	$5.5M	—	5	P
MD	QUESTION 004	2022	Legalize recreational marijuana for adults 21+	Support	$450K	—	8	P
ME	QUESTION 002	2016	3% income tax surcharge on incomes over $200k	Oppose	$3.9M	$505K	6	P

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Table A20 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
ME	QUESTION 001	2017	Allow casino or slot machines in York County	Support	$13.5M	$723K	1	F
ME	QUESTION 001	2018	Tax payroll/non-wage income for universal home care	Oppose	$1.7M	$1.5M	24	F
ME	QUESTION 001 (JULY PRIMARY)	2020	High-speed internet infrastructure bond.	Support	$134K	—	3	P
ME	QUESTION 001 (MARCH PRIMARY)	2020	Religious and philosophical vaccination exemptions referendum.	Both	$461K	$943K	4	F
ME	QUESTION 001	2021	Stop the New England Clean Energy Connect transmission line.	Oppose	$27.7M	$79.5M	2	P
ME	QUESTION 003	2023	Create consumer-owned Pine Tree Power Company utility.	Oppose	$715K	$28.4M	1	F
ME	QUESTION 002	2024	$25 million research and development bond for science/tech.	Support	$109K	—	11	P
MI	PROPOSAL 18-1	2018	Legalizes recreational marijuana for adults 21+.	Both	$4.0M	$2.7M	9	P
MI	PROPOSAL 18-3	2018	Expand voter registration and absentee voting rights.	Oppose	$5.3M	$3.4M	1	P
MI	PROPOSAL 001	2020	Expand state and local park fund usage.	Support	$905K	—	1	P
MI	PROPOSAL 001	2022	Limit legislature to 12 combined years; require financial disclosures.	Support	$1.3M	$142K	8	P
MN	AMENDMENT 001	2024	Extend lottery revenue dedication for environment through 2050.	Support	$1.4M	—	1	P
MO	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT 001	2016	Renew 0.1% sales tax for parks and soil/water conservation.	Support	$195K	—	2	P
MO	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT 003	2016	Increase cigarette tax 60 cents over 4 years for early childhood.	Support	$13.9M	—	10	F
MO	PROPOSITION A (PRIMARY)	2018	Right-to-work law veto referendum.	Support	$6.6M	$29.3M	7	F
MO	Proposition D	2018	Gas tax increase and transportation infrastructure funding.	Support	$4.9M	—	30	F
MO	Amendment 002 (August Primary)	2020	Medicaid expansion to adults earning up to 138% of poverty.	Support	$14.3M	$112K	21	P
MO	Amendment 003	2020	Redistricting, lobbying, and campaign finance reforms.	Oppose	$158K	$7.4M	3	P
MO	Question 3	2022	Legalized recreational marijuana for adults age 21+.	Support	$8.4M	—	6	P
MO	Amendment 002	2024	Legalized sports betting statewide with 10% wagering tax.	Both	$45.6M	$14.2M	6	P
MO	Amendment 006	2024	Court fees to fund law enforcement salaries and benefits.	Support	$247K	—	1	F
MS	Ballot Measure 001	2020	Medical marijuana amendment (Initiative 65/Alternative 65A).	Support	$7.6M	$338K	2	P*
MT	I-181	2016	Biomedical research bonds for brain disease cures.	Support	$420K	$732K	2	F
MT	I-185	2018	Tobacco tax increase funding Medicaid expansion.	Support	$9.8M	$17.5M	7	F
MT	I-186	2018	Denied permits for hard rock mines requiring perpetual water treatment.	Oppose	$1.8M	$5.6M	1	F
MT	LR-128	2018	6-mill property tax for Montana University System.	Support	$1.9M	$4K	15	P
NC	HB 943 (Primary)	2016	$2 billion bond issuance for infrastructure and economic development.	Support	$1.7M	$3K	55	P
ND	Initiated Constitutional Measure 001	2018	Ethics commission, transparency, conflicts of interest, foreign contribution ban.	Oppose	$836K	$457K	4	P
ND	Initiated Constitutional Measure 003	2018	Legalized recreational marijuana for adults 21+.	Oppose	$94K	$344K	2	F
ND	Initiated Measure 004	2024	Prohibited property taxes on assessed real property value.	Oppose	$198K	$2.0M	2	F
NE	Initiative 429	2020	Constitutional amendment authorizing racetrack gambling	Both	$7.3M	$3.5M	4	P

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Table A20 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
NE	Initiative 430	2020	Authorize gambling operations at licensed racetracks	Both	$7.3M	$3.5M	4	P
NE	Initiative 431	2020	20% tax on racetrack gambling revenue	Both	$7.3M	$3.5M	4	P
NE	Amendment 001	2022	Allow local governments to develop commercial air service	Support	$284K	—	16	P
NE	Initiative 432	2022	Require photo ID for voting	Support	$2.2M	$77K	1	P
NE	Initiative 433	2022	Increase state minimum wage to $15/hour	Support	$3.1M	$51K	1	P
NE	Initiative 436	2024	Require employers to provide paid sick leave	Support	$3.5M	—	3	P
NE	Referendum 435	2024	Repeal education scholarship/school choice program	Support	$1.5M	$7.6M	3	P
NJ	Public Question 001	2020	Legalize recreational marijuana	Support	$2.0M	$10K	3	P
NM	Bond Measure C	2016	$141 million in higher education bonds	Support	$300K	—	20	P
NM	BOND QUESTION 003	2022	$215.99 million bonds for higher education, special public schools and tribal schools	Support	$349K	—	2	P
NV	Question 001	2016	Require background checks for firearm purchases	Support	$17.4M	$6.7M	10	P
NV	Question 003	2016	Open electricity markets; eliminate utility monopoly	Support	$3.4M	$910K	5	P
NV	Question 003	2018	Prohibit state-sanctioned electric utility monopolies	Oppose	$34.2M	$64.0M	2	F
NV	Question 001	2020	Remove Board of Regents from state constitution	Support	$1.3M	—	2	F
NV	QUESTION 006	2024	Right to Abortion until Fetal Viability	Support	$13.1M	—	2	P
NV	QUESTION 007	2024	Voter Identification Requirement for Voting	Support	$1.8M	$60K	2	P
NY	PROPOSAL 001	2017	Constitutional Convention Automatic Referendum	Both	$1.0M	$4.1M	7	F
NY	PROPOSAL 001	2022	Environmental Bond Act for Climate Investment	Support	$4.6M	—	15	P
NY	PROPOSAL 001	2024	Equal Protection Amendment Expanding Anti-Discrimination Protections	Both	$7.3M	$8.6M	4	P
OH	ISSUE 001	2018	Drug and Criminal Justice Sentencing Reductions	Oppose	$17.6M	$1.7M	8	F
OH	ISSUE 001 (PRIMARY)	2018	Congressional Redistricting Procedures Amendment	Support	$231K	—	2	P
OH	ISSUE 001	2022	Bail Determination Based on Public Safety Amendment	Support	$466K	—	1	P
OH	ISSUE 001	2023	Right to Reproductive Freedom Including Abortion	Support	$62.2M	$57.9M	2	P
OH	ISSUE 001 (SPECIAL)	2023	60% Vote Requirement for Constitutional Amendments	Both	$36.8M	$22.0M	5	F
OH	ISSUE 002	2023	Legalization of Recreational Marijuana	Both	$5.4M	$920K	9	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 777	2016	Right to Farm and Ranch Constitutional Amendment	Oppose	$1.6M	$2.5M	5	F
OK	STATE QUESTION 779	2016	One Percent Sales Tax Increase for Education	Both	$7.2M	$896K	18	F
OK	STATE QUESTION 780	2016	Drug and Property Crime Reclassification to Misdemeanors	Support	$4.7M	$4K	4	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 781	2016	Rehabilitative Programs Fund from Prison Cost Savings	Support	$4.7M	—	4	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 792	2016	Beer and Wine Sales in Retail Stores Amendment	Support	$5.3M	$12K	8	P
OK	STATE QUESTION 788 (PRIMARY)	2018	Medical Marijuana Legalization and Regulation	Oppose	$305K	$1.3M	13	P
OK	QUESTION 802 (PRIMARY)	2020	Medicaid Expansion to 133% Federal Poverty Level	Support	$3.0M	$311K	1	P
OK	QUESTION 805	2020	Criminal History Sentencing Enhancement Prohibition	Oppose	$2.5M	$303K	1	F
OR	MEASURE 097	2016	Corporate Minimum Tax Increase on Large Businesses	Oppose	$18.6M	$22.3M	87	F

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Table A20 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
OR	MEASURE 098	2016	State Funding for Dropout Prevention and College Readiness	Support	$10.5M	—	7	P
OR	MEASURE 099	2016	Outdoor School Education Fund	Support	$2.3M	—	6	P
OR	MEASURE 100	2016	Ban on wildlife trafficking and endangered species sales	Support	$3.2M	—	4	P
OR	MEASURE 101 (SPECIAL)	2018	Tax on hospital and insurer premiums for Medicaid expansion	Support	$9.4M	$393K	12	P
OR	MEASURE 102	2018	Allow municipal bonds for private affordable housing development	Support	$11.4M	—	3	P
OR	MEASURE 103	2018	Constitutional prohibition on future grocery taxes	Support	$6.3M	$14.3M	1	F
OR	MEASURE 104	2018	Require three-fifths vote for revenue through tax changes	Support	$2.8M	$11.7M	9	F
OR	MEASURE 108	2020	Increase tobacco/e-cigarette taxes for health treatment	Support	$10.7M	$56K	6	P
OR	MEASURE 114	2022	Firearm permit requirement and magazine capacity limits	Oppose	$4.7M	$190K	1	P
OR	MEASURE 118	2024	Corporate sales tax with resident rebate distribution	Oppose	$830K	$15.0M	13	F
SD	AMENDMENT R	2016	Governing boards for higher education institutions	Support	$486K	—	17	P
SD	INITIATED MEASURE 022	2016	Creates ethics commission and publicly funded campaigns	Oppose	$1.7M	$739K	8	P
SD	INITIATED MEASURE 023	2016	Right-to-work modification for non-union fees	Oppose	$991K	$332K	11	F
SD	INITIATED MEASURE 025	2018	Tobacco tax increase funds technical education	Support	$1.0M	$6.0M	14	F
SD	CONSTITUTIONAL AMENDMENT C (PRIMARY)	2022	Supermajority vote requirement for tax measures	Oppose	$906K	$2.8M	1	F
TX	PROPOSITION 002	2017	Home equity loan regulations amendment	Support	$1.6M	—	7	P
TX	PROPOSITION 005	2019	Sporting goods tax revenue for parks and wildlife	Support	$753K	—	1	P
TX	PROPOSITION 002	2021	Infrastructure bonds for blighted areas	Oppose	$520K	$5K	1	P
TX	PROPOSITION 001	2023	Right to farming and ranching agriculture	Support	$1.1M	—	1	P
TX	PROPOSITION 005	2023	Rename and fund Texas University research	Support	$1.5M	—	18	P
UT	PROPOSITION 002	2018	Medical marijuana legalization	Both	$945K	$1.1M	3	P
UT	PROPOSITION 004	2018	Independent redistricting commission	Support	$2.4M	—	1	P
UT	QUESTION 001	2018	10-cent gas tax for education and roads	Support	$2.7M	—	15	F
VA	QUESTION 001	2016	Constitutionalize state right-to-work protections	Support	$37K	—	4	F
WA	INITIATIVE 1464	2016	Public campaign financing via democracy credits	Oppose	$4.2M	$28K	1	F
WA	INITIATIVE 732	2016	Nation's first carbon tax; reduce sales tax 1%	Oppose	$2.9M	$1.5M	17	F
WA	INITIATIVE 1631	2018	Carbon emissions fee with environmental funding	Both	$15.2M	$31.6M	12	F
WA	INITIATIVE 1634	2018	Ban local taxes on groceries; corporate-backed	Support	$22.4M	$113K	5	P
WA	INITIATIVE 1639	2018	Raise minimum age and add restrictions for semiautomatic rifles	Support	$5.4M	$656K	2	P
WA	INITIATIVE 940	2018	Require de-escalation training; reform deadly force standards	Support	$3.2M	$289K	7	P
WA	INITIATIVE 976	2019	Cap vehicle licenses at $30; eliminate transport taxes	Oppose	$66K	$4.8M	46	P*
WA	REFERENDUM 088	2019	Vote on legislature's affirmative action authorization	Both	$408K	$649K	5	F
WA	REFERENDUM 090	2020	Approve comprehensive sexual health education mandate	Support	$1.7M	$315K	1	P
WA	INITIATIVE 2066	2024	Prevent restrictions on natural gas; protect consumer choice	Support	$9.5M	$6.0M	3	P

Continued on next page

Table A20 continued

State	Measure	Year	Description	Stance	$ For	$ Against	Firms	Out
WA	INITIATIVE 2109	2024	Eliminate 7% capital gains excise tax on investments	Both	$9.5M	$10.1M	4	F
WA	INITIATIVE 2117	2024	Repeal Climate Commitment Act; ban cap-and-trade	Both	$9.5M	$22.0M	4	F
WA	INITIATIVE 2124	2024	Allow opt-out from WA Cares insurance program	Support	$9.5M	$19.5M	3	F
WI	QUESTION 001 (PRIMARY)	2024	Prohibit legislature delegation of appropriation authority	Oppose	$17K	$4.8M	1	F

One row per measure (224 measures). Stance: the side of the measure the sample's politically active firms funded; Both marks the 31 measures with a support and an oppose campaign in the sample. "$ For" and "$ Against" report total contributions from all donors, not only the sample's firms, as recorded in OpenSecrets ballot measure contribution data. Firms: politically active firms in the estimation sample (the comparison against all workers at politically inactive firms), counted once per measure across its campaigns. Outcome codes: P = Passed, F = Failed, W = Withdrawn, P* = Passed but later overturned by court. Contribution data from OpenSecrets (formerly FollowTheMoney); descriptions from Ballotpedia.

Table A21: Local ballot measures in the estimation sample

Jurisdiction	Committee	Year	Stance	$ Contrib	Firms	Workers at politically active firms	Out
Douglas County School District RE-1, CO	INVEST IN DCSD	2023	Support	$159K	1	50	P/F
Jackson County, MO	Kansas City Sports Stadium Sales Tax (Question 1)	2024	Support	$6.0M	2	152	F
City of El Paso, TX	El Paso Proposition K	2023	Oppose	$589K	4	469	F
City of Seattle, WA	Yes for Transit	2020	Support	$128K	4	672	P
King County, WA	Harborview Health for All	2020	Support	$188K	4	171	P
City of Bellingham, WA	No on 4	2021	Oppose	$272K	2	44	F
King County, WA	Best Starts for Kids	2021	Support	$592K	2	341	P
Spokane School District 81, WA	Citizens for Spokane Schools (CFSS)	2021	Support	$19K	3	49	P
City of Olympia, WA	COMMITTEE TO INSPIRE OLYMPIA!	2022	Support	$20K	1	62	P
King County, WA	Conserve Our Future (Yes on KC Prop 1)	2022	Support	$82K	1	631	P
Tacoma School District 10, WA	Tacoma Citizens for Schools	2022	Support	$86K	4	455	P
Whatcom County, WA	Yes for Whatcom Kids!	2022	Support	$34K	1	652	P
City of Seattle, WA	Yes for Homes	2023	Support	$387K	5	168	P
City of Spokane, WA	Clean and Safe Spokane	2023	Support	$281K	1	229	P

One row per campaign (14 measures, each funded on one side). Year: year of the certified election date. "$ Contrib": total contributions to the committee from all donors in the state campaign-finance filings, not only the sample's firms. Firms: politically active firms in the estimation sample (the comparison against all workers at politically inactive firms). Workers at politically active firms: workers at those firms in that sample. Out: the measure's result, P = Passed, F = Failed, whichever side the committee took; a committee that backed two questions on one ballot shows both outcomes.